

French, Step by Step, Root by Root

An etymology-driven curriculum, built one word at a time

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This edition compiled incrementally — new chapters added as they
are written.

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Preface

This book teaches French one word at a time, and it teaches each word by taking it apart — traced back to its root (usually Latin), then forward to the English cousins you already own, so nothing here is a fresh thing to memorize. It is written for someone starting from zero, whose only shared language is English. *jour* ("day") arrives next to *journal* and *journey*; *salut* ("hi") turns out to wish you *health*, like *salute* and *salubrious*.

French has a close sibling in Spanish — both are worn-down Latin — so where a French word and its Spanish cousin descend from one Latin root, the book shows both and dwells on the *difference* between them (why the same *dies* became French *jour* but Spanish *día*; why French keeps *bonjour* singular where Spanish pluralizes *buenos días*). Every such comparison is supplied in full by the text — no prior Spanish is assumed; it is offered as enrichment, and a reader who happens to know Spanish simply nods along.

How to use this book

Every numbered section is one word, or one small phrase, and takes a few minutes — the length of a queue, an errand, or the walk to the bus. Read them in order the first time through: each section stands on the ones before it, and nothing is used before it has been taught. After that the book becomes reference, and you can open it anywhere.

Say the French out loud wherever you can. The prompts under *Your turn* are written to be spoken, and saying a word is most of what makes it stay. The questions under *Before you move on* carry their own answers in brackets: cover them, answer from memory, then look.

Nothing here is gated behind pronunciation. Each lesson names the one or two sounds its own word needs, exactly where they are needed. The whole system is gathered in a reference at the back of the book — somewhere to look things up when you are curious, never a chapter to sit through first.

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Chapter 1

Greetings

Modes: 🗣️ voice (9) 👁️ eyes (1) ✍️ pen (5) 🗣️ **Hands-free start:** first 1 of 15 lessons.

The French greetings, built from their pieces — a word for “good,” words for “day,” “evening,” “night,” and the gender machine that decides their endings. French and Spanish are both daughters of Latin; where a French word and its Spanish cousin split from one Latin root, both appear here, because the *difference* between them is often the lesson — and the text supplies the Spanish word whether or not you have met it before.

1.1 *salut* — “hi,” a wish for your health

Sounds you’ll need

Final **t** is silent: *salut* = *sa-LU*. The **u** is the front-rounded French *u*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

salut (informal “hi/bye”) ← Latin *salus*, *salutem* (“health, safety”). So *salut* literally wishes *health* — like old English “hail.” Cousins: **salute**, **salutation**, **salutary**, **salubrious**; and via *salvus* (“safe”), *save*, *salvation*.

Why it’s said this way

Strictly **informal**, and doubles as “bye.” For respect or a first meeting you reach for *bonjour* — just as Spanish, the other Latin daughter, reaches past its own casual *hola* for the fuller *buenos días*.

1.2 Writing runway I — notice and trace *salut*

No new French yet. Keep **salut** visible and point to its five written letters from left to right: **s-a-l-u-t**. Your voice finishes on **u**; the final **t** stays visible and silent.

Slowly finger-trace **salut** once, then trace it once in the air. Say *sa-LU* only after your finger reaches the silent **t**. This is noticing, not a penmanship test; use the lower-case forms you normally write.

1.3 Writing runway II — one supported copy

Keep **salut** visible and copy it once. Look back after every letter if you want. Touch **s-a-l-u-t** in your copy, then say *sa-LU* without adding a final *t* sound. Compare only the order and presence of the five letters. Repair one letter if needed, then stop.

1.4 Writing runway III — look, hide, write, compare

Look at **salut** for five seconds and touch the silent final **t**. Then:

1. cover the model;
2. wait five seconds;
3. write the word once from memory;
4. uncover **salut**, compare, and repair only the place that differs.

A repair is part of learning, not a failure. Stop after one memory attempt.

1.5 Writing runway IV — one heard-word dictation

Cover the answer at the end of this paragraph. Ask someone to say *sa-LU*, or use the narrated edition and listen without looking ahead. Write the familiar casual greeting from sound alone. Then uncover and compare: **salut**. Check its five letters and silent final **t**; repair one place if needed.

This completes the first trace-to-dictation runway. It is not yet a DILF mock: later lessons must grow this one known word into contact details, numbers, forms, and short practical messages.

1.6 *bien* — “well”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

bien (“well”) ← Latin *bene* → **benefit**, **benevolent**, **benediction**. Spanish, from the same *bene*, kept the very same spelling, *bien* — the two Romance languages inherited the adverb almost unchanged.

A complete one-word answer: *Comment ça va?* → *Bien.*; intensified, *très bien*. The adverb (“well”); the *adjective* “good” is a different word, *bon*, next.

1.7 *bon* / *bonne* — “good”

Sounds you’ll need

bon is nasal *bõ* (silent *n*); but **bonne** (feminine) is *bun* — the doubled *nn* cancels the nasal, so the two *sound* different despite looking alike.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

bon / **bonne** ← Latin *bonus* / *bona* → **bonus**, **bonanza**, **bounty** (via *bonté*), *bonbon*. Spanish, from the same *bonus* / *bona*, made *bueno* / *buena* — where French kept the *o* short, Spanish broke it into a diphthong (*o* → *ue*).

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bon **agrees** with its noun in gender and number — *bon* (m.), *bonne* (f.), *bons* (m.pl.), *bonnes* (f.pl.). This gender-agreement of adjectives is Latin’s legacy across the Romance languages (Spanish runs the same machine on *bueno* / *buena*). You’ll watch it: *bon jour* (m.) but *bonne nuit* (f.).

1.8 *le / la / les* — “the,” and the gender it carries

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

le ← *ille*, **la** ← *illa*, **les** ← *illos* — Latin demonstratives (“that one/those”) worn down into “the.” Spanish, from the very same *ille / illa / illos*, has *el / la / los*; and those same Latin demonstratives also gave French **il / elle** (“he/she”). (English “the” is Germanic — unrelated.)

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Every French noun is masculine or feminine — Latin’s three genders (masculine, feminine, neuter) collapsed to two, the neuter folding mostly into the masculine. Learn each noun *with* its article. French has one convenience: in the plural, both genders share a single article, *les*.

1.9 *jour* — “day,” and the road to English *journey*

Sounds you’ll need

j = *zh* (as in *measure*); **ou** = *oo*. So *jour* = *zhoor*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

le jour (masc.) ← Latin *diurnum* (“daytime”), from *dies* (“day”). That detour through *diurnum* is why *jour* looks nothing like Spanish *día* (which took *dies* directly). Cousins, mostly via French: **journal**, **journey** (a *day’s* travel — *journée*), **sojourn**, **adjourn** (*à jour*); and via *dies*: **diurnal**, **diary**.
So English journey and Spanish día are cousins, meeting at Latin dies — one through French, one direct.

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jour is **masculine** (*le jour*). Plural adds a silent *-s* (*les jours*) — heard only in *les*.

1.10 *bonjour* — assembled, and *not* plural

bon (“good”) + *jour* (“day”) = “good day,” one word, *bõ-zhoor*; *bon* is masculine because *jour* is.

Why it’s said this way

The contrast to bank: Spanish says *buenos días* — **plural**, the fossil of a blessing. French says *bonjour* — **singular**, just “good day.” Same two blocks, same roots; Spanish pluralized the blessing, French didn’t. And culturally *bonjour* is near-obligatory — opening a shop or a conversation *without* one reads as rude.

1.11 *soir* — “evening,” the same “late” Spanish used

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

le soir (masc., *swahr*) ← Latin *sērum* (“the **late** hour”), from *sērus* (“late”). Cousin: *soirée*. Spanish, from the same instinct, named its “afternoon” *tarde* ← *tardus*, “**late**” — two languages, two “late” words, the same idea of naming the later day after its lateness.

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le soir is **masculine**; plural *les soirs* (the *-s* silent, heard only in *les*).

1.12 *bonsoir* — good evening

bon + *soir* (masc.) = “good evening,” *bõ-swahr*; *bon* stays masculine. The evening swap for *bonjour*, and — like Spanish *buenas noches* — usable both arriving and leaving.

1.13 *nuit* — “night,” and a sound-change mirroring Spanish

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

la nuit (fem., *nwee*) ← Latin *noctem* (*noct-*) → **nocturnal**, **equinox**. The change is a *rule*, side by side with Spanish: Latin *-ct-* → Spanish *-ch-*, French *-it-*.

Latin	Spanish	French	English
<i>noctem</i>	noche	nuit	night
<i>lactem</i>	leche	lait	(lact-)
<i>factum</i>	hecho	fait	fact

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nuit is **feminine** (*la nuit*, from feminine Latin *nox*) — which is why “good night” is *bonne nuit*. Plural *les nuits*.

1.14 *bonne nuit* — good night, and the feminine *bon*

bonne (fem.) + *nuit* (fem.) = “good night” (*bun nwee*). At last *bon* in its feminine coat — and the whole agreement rule in one view:

bonjour (*jour* m. → *bon*) *bonsoir* (*soir* m. → *bon*) *bonne nuit* (*nuit* f. → *bonne*)

Why it’s said this way

Unlike *bonsoir* (an evening greeting), *bonne nuit* is a **farewell for bed**. French keeps them separate where Spanish overloads *buenas noches* for both. Next chapter: introducing yourself, and French’s own *tu* vs. *vous*.

1.15 Practice — choose, say, and write

Greet a friend casually, then a shopkeeper politely: *salut* / *bonjour*. Choose the greeting for daytime, evening, and bedtime: *bonjour*, *bonsoir*, *bonne nuit*. Say why the adjective is *bon*, *bon*, then *bonne*.

Finally, cover every printed *salut* on these pages. Write the casual greeting once from memory, uncover it, and check the silent final **t**. This closes the chapter's first trace-to-dictation runway without adding a new word.

Chapter 2

Introducing Yourself

Modes: ⇄ voice (7) 👁 eyes (2) ⇄ **Hands-free start:** none of the 9 lessons.

Now a first real exchange — giving your name, asking for someone else’s, and saying you’re glad to meet them:

— *Je m’appelle Mira.*
— *Comment vous appelez-vous?*
— *Je m’appelle Arun.*
— *Enchanté.*

We build it the same way as the greetings: each piece taken apart first, then assembled.

2.1 *je* — “I,” the smallest word you own

Sounds you’ll need

zhuh — soft *j* (as in *measure*), a light *uh*. Before a vowel it elides to *j’*:
je ai → *j’ai*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

je (“I”) ← Latin *ego*. The Latin form survives raw in English **ego**, **egoist**, **egotism** — so the word for “I” and the psychologist’s “ego” are the *same* ancient word, one worn down to a whisper (*je*), one kept whole. (Spanish took *ego* to *yo*; French wore it further, to *je*.)

2.2 *me* — “myself,” the same word as English *me*

Sounds you’ll need

muh — a light *uh*, like *je*. Before a vowel it elides to *m’*: *me appelle* → *m’appelle*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

me (“me, myself”) ← Latin *mē* (the accusative “me”) — literally the *same* word as English **me**. The whole family grows from one Proto-Indo-European root **me-*: English **me**, **my**, **mine**; Latin *mē* and *meus* (“my,” which became French *mon* / *ma* / *mes*). So the little *m’* in *je m’appelle* is a first-person marker you have owned in English all your life.

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The reflexive set. *me* is one of three pronouns that bounce a verb back on its doer: *me* (myself), *te* (yourself), *se* (himself/herself). Their roots run in parallel: *te* ← Latin *tē* (cousin of archaic English **thee**), *se* ← Latin *sē* (the “self” root behind **separate** and, distantly, **suicide**, *suī* “of oneself”). You’ll use *me* to say your name and *te* in the informal “what’s your name?”

2.3 *(s’)appeler* — “to call,” and “to call *oneself*”

Sounds you’ll need

a-play; the *-er* ending of the infinitive is a plain “ay.” In *m’appelle* the doubled *ll* keeps a crisp “l.”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

appeler (“to call”) ← Latin *appellāre* (“to address, call by name”). A rich English family: **appeal** (call to a higher authority), **appellation** (a name), **appellate** (a court that hears appeals), **appellant**. To name someone is, at root, to *call* them.

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Reflexive verbs — doing something to yourself. Pair this verb with the *me* you just met (§2.2) and you get *s'appeler*, “to call oneself”: *je me appelle*, “I call myself.” That is how French says a name — not “my name is” but “I call myself.” (English has the same move, hidden in “I call *myself*.”)

2.4 *je m'appelle...* — “my name is...,” literally “I call myself”

je (I, §2.1) + *me* (myself, §2.2, elided to *m'* before the vowel) + *appelle* (call, §2.3) = **je m'appelle...** — word for word “I call myself...,” and the everyday way to say “**my name is...**” *Je m'appelle Arun.* = “My name is Arun.” Three atoms, each traced; now they click together.

Why it's said this way

French *prefers* this verb-based “I call myself” to a literal “my name is.” The literal version, *mon nom est...* (“my name is...,” with *nom* ← Latin *nōmen* → English **noun**, **nominate**, **nominal**), exists and is understood, but it sounds stiff or officious — a form for a passport desk, not a introduction. Reach for *je m'appelle*.

2.5 *tu / vous* — “you,” familiar and formal

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

tu (familiar “you”) ← Latin *tū*; **vous** (formal/plural “you”) ← Latin *vōs* (“you all”). English lost the distinction — old *thou* was the *tu*, now vanished, leaving one flat *you* for everyone.

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Two “you”s, chosen by register. *tu* is for friends, family, children, peers; *vous* is for strangers, elders, anyone you’d show respect — and it doubles as the plural “you all.” French makes politeness by using the *plural* on one person (the verb has its own name for this: *vouvoyer*). This is the same politeness Spanish builds with *usted*, but by a

different mechanism: Spanish invented a new pronoun (from “your grace”); French just uses “you all” for one respected person. Using *tu* too soon can read as over-familiar — when unsure, *vous*.

2.6 *comment* — “how,” the same *quomodo* behind Spanish *cómo*

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

comment (“how”) ← Latin *quo modo* (“in what manner”), the two words fused and worn down. That exact phrase *quomodo* also became Spanish *cómo* — two Romance languages, one Latin “in-what-way,” reshaped differently. The piece *modo* (“manner, measure”) is itself alive in English **mode**, **model**, **moderate**.

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French uses *comment* (“how”) where English uses “what” for names — literally “*how* are you called?”, not “*what* is your name?”. The question is about the *manner* of your calling. Keep the French logic: *comment* = “how,” and the name-question is built on it.

2.7 *comment vous appelez-vous?* — “what’s your name?”

comment (how) + *vous appelez-vous* (“do you call yourself,” with the verb and *vous* swapped for a question) = literally “**how do you call yourself?**” — the polite “what’s your name?”

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Asking by inversion. A statement, *vous vous appelez* (“you call yourself”), becomes a question by flipping verb and pronoun: *vous appelez-vous?* (with a hyphen). The informal version simply swaps in *tu*: *comment tu t’appelles?* — note *te* elides to *t’*, exactly as *me* became *m’*.

2.8 *enchanté* — “delighted,” i.e. “pleased to meet you”

Sounds you’ll need

ahn-shahn-TAY: two nasal vowels (*en*, *an*), then a clean “tay.” *ch* = English *sh*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

enchanté (“delighted”) ← Latin *in-* (“upon”) + *cantāre* (“to sing, chant”): to *enchant* was literally to *sing a spell upon* someone. English kept the magic in **enchant**, **incantation**, and the plain **chant**. To say *enchanté* on meeting someone is to say, gallantly, “I’m *enchanted*.”

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It agrees with *you*. *enchanté* follows the gender rule from §1.8: a man says *enchanté*, a woman *enchantedée* (an extra *-e*, same sound). The adjective reports the speaker’s own gender.

2.9 The whole exchange

French	English
<i>Je m’appelle Mira.</i>	My name is Mira.
<i>Comment vous appelez-vous?</i>	What’s your name?
<i>Je m’appelle Arun.</i>	My name is Arun.
<i>Enchanté.</i>	Pleased to meet you.

Every piece was built from a root: *je* from *ego*, *appeler* from *appellāre* (appeal/appellation), *comment* from *quo modo*, *enchanté* from *in-cantāre*. Next chapter: *Comment ça va?* (“how’s it going?”) and answering with *bien* again — the recursive responding cycle.

Chapter 3

How Are You?

Modes: ⇄ **voice** (6) 👁 **eyes** (1) ⇄ **Hands-free start:** first 2 of 7 lessons.

Now the small talk that follows a name — thanking, answering a thank-you, and asking how someone is doing. French asks that last question with a verb of *motion*: not “how are you?” but “how does it *go*?”

- *Comment allez-vous?*
- *Très bien, merci. Et vous?*
- *Comme ci, comme ça.*

Each piece is taken apart first, then assembled.

3.1 *merci* — “thank you,” and it means *mercy*

Sounds you’ll need

mehr-SEE, with the soft guttural French *r* made at the back of the throat (never a tapped or rolled *r*). The stress falls at the end: *mehr-SEE*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

merci (“thank you”) ← Latin *mercēs* (“wages, reward, price, that which is earned”). Saying *merci* originally invoked a **reward** owed for a kindness — and, in old religious use, a plea for divine **mercy**, a reward you have not earned.

That one root *merc-* (“pay, trade, reward”) pays out a large English family: **mercy**, **merciful** (the reward/pity sense); **mercenary** (a soldier who fights for *wages*); and, through Latin *mercārī* (“to trade”),

merchant, commerce, market, mercantile. Even Mercury, the Roman god of merchants, is family.

Why it's said this way

Three sisters, three pictures of gratitude. The Romance languages each chose a different metaphor for “thank you.” French *merci* comes from *mercēs*, a **reward** (and so, mercy). Spanish *gracias* comes from Latin *grātia*, **grace** or favour. Portuguese *obrigado* comes from Latin *obligātus*, “I am **obliged**.” Same feeling, three quite different pictures — French hands you a reward, Spanish hands you grace, Portuguese declares itself in your debt.

3.2 *de rien* — “you’re welcome”: “of nothing”

Sounds you’ll need

duh ryan, where that final syllable is **nasal**: the air goes out through the nose and there is no hard *n* at the end. Two things to keep: the nasal ending of *rien*, and the guttural French *r* at the back of the throat.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

de (“of, from”) ← Latin *dē*. **rien** (“nothing”) ← Latin *rem*, the accusative of *rēs*, “a thing.”

In Latin *rem* meant a **thing**, something real. French kept using it inside negations — *ne ...rien*, “not ...a thing” — until the word for *thing* absorbed the negation around it and **rien came to mean “nothing” all by itself**. Latin *rēs* also gives English **real**, **republic** (*rēs pūblica*, “the public thing”), and **rebus**. So *rien* is, at the root, a *real thing* that learned to mean nothing at all.

Why it's said this way

The same move, twice. Spanish did the identical thing with *nada*, which comes from Latin *nāta*, “a born thing” — again a *thing* word that collapsed into a *nothing* word. The two replies sit side by side:

Language	“You’re welcome”	The “nothing” word
French	<i>de rien</i>	<i>rien</i> ← <i>rem</i> , “a thing”
Spanish	<i>de nada</i>	<i>nada</i> ← <i>nāta</i> , “a born thing”

Two sister languages, one instinct: wave the favour off as no *thing* at all.

3.3 *aller* — “to go,” the verb behind “how are you?”

Sounds you’ll need

The infinitive ending *-er* is a clean “ay”: *aller* = *ah-LAY*. The doubled *ll* is just one *l* sound, and the *r* of the ending is silent.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

aller (“to go”) is one of the great messes of French: it is **suppletive**, meaning it was stitched together out of **three** different Latin verbs, and the seams still show in its everyday forms.

je vais (“I go”) ← Latin *vādere*, “to go, to rush” → English **invade**, **evade**, **wade** — all going-words.

nous allons (“we go”), and the infinitive *aller* itself, ← Latin *ambulāre*, “to walk” → English **amble**, **ambulance** (a walking hospital), **preamble**, **perambulate**.

j’irai (“I will go”) ← Latin *īre*, “to go” → English **exit** (*ex-it*, “he goes out”), **transit**, **initial**.

So one French verb carries three separate Latin roots for motion.

Grammar Lens

“Going” used for “being.” You do not need to conjugate *aller* yet — only to recognize one form: *ça va*, “it goes” (the *va* is the *vādere* piece). Many languages borrow a verb of motion to talk about a *state*: English asks “how are you getting on?” or “how’s it going?” French made exactly that the standard question. Spanish instead asks with *estar*, “to stand” (*¿cómo estás?*). One language stands, the other walks

— two different pictures of a life.

3.4 *comment ça va?* — “how are you?”

comment (how, §2.6) + *ça* (it, this) + *va* (goes, from *aller*, §3.3) = **Comment ça va?** — word for word, “How does *it* go?” and the single most useful question in spoken French.

ça means “it, this,” worn down from Latin *ecce hoc*, “behold this.” The two-word version, *Ça va?* (“It goes?”), is what people actually say — and you can answer it with the very same two words: *Ça va.* (“It goes” = “I’m fine.”)

Grammar Lens

A ladder of three registers. French offers a neat climb from casual to formal. *tu* is the familiar “you” (a friend, a peer); *vous* is the formal or plural “you” (a stranger, an elder, a group).

Register	Question	Literally
Casual, universal	<i>Comment ça va?</i> (or <i>Ça va?</i>)	“How does <i>it</i> go?”
Informal, one friend	<i>Comment vas-tu?</i>	“How go <i>you?</i> ”
Formal or plural	<i>Comment allez-vous?</i>	“How go <i>you</i> (vous)?”

vas and *allez* are simply the *tu* and *vous* forms of *aller*. For a stranger or a boss, reach for *Comment allez-vous?*

Sounds you’ll need

comment ends in a nasal vowel and a silent *t*: *ko-mahn*. But in *Comment allez-vous* that silent *t* wakes up and glues onto the following vowel — this is called **liaison** — *ko-mahn-ta-lay-VOO*.

3.5 *comme ci, comme ça* — the classic French shrug

Someone asks *Ça va?* and you are neither great nor bad. The perfect answer — a phrase English borrowed whole — is **comme ci, comme ça**, literally “like this, like that.” A verbal shrug of the shoulders.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

comme (“like, as”) ← Latin *quōmodo*, “in what manner” — the *same* root as *comment* (“how”, §2.6). One Latin word, two French children: *comment* is “in what manner?” asked as a question, *comme* is “in the manner of, like.”

ci (“here, this”) ← Latin *ecce hic*, “behold here.” **ça** (“there, that”) ← Latin *ecce hoc*, “behold this” — the very same *ça* as in *Ça va?*

So you are literally waving a hand: *a bit like this way, a bit like that way* — neither up nor down.

Grammar Lens

Your answer set for *Ça va?* Recall *bien*, “well” (§1.6, from Latin *bene*); *Ça va bien* is “it’s going well.”

Answer	Sense
<i>(Très) bien, merci</i>	(Very) well, thank you
<i>Ça va</i>	Fine, okay (“it goes”)
<i>Comme ci, comme ça</i>	So-so
<i>Pas mal</i>	Not bad

Why it’s said this way

Every language has its shrug, and each paints it differently: Spanish says *más o menos* (“more or less”) or *regular*; Italian says *così così* (“so so”); French says *comme ci, comme ça* (“like this, like that”). Same gesture, three pictures.

3.6 The whole exchange

No new words — this chapter’s atoms assemble into a real exchange, run once formally and once informally. The glue is *et vous?* / *et toi?*, “and you?” (*et* = “and,” from Latin *et*; *toi* is the stressed form of *tu*). It bounces the question straight back, exactly as Spanish does with *¿y usted?* / *¿y tú?*

Formal — a stranger, an elder:

- *Bonjour. Comment allez-vous?*
- *Très bien, merci. Et vous?*
- *Comme ci, comme ça.*
- [after a small favour] *Merci!* — *De rien.*

Informal — a friend:

- *Salut! Ça va?*
- *Ça va, et toi?*
- *Comme ci, comme ça.*

French	English
<i>Merci.</i>	Thank you.
<i>De rien.</i>	You’re welcome.
<i>Comment allez-vous?</i>	How are you? (formal)
<i>Comment vas-tu?</i>	How are you? (informal)
<i>Ça va?</i>	How’s it going?
<i>Ça va bien.</i>	It’s going well.
<i>Comme ci, comme ça.</i>	So-so.
<i>Pas mal.</i>	Not bad.

Every piece came from a root: *merci* from *mercēs* (“reward, mercy”), *rien* from *rem* (“a thing”), *aller* from *ambulāre, vādere* and *īre*, *comme* from *quōmodo*. Next chapter: the farewells — *au revoir*, *à bientôt*, *à demain*.

Chapter 4

Farewells

Modes: 🔄 voice (5) ✍ pen (3) 🔄 Hands-free start: first 5 of 8 lessons.

You can open a French conversation; now close it. French has one plain goodbye and a small family of soft ones, all built the same way — the preposition *à* (“to”) followed by a time word:

— *Bon...à demain, Marc.*
— *À demain, Chloé. Au revoir!*

4.1 *au revoir* — “goodbye,” i.e. “until we see each other again”

Sounds you’ll need

oh ruh-VWAHR, with two guttural French *r*’s made at the back of the throat. The letter pair *oi* is pronounced *wa*, so *-voir* = *vwahr* (the same *oi* as in *soir*, §1.11).

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

au revoir is *au* + *revoir*, “at the re-seeing.” *au* is a fusion of *à* (“to, at”) + *le* (“the”). *revoir* is **re-** (“again”) + **voir** (“to see”), so the whole phrase literally means “**until the seeing-again**” — a small promise that this is not the end.

voir comes from Latin *vidēre*, “to see,” one of the richest roots English owns: **vision**, **visible**, **visit**, **visa**, **view**, **video** (“I see”); and with prefixes, **revise** (“look again”), **evident** (“seen out”), **provide**, **supervise**, **survey**.

Why it's said this way

A goodbye that sees. German builds its farewell out of exactly the same idea: *Auf Wiedersehen* is *auf* (“on”) + *wieder* (“again”) + *sehen* (“to see”) — “on the seeing-again.” French and German, side by side, both promise a re-seeing. Spanish *adiós* takes a different road entirely: it commends you *to God* (*a Dios*). Same moment of parting, two quite different pictures.

4.2 *à plus tard* — the casual “see you later”

Sounds you'll need

In the full phrase, *plus* is *ploo* with a silent *s*, and *tard* is *tar* with a silent *d*: *ah ploo TAR*. But in the clipped form *à plus*, the *s* is sounded: *ah PLUSS*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

à (“to, at”) ← Latin *ad* — French’s all-purpose farewell preposition.
plus (“more”) ← Latin *plūs*, the very **plus** you already write in English, and the *plu-* of **plural** and **surplus**. **tard** (“late”) ← Latin *tarde*, “slowly, late” → English **tardy** and **retard** (“to hold back, make late”).

So *à plus tard* is literally “to more late” — see you at some later point. Among friends it shrinks to just *à plus*.

Why it's said this way

Spanish inherited that identical Latin *tarde* — but the two languages grew it in different directions. French kept it meaning **late** (*tard*); Spanish grew it into **afternoon** (*tarde*). One Latin word, two everyday meanings. And where French leans on *à* for its soft goodbyes, Spanish leans on *hasta* (“until”): *hasta luego* is the twin of *à plus tard*.

4.3 à *bientôt* — “see you soon”

Sounds you’ll need

bien is nasal — *byan*, air through the nose, no hard *n*. *bientôt* = *byan-TOH*; the circumflex on *ô* simply marks a long *o*, and the final *t* is silent. The whole phrase: *ah byan-TOH*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

à **bientôt** = “to soon” → “see you soon.” The second word is a compound you can pull apart: **bien** (“well,” §1.6, from Latin *bene* — the *bene* of **benefit**) + **tôt** (“early, soon”) = “well-soon,” that is, *quite soon*.

The circumflex on *ô* is itself a history lesson: in French a circumflex usually marks an **s that dropped out**. *hôtel* was once *hostel*; *forêt* was once *forest*; and *tôt* came from an older *tost*. The little hat is the ghost of a lost *s*.

Grammar Lens

bien, the intensifier. You met *bien* as “well,” an answer to *Ça va?* Here it does a second job: it glues onto another word to strengthen it. *bien* + *tôt* = *bientôt*, “soon indeed.” French loves this move — *bienvenue* (“welcome”) is literally *bien* + *venue*, “well-come.” Same word, new trick.

4.4 à *demain* — “see you tomorrow”

Sounds you’ll need

demain = *duh-MAN*, where the ending *-ain* is a nasal vowel (the same nasal as in *pain*, *main*) and the final consonant is silent. The whole phrase: *ah duh-MAN*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

à **demain** = “to tomorrow” → “see you tomorrow.” **demain** (“tomorrow”) ← Latin *dē māne*, “from the morning”: *dē* = “from,” *māne* = “in the morning.” The next morning is *tomorrow*, and the two

words fused into *demain*.

English keeps that *māne* too, in the poetic **matins** (morning prayers) and in **matinée**, a daytime show.

Why it's said this way

The hidden twin. Spanish *mañana* (“tomorrow, morning”) comes from Latin (*hōra*) *maneana*, built on the *same māne* (“morning”). So French *demain* and Spanish *mañana* are cousins through one Latin word — both turning “morning” into “tomorrow,” just assembled differently: French says *from-morning*, Spanish says *morning-ish hour*.

Grammar Lens

The à ... farewells, complete. All of French’s soft goodbyes are *à* + a time word, where Spanish uses *hasta* (“until”) + a time word:

French	Spanish	When
<i>à plus tard</i> (or <i>à plus</i>)	<i>hasta luego</i>	Later — the default
<i>à bientôt</i>	<i>hasta pronto</i>	Soon
<i>à demain</i>	<i>hasta mañana</i>	Tomorrow

And *au revoir* for the plain goodbye.

4.5 Saying goodbye, start to finish

No new words. The farewells now close a real conversation and fold back into everything since *salut*.

You are...	Say
Parting plainly or politely	<i>Au revoir.</i>
Expecting to meet again shortly	<i>À bientôt.</i>
Casually saying “see you”	<i>À plus (tard).</i>
Leaving for the day	<i>À demain.</i>

The whole exchange, drawing on Chapters 1 through 4:

— *Salut! Je m'appelle Chloé. Comment tu t'appelles?*
 — *Je m'appelle Marc. Enchanté.*

- *Ça va?*
- *Ça va bien, merci, et toi?*
- *Très bien. Bon...à demain, Marc.*
- *À demain, Chloé. Au revoir!*

What this chapter built: *au revoir*, the plain goodbye that promises a *re-seeing* (the *vidēre* family, twin of German *Auf Wiedersehen*); and *à plus tard* / *à bientôt* / *à demain* — later, soon, tomorrow, all *à* + a time, mirroring Spanish's *hasta*. You can now hold a whole short French exchange, hello to goodbye. Next chapter: your first verbs, and your first sentence built from scratch.

Chapter 5

The First Verbs

Modes: ⇄ voice (4) 👁 eyes (1) ⇄ Hands-free start: none of the 5 lessons.

Until now you have assembled fixed phrases. This chapter hands you a *pattern* instead: the regular *-er* verbs, the largest verb family in French by a wide margin. Learn the one template and thousands of verbs come with it — and with it you build your first sentence that nobody handed you pre-made.

5.1 *parler* — “to speak,” the model *-er* verb

Sounds you’ll need

The infinitive ending *-er* is a clean “ay”: *parler* = *par-LAY* (the *r* of that ending is silent). What is left when you strip the ending is the **stem**, *parl-*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

parler (“to speak, to talk”) ← Late Latin *parabolāre*, “to tell parables, to discourse,” from *parabola* (“a comparison, a speech”), itself from Greek *parabolē*, “a throwing-beside.” So to *speak*, in French, is at root to *tell parables*.

That root fans out into English: **parable**, the story-comparison itself; **parole**, a spoken word of honour (as a prisoner’s parole); **palaver**, a long talk; **parley**, to talk terms; and even **parliament**, a talking-place.

Grammar Lens

The -er present tense. Drop *-er* from the infinitive, then add the ending that belongs to the person. (*je* = I, *tu* = you familiar, *il / elle* = he / she, *nous* = we, *vous* = you formal or plural, *ils / elles* = they.)

Person	Ending	<i>parler</i>	Sounds like
<i>je</i>	<i>-e</i>	<i>je parle</i>	<i>parl</i>
<i>tu</i>	<i>-es</i>	<i>tu parles</i>	<i>parl</i>
<i>il / elle</i>	<i>-e</i>	<i>il parle</i>	<i>parl</i>
<i>nous</i>	<i>-ons</i>	<i>nous parlons</i>	<i>par-LON</i>
<i>vous</i>	<i>-ez</i>	<i>vous parlez</i>	<i>par-LAY</i>
<i>ils / elles</i>	<i>-ent</i>	<i>ils parlent</i>	<i>parl</i>

Here is the great French surprise: ***-e*, *-es* and *-ent* are all silent.** *je parle*, *tu parles* and *ils parlent* sound identical — just *parl*. Only the *nous* form (*-ons*) and the *vous* form (*-ez*) are audible.

Grammar Lens

Why French keeps its pronouns. That silence has a consequence which shapes the whole language. In Spanish, the ending alone tells you who is speaking — *hablo* (“I speak”) against *hablas* (“you speak”) — so the pronoun can be dropped. In French your ear cannot hear any difference between *parle*, *parles* and *parlent*, so the **pronoun must stay** to carry the person. *Je* and *tu* are not optional decoration in French; they are the only thing telling you who is doing the speaking.

5.2 *habiter* — “to live,” and it is about *having a place*

Sounds you’ll need

The **h** is silent — French *h* is never pronounced. So *habiter* = *a-bee-TAY*, with the same *-er* = “ay” ending as *parler*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

habiter (“to live, to dwell”) ← Latin *habitāre*, “to dwell, to keep on having [a place]” — the **frequentative** of *habēre*, “to have.” A frequentative is a verb of repeated action, so to *dwell* somewhere is, at root, to *keep having* it as your place.

The root is thoroughly at home in English: **habitat**, the place a creature dwells; **inhabit**, **inhabitant**, **habitation**. And through *habēre* (“to have”) come **habit**, what you keep having, and **able** / **ability**, what you have it in you to do.

Grammar Lens

The same template, silent trap and all. Drop *-er*, add the endings — identical to *parler*:

Person	<i>habiter</i>	Sounds like
<i>je</i>	<i>j’habite</i>	<i>a-BEET</i>
<i>tu</i>	<i>tu habites</i>	<i>a-BEET</i>
<i>il / elle</i>	<i>il habite</i>	<i>a-BEET</i>
<i>nous</i>	<i>nous habitons</i>	<i>a-bee-TON</i>
<i>vous</i>	<i>vous habitez</i>	<i>a-bee-TAY</i>
<i>ils / elles</i>	<i>ils habitent</i>	<i>a-BEET</i>

Note *j’habite*: *je* elides to *j’* before the vowel of *habite*. Because the *h* is silent, the word *counts* as beginning with a vowel. With this verb you can answer an *où* (“where”) question: *J’habite à Paris.* — “I live in Paris.”

5.3 *travailler* — “to work,” and the torture behind *travel*

Sounds you’ll need

The letters *-ill-* carry a *y* glide: *travailler* = *tra-va-YAY*, with the same *-er* = “ay” ending. The conjugated *je travaille* is *tra-VYE*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

travailler (“to work”) ← Vulgar Latin *tripaliāre*, “to torture,” from *tripalium*, a Roman instrument of torture made of **three stakes** (*tri*- “three” + *pālus* “stake” → English **pale**, **impale**).

The slide of meaning is grim and perfectly logical: *torture* → *painful toil* → *work*. Two English words came down that same road: **travail**, painful and laborious effort; and **travel**, because journeying was once such an ordeal that the word for toil became the word for taking a trip. Etymologically, you are tortured every time you travel.

Why it’s said this way

Spanish *trabajar* (“to work”) comes from the very same *tripaliāre* — a perfect cross-language twin, torture and all. The middle of the word went one way in each language: the *-al-* stayed in French (*travail*, *travailler*) and softened to *-aj-* in Spanish (*trabajo*, *trabajar*).

Grammar Lens

Nothing new — and that is the point. One template, every *-er* verb:

Person	<i>travailler</i>	Sounds like
<i>je</i>	<i>je travaille</i>	<i>tra-VYE</i>
<i>tu</i>	<i>tu travailles</i>	<i>tra-VYE</i>
<i>il / elle</i>	<i>il travaille</i>	<i>tra-VYE</i>
<i>nous</i>	<i>nous travaillons</i>	<i>tra-va-YON</i>
<i>vous</i>	<i>vous travaillez</i>	<i>tra-va-YAY</i>
<i>ils / elles</i>	<i>ils travaillent</i>	<i>tra-VYE</i>

Je travaille à Paris. — “I work in Paris.”

5.4 *Je parle français* — your first real sentence

Je (I, §2.1) + *parle* (speak, from *parler*, §5.1) + *français* (French) = **Je parle français**. A complete, grammatical French sentence — and the first one you assembled yourself rather than learned whole.

Sounds you'll need

français = *frah-n-SEH*. The cedilla under the *ç* forces a soft *s* sound where a plain *c* would have been hard; the opening *fran-* is nasal, and the final *-ais* is a plain *eh*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

français (“French” — both the language and a French person) ← *Francia*, “land of the **Franks**,” the Germanic people who settled Roman Gaul and gave France its name. And here is the twist: the Franks’ own name meant “**free**.” That is why English **frank** and **frankly** mean open and unguarded, and why the old French coin was called a *franc*.

Grammar Lens

Two rules hiding in four words. First, **you keep the *je***. Spanish drops its pronoun — *hablo español* says “I speak Spanish” with no word for “I,” because the ending *-o* carries the person. French cannot do that: *parle*, *parles* and *parlent* all sound alike (§5.1), so the pronoun must stay. This is the single biggest structural difference between French and its Iberian cousins.

Second, **no article on the language** here: *je parle français*, not *je parle le français*.

Swap the pieces and the pattern generates new sentences: *J’habite à Paris*. (“I live in Paris.”) and *Tu parles français?* (“Do you speak French?” — no extra words needed, just raise the tone at the end).

5.5 Making sentences with *-er* verbs

No new words. For the first time you are not reciting phrases — you are *building* them from a pattern. Run each verb through *je / tu / il* and listen: nothing changes.

Verb	<i>je</i>	<i>tu</i>	<i>il</i>
<i>parler</i>	<i>je parle</i>	<i>tu parles</i>	<i>il parle</i>
<i>habiter</i>	<i>j’habite</i>	<i>tu habites</i>	<i>il habite</i>
<i>travailler</i>	<i>je travaille</i>	<i>tu travailles</i>	<i>il travaille</i>

Every singular form — and the *ils* form too — *sounds* the same, because *-e*, *-es* and *-ent* are silent. That is exactly why *je*, *tu* and *il* stay put: they carry the person your ear cannot hear.

Now say something real:

— *Tu parles français?* — *Oui, je parle un peu.*
 — *Où habites-tu?* — *J'habite à Lyon. Et je travaille à Paris.*
 — *Merci!* — *De rien.*

(*oui* = “yes”; *un peu* = “a little”; *où* = “where”; and *merci* / *de rien* come straight back from Chapter 3.)

French	English
<i>Je parle français.</i>	I speak French.
<i>Tu parles français?</i>	Do you speak French?
<i>Oui, je parle un peu.</i>	Yes, I speak a little.
<i>J'habite à Paris.</i>	I live in Paris.
<i>Je travaille à Lyon.</i>	I work in Lyon.

What this chapter built: the **regular -er present tense** — drop *-er*, add *-e* / *-es* / *-e* / *-ons* / *-ez* / *-ent*, where the singular endings and the *ils* ending are silent, which is why the subject pronoun is mandatory. Three verbs to drill it: *parler* (from *parabolāre* — parable, parole), *habiter* (from *habitāre* — habitat, inhabit), *travailler* (from *tripalium* — travail, travel; twin of Spanish *trabajar*). And *Je parle français*, your first self-assembled sentence, with *français* from *Francia*, the land of the Franks, whose name meant “free.” French now moves in real sentences.

Chapter 6

Numbers One to Ten

Modes: 👁 eyes (2) ⇌ **Hands-free start:** none of the 2 lessons.

Numbers are the most-reused words in any language, and French — like its sibling Spanish — inherited them almost unchanged from Latin. So you already half-know them from English, and a *Spanish twin* stands beside each one.

6.1 *un, deux, trois, quatre, cinq* — counting to five

Sounds you'll need

un is a nasal vowel, œ said through the nose — close to “uh” hummed nasally; no *n* is actually pronounced.

deux = *deuh*, with the rounded *eu*; the *x* is silent.

French	← Latin	Spanish twin	English cousins
<i>un</i> (1)	<i>ūnus</i>	<i>uno</i>	unit, union, unique, universe
<i>deux</i> (2)	<i>duo</i>	<i>dos</i>	duo, dual, duet, double
<i>trois</i> (3)	<i>trēs</i>	<i>tres</i>	trio, triple, trident, triangle
<i>quatre</i> (4)	<i>quattuor</i>	<i>cuatro</i>	quart, quarter, quatrain, quadrant
<i>cinq</i> (5)	<i>quīnque</i>	<i>cinco</i>	quintet, quintessence

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

un also lives on in English *a/an* and *one*; French *cinq* was borrowed straight into English as **cinq**, the 5 on dice.

Latin *ūnus*, *duo*, *trēs* barely changed on the way into French and Spanish alike — *trois* and *tres* are the same Roman *trēs*, just worn two different ways.

Grammar Lens

un → **un** / **une** (**one** = **a/an**). *un* doubles as the article “a/an,” and it takes gender: *un* (masculine) / *une* (feminine) — *un café* “a/one coffee,” *une bière* “a/one beer.” French makes no difference between “one” and “a,” exactly like Spanish *un/una*. The others (*deux*, *trois* ...) don’t change.

6.2 *six*, *sept*, *huit*, *neuf*, *dix* — and the calendar’s secret

The rest of the way to ten. These four hide the same fact the English and Spanish numbers do: *septembre*–*décembre* are just Latin for 7, 8, 9, 10. And *huit* shows how violently French can wear a Latin word down.

Sounds you’ll need

six and *dix* end in an *-s* sound when counting (*sees*, *dees*) but go silent before a consonant (*six livres* = *see livres*) — a liaison quirk.

neuf = *nuhf*; its *f* turns to a *v* sound before a vowel (*neuf ans* = *neu-v-ans*).

French	← Latin	Spanish twin	English cousins
<i>six</i> (6)	<i>sex</i>	<i>seis</i>	sextet , sextant , semester
<i>sept</i> (7)	<i>septem</i>	<i>siete</i>	septembre (the 7th month!), septet
<i>huit</i> (8)	<i>octō</i>	<i>ocho</i>	octobre (8th), octave , octopus
<i>neuf</i> (9)	<i>novem</i>	<i>nueve</i>	novembre (9th), novena
<i>dix</i> (10)	<i>decem</i>	<i>diez</i>	décembre (10th), decimal , dime

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Look at **huit**: Latin *octō* lost its *c*, softened, and grew an *h*- prop — *octō* → *oit* → *huit*. The number is unrecognizable, but *octobre* keeps the old *oct*- intact, so the 8 is still visible in the *month*.

And *dix* gave English **dime** (a tenth of a dollar), through Old French *disme* ← *decima* “a tenth.”

Grammar Lens

Why the months are “off by two.” *Septembre* means “7th,” yet it is the 9th month. Why? The old Roman year began in March, so *September* really was the seventh. Julius and Augustus later inserted *juillet* and *août* (named for themselves), shoving the counting months out of place — but the Latin numbers stuck. Every *décembre*, you are saying Roman “ten.” (Identical to the Spanish story — *diciembre* ← *decem* too.)

Chapter 7

The Days of the Week

Modes: 👁 eyes (2) ⇔ **Hands-free start:** none of the 2 lessons.

The seven-day week is one of humanity’s oldest inheritances, and its day-names are a map of the sky: the Romans named each day for a planet-god. French kept that map almost intact — and then religion overwrote the last two.

7.1 *lundi* to *vendredi* — the planets of the week

Once you see the trick, five days decode at once.

Sounds you’ll need

lundi = *luh(n)-DEE*, with the nasal *un* you met in *un* (one).

The shared ending *-di* is always *DEE*.

Every French weekday ends in *-di*, which is Latin *diēs*, “day.” The first part is a planet-god. Read each one as “[god]’s day”:

French	← Latin	planet-god	English echo
<i>lundi</i>	<i>lūnae diēs</i>	the Moon (<i>lune</i>)	<i>Monday</i> = Moon-day
<i>mardi</i>	<i>Martis diēs</i>	Mars	<i>Tuesday</i> (Tiw, the war-god = Mars)
<i>mercredi</i>	<i>Mercuriī diēs</i>	Mercury	<i>Wednesday</i> (Woden = Mercury)
<i>jeudi</i>	<i>Jovis diēs</i>	Jupiter (<i>Jove</i>)	<i>Thursday</i> (Thor = Jupiter)
<i>vendredi</i>	<i>Veneris diēs</i>	Venus	<i>Friday</i> (Frigg/Freya = Venus)

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Here’s the beautiful part: **mardi** and **Tuesday** are the same day — both “the day of the war-god” — but Latin used *Mars* while the Germanic peoples swapped in *their* war-god, *Tiw*.

The Romans mapped their gods onto the planets; the Germanic tribes then mapped *their* gods onto the Roman ones (*interpretatio germanica*). So French *jeudi* (Jupiter) and English **Thursday** (Thor) are the king-god’s day in two pantheons.

7.2 *samedi* and *dimanche* — the week’s religious edge

Five days named for planets — and then two that aren’t. The weekend is where religion overwrote astronomy: Saturn’s day and the Sun’s day were renamed by Judaism and Christianity, and French shows both layers.

French	← Latin	meaning
<i>samedi</i>	<i>sambatī diēs</i> ← <i>Sabbatum</i>	“ Sabbath day”
<i>dimanche</i>	<i>diēs Dominica</i>	“the Lord’s day”

samedi still has the *-di* (*diēs*), but the god is gone — replaced by the Hebrew *shabbat*, “rest.” In *dimanche* the *-di* jumped to the front (*di-manche*); *Dominica* comes from *Dominus*, “lord, master.”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Two different rewrites.

samedi would have been “Saturn’s day” (as English **Saturday** still is — the one weekday English kept a Roman god for!). But Latin Christians took the Jewish **Sabbath** (*Sabbatum* ← Hebrew *shabbāt*, “to rest”) and it became *samedi*. So English *Saturday* and French *samedi* are the same day under two names — the planet versus the Sabbath.

dimanche dropped Sun-worship entirely: where English keeps **Sunday**, French made it *diēs Dominica*, “the Lord’s day” (*Dominus* → English **dominion**, **dominate**, **dame**). Notice the *di-* is now in front — a fossil of *diēs* that moved.

French	English
<i>lundi</i>	Monday
<i>mardi</i>	Tuesday
<i>mercredi</i>	Wednesday
<i>jeudi</i>	Thursday
<i>vendredi</i>	Friday
<i>samedi</i>	Saturday
<i>dimanche</i>	Sunday

Chapter 8

Telling the Time

Modes: ⇄ voice (2) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 2 lessons.

With your numbers in hand, you can tell the time. It takes one key word, *heure* (“hour”), plus two hours that refuse a number and take a name instead: *midi* and *minuit*.

8.1 *heure* — the hour, and telling the time

Sounds you’ll need

The *h* of *heure* is silent (as in English *hour*): say *eur*.

Because it starts with a vowel-sound, the number links onto it: *deux heures* = *deu-z-eur*, *trois heures* = *troi-z-eur*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

heure ← Latin *hōra* ← Greek *hōrā*. The Greek word meant “a period, a season, the right time” (the goddesses of the seasons were the *Horae*); Latin narrowed it to “hour,” and French wore *hōra* down to *heure*.

English took the same Latin *hōra* and made **hour** — so *heure* and *hour* are the same word, spelt apart. (The silent *h* in both is a fossil of the Latin spelling.)

Grammar Lens

il est ... heure(s). To tell the clock time, French says *il est* (“it is”) + the number + *heure(s)*. Literally “it is two *hours*” — French counts the hours, where English says “o’clock” (itself a worn-down “of the

clock”). Add *et quart* (“and a quarter”), *et demie* (“and a half”), *moins le quart* (“quarter to”) later; the core is *il est ... heures*.

French	English	note
<i>Il est une heure.</i>	It is one o’clock.	<i>une heure</i> — singular
<i>Il est deux heures.</i>	It is two o’clock.	<i>deux heures</i> — plural
<i>Il est dix heures.</i>	It is ten o’clock.	

8.2 *midi* and *minuit* — noon and midnight

Two hours don’t get a number — they get a name. *midi* (noon) and *minuit* (midnight) are the pivots of the day, and both are literally “the middle” of the day and of the night.

French	← Latin	literally
<i>midi</i>	<i>medius diēs</i>	“the mid-day ”
<i>minuit</i>	<i>media nox</i>	“the mid-night ”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

midi = *medius diēs*, “mid-day.” You can still see both halves: *mi-* is “middle” (from *medius*, cousin of English **medium**, **mid**, **middle**), and *-di* is the *diēs* “day” you met in *lundi* and *mardi*. So *midi* is “the day’s middle.”

minuit = *media nox*, “mid-night.” Here *mi-* is again “middle,” and *-nuit* is *nox/noct-*, “night” (cousin of English **night**, and the *noct-* of **nocturnal**). So *minuit* is “the night’s middle” — exactly like English **mid-night**.

To use them, drop the *heures* — they *are* the hour: *Il est midi*. “It is noon.” *Il est minuit*. “It is midnight.”

Why it’s said this way

English **noon** comes from Latin *nōna hōra*, “the *ninth* hour” — once mid-afternoon, it drifted earlier until it landed on midday. French kept the tidier “mid-day.”

Chapter 9

Months and Seasons

Modes: ⇄ voice (2) ⇄ **Hands-free start:** all 2 lessons.

The French calendar is a procession of Roman gods and emperors, carried almost unchanged out of Latin — and the four seasons are four small Latin poems about heat, sleep, and first things.

9.1 *les mois* — the calendar’s gods and Caesars

The twelve French months are a **procession of Roman gods and emperors**, almost unchanged from Latin. Two of them pay off twice: *mars* is the war-god who also names Tuesday, and *septembre–décembre* are still the Latin numbers seven to ten.

French	← Latin	who / what
<i>janvier</i>	<i>Januarius</i>	Janus , two-faced god of doors and beginnings
<i>février</i>	<i>Februarius</i>	<i>Februa</i> , the Roman purification festival
<i>mars</i>	<i>Martius</i>	Mars , the war-god
<i>avril</i>	<i>Aprilis</i>	perhaps <i>aperire</i> , “to open ” (buds opening)
<i>mai</i>	<i>Maius</i>	Maia , goddess of growth
<i>juin</i>	<i>Junius</i>	Juno , queen of the gods
<i>juillet</i>	<i>Julius</i>	Julius Caesar (he inserted this month)
<i>août</i>	<i>Augustus</i>	the emperor Augustus (he inserted this one)
<i>septembre</i>	<i>september</i>	“ 7th ” (<i>septem</i>)
<i>octobre</i>	<i>october</i>	“ 8th ” (<i>octo</i>)
<i>novembre</i>	<i>november</i>	“ 9th ” (<i>novem</i>)
<i>décembre</i>	<i>december</i>	“ 10th ” (<i>decem</i>)

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

mars = Mars = mardi. The month and the weekday honour the *same* war-god — *Martius* (his month) and *Martis diēs* (his day). Spot one, and you know the other.

The 7–10 months. *Septembre* through *décembre* still carry *septem*, *octo*, *novem*, *decem* — because the old Roman year began in **March**, so September really *was* the seventh month. Then **Julius** and **Augustus** shoved two months in (*juillet*, *août*), the counting slid out of place — but the names stuck.

Why it's said this way

Two of the twelve are named for *people* rather than gods: *juillet* for Julius Caesar and *août* for the emperor Augustus. Each man put his own month into the calendar, and two thousand years later France still says their names every summer.

9.2 *les saisons* — the four seasons

Four words for the turning year: **le printemps**, **l'été**, **l'automne**, **l'hiver**. Each traces to Latin, and the first one is a small poem — *printemps* means, almost literally, “the first time.”

French	← Latin	literally
<i>le printemps</i> (spring)	<i>prīmum tempus</i>	“the first time / prime season ”
<i>l'été</i> (summer)	<i>aestās / aestātem</i>	“heat, the hot season”
<i>l'automne</i> (autumn)	<i>autumnus</i>	“autumn” — the word English borrowed
<i>l'hiver</i> (winter)	<i>hibernum (tempus)</i>	“the wintry season”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

printemps = *prime* + *temps* (“time, weather”): the year’s *first* season, its “prime time.” Older French used *primevère* — the same *prima vera* (“first spring”) that Italian keeps as *primavera*.

été ← *aestās*, “heat” — summer as the hot season; English **estival** (also spelled **aestival**) means “of summer.”

automne ← *autumnus*: the *m* stayed in the spelling, the *n* went silent.
hiver ← *hibernum*, “wintry” — and English **hibernate** is literally “to spend the winter.” Same root: one a season, one a bear’s sleep.

Grammar Lens

Saying “in” a season. Spring is the odd one out: *au printemps*, but *en été* / *en automne* / *en hiver*. Only spring takes *au*.

Chapter 10

Family

Modes: ⇄ voice (2) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 2 lessons.

Four words — father, mother, brother, sister — and every one of them is among the oldest words we can reconstruct, older than Latin, older than Rome. Each is also a key to a whole shelf of English vocabulary.

10.1 *le père, la mère* — the oldest words in the family

The words for “father” and “mother” are among the **oldest words we can reconstruct**. French kept them almost bare: **père** and **mère**. And they are secretly the *same words* as English **father** and **mother**.

French	English
<i>le père</i>	the father
<i>la mère</i>	the mother

Note the articles: *le père* is masculine, *la mère* is feminine — the gender you have been tracking since the first chapter.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

le père (“father”) ← Latin *pater* ← Proto-Indo-European **ph₂tér*.

la mère (“mother”) ← Latin *māter* ← Proto-Indo-European **méh₂tēr*.

The Latin root also gives English its “of a parent” adjectives:

paternal, **paternity**, **patron**; and **maternal**, **maternity**, **matron**, and even **matter** (*māter* → *materia*, “the stuff a tree-mother makes”).

Grammar Lens

One sound-law, two languages. French took *pater* and *māter* straight from Latin. English took the *same* Proto-Indo-European words down a different road, through **Grimm’s law**, which turned $p \rightarrow f$ and $t \rightarrow th$:

Proto-Indo-European	Latin / French	English
<i>*ph₂tér</i>	<i>pater</i> $\rightarrow$ <i>père</i>	father
<i>*méh₂tēr</i>	<i>māter</i> $\rightarrow$ <i>mère</i>	mother

So *père* and *father* are not lookalikes borrowed late — they are the **same inherited word**, one keeping the *p*, the other shifting it to *f*.

10.2 *le frère, la sœur* — brother and sister

With parents in hand, the next pair: **frère** (“brother”) and **sœur** (“sister”). Both come straight from Latin, and both hand English a whole family of words.

French	English
<i>le frère</i>	the brother
<i>la sœur</i>	the sister

Sounds you’ll need

sœur is spelled with œ — an *o* and an *e* fused into a single letter. It spells the vowel that *soror* wore down to: *soror* $\rightarrow$ *seror* $\rightarrow$ *sœur*. Spell it aloud as “s-œ-u-r,” remembering that the œ counts as *one* letter.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

le frère (“brother”) $\leftarrow$ Latin *frāter* $\leftarrow$ Proto-Indo-European **b^hréh₂tēr* — the same root that, through Grimm’s law ($b^h \rightarrow b$), gave English **brother**. It also gives **fraternal**, **fraternity**, **fraternize**, and — softened in old French — **friar**, a “brother” in a religious order.

la sœur (“sister”) $\leftarrow$ Latin *soror*, behind English **sorority** and **sororal**; and a sister in a convent is still called a *sœur*. English **sister** comes from the *same* Proto-Indo-European root **swésōr*, by the

Germanic road — Latin *soror* and English *sister* are cousins.

The four family words now form a set — *père, mère, frère, sœur* — and each one is a key to a Latin-through-English word: **p**aternal, **m**aternal, **f**raternal, **s**orority.

Chapter 11

Bread, Water, Wine

Modes:  voice (2)  Hands-free start: all 2 lessons.

Food at last — and three words that sit at the centre of the French table. One of them hides the loveliest word-story in English; another is the most worn-down word French ever took from Latin.

11.1 *le pain* — bread, and the people you share it with

le pain (“bread”) is the heart of the French table — and its Latin root hides one of the loveliest word-stories in English: your **companion** is, literally, someone you **share bread** with.

Sounds you’ll need

le pain carries the nasal vowel spelled *-ain*: the air goes through the nose, and the final *-n* is not pronounced as a separate consonant. It is masculine: *le pain*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

le pain (“bread”) ← Latin *pānis*. The root *pān-* feeds a surprising table of English words:

companion / **company** ← *com-* (“with”) + *pānis* — “one you break bread with.” A *company* was first a group sharing meals.

pantry — the room where the bread (and the rest of the food) is kept.

pannier — a bread-basket, now the bag slung over a bicycle or a donkey.

Why it's said this way

So *le pain* is the same root as **companion**: French kept the bread, English kept the friendship built on it. Two useful everyday forms: *un pain* (“a loaf”) and *du pain* (“some bread”).

11.2 *l'eau, le vin* — water and wine

The two drinks of the French table. One of them, **eau**, is the single most **worn-down** word French took from Latin: it began as *aqua* and ended as a bare “oh.”

French	English
<i>l'eau</i>	the water
<i>le vin</i>	the wine

Sounds you'll need

l'eau is pronounced simply “oh” — three letters, *e-a-u*, spelling one vowel sound. It takes *l'* rather than *le* or *la* because it begins with a vowel. *le vin* has the nasal vowel of *-in*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

l'eau (“water”) ← Latin *aqua*. Watch the erosion: *aqua* → *ewe* → *eaue* → *eau*, until only the vowel “oh” remains. French quite literally *drank the consonants out of aqua*.

The original *aqua* is still loud in English, because English borrowed the Latin word *whole*: **aquatic**, **aquarium**, **aqueduct**, **aqualung** — and Italian *acqua* barely changed at all. So *l'eau* and *aquarium* are the far ends of the same word.

le vin (“wine”) ← Latin *vīnum*. Unlike *eau*, this one held its shape, and English shares it: **wine** itself is *vīnum* borrowed into old Germanic, plus **vine**, **vinegar** (*vin* + *aigre*, “sour wine”), **vintage**, **vineyard**, **vinyl**. Wine mattered enough to keep its name across every border.

Chapter 12

Numbers Eleven to Twenty

Modes: ⇄ voice (1) 👁 eyes (1) ⇄ Hands-free start: none of the 2 lessons.

The French teens are not built the way you would guess. Six of them came out of Latin already welded together; then, at exactly seventeen, the language changes its mind in front of you.

12.1 *onze* → *seize* — six numbers welded together

French did not say “ten-one, ten-two.” It inherited six numbers already **fused** in Latin, and they came through almost unrecognisable.

	French	← Latin	literally
11	<i>onze</i>	<i>ūndecim</i>	“one-ten”
12	<i>douze</i>	<i>duodecim</i>	“two-ten”
13	<i>treize</i>	<i>trēdecim</i>	“three-ten”
14	<i>quatorze</i>	<i>quattuordecim</i>	“four-ten”
15	<i>quinze</i>	<i>quīndecim</i>	“five-ten”
16	<i>seize</i>	<i>sēdecim</i>	“six-ten”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Look at the ending they all share: **-ze**. That is Latin *decem* (“ten”), worn down to almost nothing — the *same* ten that hides in *dix* (10) and in *décembre*, the old tenth month. One root, three disguises.

Grammar Lens

The digit is still in there. The front of each word is the small number it is built on: *un* → *on-*, *deux* → *dou-*, *trois* → *trei-*, *quatre* → *quator-*, *cinq* → *quin-*, *six* → *sei-*. Say them slowly and the small number surfaces. Note the order: the *digit* comes first and the *ten* second — *trēdecim* is “three-ten,” not “ten-three.”

12.2 *dix-sept* → *vingt* — where French changes its mind

Here is something you can *watch happen*. Up to *seize* (16), French used the old welded-together Latin numbers. Then, at **17**, it simply gives up — and starts saying the numbers plainly, the way a child would.

	French	how it is built
16	<i>seize</i>	one fused word (← <i>sēdecim</i>)
17	<i>dix-sept</i>	“ten-seven” — two words, plainly
18	<i>dix-huit</i>	“ten-eight”
19	<i>dix-neuf</i>	“ten-nine”
20	<i>vingt</i>	← <i>vīgintī</i>

Grammar Lens

Two things change at the seam. In *seize*, the digit came *first* (“six-ten”). In *dix-sept*, the *ten* comes first (“ten-seven”). So at exactly 17 French switched both its **strategy** (fused → transparent) and its **direction** (digit-first → ten-first) — a visible seam in the counting system. Latin itself wobbled here: it had *septendecim* for 17, but for 18 and 19 it counted *down* from twenty — *duodēvīgintī*, “two-from-twenty.” The daughter languages all abandoned that subtraction trick.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

vingt (20) ← Latin *vīgintī*, the root behind English **vigesimal** (“counting by twenties”) — and the reason French later builds *quatre-vingts* (80 = “four twenties”).

Chapter 13

Colours

Modes: ⇄ voice (2) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 2 lessons.

Four basic colours — *noir*, *blanc*, *rouge*, *bleu* — and a surprise inside them: half of them are not Latin at all. Two walked down from Rome; two walked in from the Germanic north, against the usual direction of traffic.

13.1 *noir*, *blanc* — one inherited, one borrowed

Two colours, two completely different life stories. One walked straight down from Latin. The other was borrowed from the Germanic neighbours — and that direction, Germanic *into* Romance, is the opposite of what usually happens.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

noir (“black”) ← Latin *niger*. No surprises: *niger* → *negro* / *nero* in the sister languages, and into English in **denigrate** (“to blacken someone’s name”).

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

blanc (“white”) is the imported one. You’d expect Latin *albus* (“white”). It’s not there. French says *blanc*, from Frankish **blank* — a Germanic word meaning “**shining, gleaming**.” The Franks who gave France its name gave it its word for white too.

Why did *albus* lose? Probably because *blank* was *vivid*: not just “white” but “bright, flashing.” Colour words often get replaced by the more dramatic option.

Albus didn't die — it stopped being a colour:

Word	Meaning	The white inside
<i>aube</i>	dawn	the sky going <i>white</i>
<i>aubépine</i>	hawthorn	the “white thorn”
album (Eng.)	album	a <i>blank white</i> tablet
albino (Eng.)	albino	white-skinned

So Latin's white is still all around you — just never where you'd look for it.

Grammar Lens

Say them. *noir, blanc*. Then put them to work on a noun you already have: *le vin blanc, le vin rouge*. And hold the pairing in your head — *noir* from Latin, *blanc* from the Franks. Say *l'aube* and hear the old Latin white still sitting inside it.

13.2 *rouge, bleu* — an ancient word and a borrowed one

The last section gave one inherited colour and one borrowed. This one repeats the pattern — and shows that French's borrowing from Germanic wasn't a one-off.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

rouge (“red”) ← Latin *rubeus* (“reddish”). But *rubeus* itself descends from a root so old it predates Latin: Proto-Indo-European **h₁rewdʰ-*. Its children are everywhere.

Language	Word
Latin	<i>ruber, rubeus</i> → <i>rouge, ruby, rubric</i>
English	red, rust, ruddy
German	<i>rot</i>

So *rouge* and **red** are not lookalikes — they are *actual cousins*, separated for maybe five thousand years. Red is one of humanity's oldest named colours.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

bleu (“blue”) ← Frankish **blāo*. Another Germanic word, borrowed exactly like *blanc*. And then something neat happened: English took *bleu* from French — so English **blue** is a Germanic word that went to France, changed clothes, and came back. German kept the original at home: *blau*.

Why it’s said this way

French also has *azur* (from the same source as Spanish *azul*, ultimately Arabic *lāzaward*, “lapis lazuli”) — the poetic blue of the sky, and the *Côte d’Azur*.

The pattern of the chapter, laid out:

Colour	Source
<i>noir</i>	Latin <i>niger</i>
<i>blanc</i>	Germanic <i>*blank</i>
<i>rouge</i>	Latin <i>rubeus</i> (ancient PIE root)
<i>bleu</i>	Germanic <i>*blāo</i>

Half of French’s basic colour vocabulary walked in from the north.

Why it’s said this way

Say them in the order of the flag: *bleu, blanc, rouge*. All three are now yours — and two of the three are loanwords. The French tricolour is, quietly, two-thirds Germanic.

Grammar Lens

Practice. Say *rouge, bleu*. Say *le vin rouge* — the wine you already know, now with its colour. Say the cousins out loud in a row: *rouge* · **red** · *rot*. Next chapter: the verb *avoir*, and something French does with it that English would never do.

Chapter 14

To Have, and How Old You Are

Modes: ⇄ voice (1) 👁 eyes (1) ⇄ Hands-free start: none of the 2 lessons.

The verb French leans on hardest, and the first thing it lets you say that English cannot say the same way: your age. French does not *be* twenty — it *has* twenty years.

14.1 *avoir* — “to have”

The verb French leans on hardest. It’s irregular, it’s everywhere, and — as you’ll see — you have already met its root without knowing it.

Singular	Plural
<i>j’ai</i> (I have)	<i>nous avons</i> (we have)
<i>tu as</i> (you have)	<i>vous avez</i> (you have)
<i>il/elle a</i> (he/she has)	<i>ils/elles ont</i> (they have)

Sounds you’ll need

Say the singular column: *ai*, *as*, *a* — three forms, and they all sound the *same*. The written endings differ; your ear can’t tell them apart. Only the pronoun tells you who.

Note *j’ai*, not *je ai*: before a vowel, *je* loses its *e*. That is the elision French does everywhere — the same move that turns *le eau* into *l’eau*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

avoir (“to have”) ← Latin *habēre*. And the verb *habiter* (“to live somewhere”) ← *habitāre* — which is just *habēre* run through a “keep

doing it” pattern: *to keep having a place*. Same root, both verbs.

The family in English is large, because English borrowed it whole:

English word	Inside it
habit	what you <i>have</i> regularly
inhabit	to <i>have</i> a place — = <i>habiter</i>
exhibit	to <i>hold</i> out
prohibit	to <i>hold</i> back

Grammar Lens

How far it wore down. Latin *habeō* (“I have”) → French *j’ai*. Four syllables of Latin reduced to a *single vowel sound*. French does this more than any of its sisters — compare Italian *ho*, Spanish *he*, and the Latin *aqua* that French ground down to *eau*.

Sounds you’ll need

Practice. Say the six: *j’ai, tu as, il a, nous avons, vous avez, ils ont*. Then say the three that sound alike — *ai · as · a*. Then a whole sentence: *J’ai un frère* (“I have a brother”). Then the root pair: *avoir · habiter*.

14.2 *j’ai vingt ans* — having your years

Ask a French speaker their age and the answer uses *avoir*. Not “I am twenty” — “**I have twenty years.**” English can’t do this; Spanish and Italian do exactly the same thing.

— *Quel âge as-tu ?* — “What age do you have?”
 — *J’ai vingt ans.* — “I have twenty years.”

Grammar Lens

Two things to notice. First, the verb is **avoir**, never *être* — *je suis vingt ans* is simply wrong. Second, *ans* is compulsory: English drops it (“I’m twenty”); French cannot.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

an (“year”) ← Latin *annus*, which gives English **annual**, **anniversary**, **annals**, and *per annum*. You have already met its descendants: the month names come from the same calendar.

Sounds you’ll need

Careful with the sound: *an* is **nasal**, and in *vingt ans* the silent *t* of *vingt* wakes up and links — *vin-t-an*. That is **liaison**, French’s habit of reviving a dead consonant when a vowel follows.

Who else does it this way:

Language	“I am 20”	Verb
French	<i>j’ai vingt ans</i>	have
Spanish	<i>tengo veinte años</i>	have
Italian	<i>ho venti anni</i>	have
Portuguese	<i>tenho vinte anos</i>	have
German	<i>ich bin zwanzig Jahre alt</i>	be
English	<i>I am twenty</i>	be

A clean split: **Romance has its years; Germanic is its years.** Age as something you *carry* versus age as something you *are*.

Why it’s said this way

Practice. Say *Quel âge as-tu ?* Then *J’ai vingt ans*, with the liaison — *vin-t-an*. Then your own age, using the numbers you have. Then the split itself: French *a* its years; English *is* its years. Next chapter: what French builds *out of avoir* — a whole past tense.

Chapter 15

The Compound Past

Modes: ⇔ voice (2) ⇔ Hands-free start: all 2 lessons.

French's everyday past tense is built out of *avoir* — and it began life not as a tense at all, but as a sentence about *possessing* something. Then we meet the older past it pushed out of the language.

15.1 *j'ai parlé* — the past built from “have”

French's everyday past tense. You already have both halves of it: the verb *avoir*, and the -er verbs.

avoir (conjugated) + past participle

Infinitive	Ends in	Participle
<i>parler</i>	-er	<i>parlé</i>
<i>habiter</i>	-er	<i>habité</i>
<i>finir</i>	-ir	<i>fini</i>
<i>vendre</i>	-re	<i>vendu</i>

So:

French	English
<i>j'ai parlé</i>	I spoke / I have spoken
<i>tu as parlé</i>	you spoke
<i>il a parlé</i>	he spoke
<i>nous avons parlé</i>	we spoke
<i>ils ont parlé</i>	they spoke

Only *avoir* changes. The participle sits there unchanged.

Sounds you'll need

parler, *parlé* and *parlez* are all pronounced *the same*. Three spellings, one sound — the context tells you which.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Where the endings come from: *parlé* ← Latin *-ātum*; *fini* ← *-itum*; *vendu* ← *-ūtum*. The same *-t-* that English kept in **finite**, **acute**, **statute**.

A footnote on the third one: *-ūtus* was a *rare* ending in Latin (*minūtus*, *tribūtus*). French and Italian took that small class and spread it over a whole conjugation. So *-é* and *-i* are straight inheritance; *-u* is mostly the language tidying up by analogy.

Grammar Lens

The buried possessive. Here is why this tense exists. Latin could say *habeō litterās scriptās* — “I *have* letters *written*.”

That is not a past tense. It is *avoir* in its ordinary sense — I *possess* some letters — with *scriptās* as an **adjective** describing them, agreeing with *litterās* in gender and number.

Over centuries the phrase stopped meaning “I possess a written thing” and started meaning simply “**I wrote**.” A possessive construction hardened into a tense.

And the fossil is still visible: when the object comes *first*, the participle still agrees with it, exactly as an adjective would — *Les lettres que j’ai écrites*, “The letters that I wrote.” That *-es* is a two-thousand-year-old adjective ending doing its old job.

Sounds you'll need

Practice. Say the set: *j’ai parlé*, *tu as parlé*, *il a parlé*, *nous avons parlé*, *ils ont parlé*. Say the three homophones — *parler* · *parlé* · *parlez*. Say *J’ai travaillé* (“I worked”). Then say the old meaning out loud: “I *have* a thing *spoken*.”

15.2 *il parla* — the past you read but never say

French has a *second* past tense. You will meet it in every novel and never hear it spoken. Knowing why is worth more than knowing its endings.

	<i>Passé simple</i>	<i>Passé composé</i>
he spoke	<i>il parla</i>	<i>il a parlé</i>
they spoke	<i>ils parlèrent</i>	<i>ils ont parlé</i>
he had	<i>il eut</i>	<i>il a eu</i>

You do *not* need to produce these. You need to recognise them, because they fill the past tense of essentially all French literature.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

il parla ← Vulgar Latin **parabolāvit* — the plain Latin perfect, handed straight down. Which means the *passé simple* is the *same tense* as Spanish *habló* and Portuguese *falou*.

Language	“he spoke”	Status
French	<i>il parla</i>	books only
Spanish	<i>habló</i>	everyday speech
Portuguese	<i>falou</i>	everyday speech
Italian	<i>parlò</i>	regional — see below

Same Latin ancestor, four different fates.

Grammar Lens

The retreat, three times over. French is not alone.

Language	Simple past	What replaced it in speech
French	<i>passé simple</i>	<i>passé composé</i> (<i>j’ai parlé</i>)
German	<i>Präteritum</i>	<i>Perfekt</i> (<i>ich habe gesagt</i>)
Italian	<i>passato remoto</i>	<i>passato prossimo</i> (<i>ho parlato</i>)

Three languages — two Romance, one Germanic — each built a compound past out of “have,” and each let that compound push the inherited simple past out of everyday conversation and into writing.

Why it's said this way

Not three separate inventions, though. They are **neighbours**: France, southern Germany and northern Italy form a connected block, and the change spread through it by *contact* over the same few centuries. Linguists call this an *areal* change — one that travels across language boundaries because the speakers do.

And Spanish and Portuguese, out at the western edge of that block, largely *didn't* get it. They kept their simple past where it was. (Though Spain's Spanish has since started drifting the same way, with *he hablado* taking ground from *habló* — the change reaching the edge late.)

Sounds you'll need

Practice. Say the pair — *il parla ... il a parlé*. Say the sisters — *il parla · habló · falou · parlò*. Remind yourself where you'd meet it: in a *novel*, not a conversation. And say the three retreats — *passé simple · Präteritum · passato remoto*. Next chapter: the other auxiliary, and the verbs that refuse *avoir*.

Chapter 16

To Be, and the Past That Takes It

Modes: ⇄ voice (4) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

The partner of *avoir*, and the most irregular verb in the language — for a reason worth knowing. Then the small group of verbs that refuse *avoir* in the past and take *être* instead.

16.1 *être* — “to be”

The other verb everything is built on. *Avoir* was one half; this is its partner — and it is the most irregular verb in French.

Singular	Plural
<i>je suis</i> (I am)	<i>nous sommes</i> (we are)
<i>tu es</i> (you are)	<i>vous êtes</i> (you are)
<i>il/elle est</i> (he/she is)	<i>ils/elles sont</i> (they are)

There is no pattern to find. Don’t look for one — these are among the oldest word-shapes in Europe, worn smooth by three thousand years of daily use.

Grammar Lens

Three stems in a trench coat. Line the forms up against Latin and the seams show.

French	← Latin
<i>je suis</i>	<i>sum</i> — “I am”
<i>tu es</i>	<i>es</i>
<i>il est</i>	<i>est</i>
<i>nous sommes</i>	<i>sumus</i>
<i>ils sont</i>	<i>sunt</i>
<i>être</i>	* <i>essere</i> , Vulgar Latin’s remodelling of <i>esse</i>

All of those come from *esse*, “to be” — the infinitive included. Now the pieces that come from somewhere else entirely:

French	← Latin
<i>je fus, il fut</i> (<i>passé simple</i>)	<i>fuī</i> — an ancient perfect stem
<i>été</i> (past participle)	<i>stāre</i> — “to stand”
<i>étant</i> (present participle)	<i>stāre</i> again (<i>stantem</i>)
<i>j’étais, il était</i> (imperfect)	<i>stāre</i> again (<i>stābam</i>)

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Fus and *été* are not related to *suis* at all. The first is an ancient perfect stem (from Proto-Indo-European **b^huH-*, “grow, become” — the source of English **be**); the second is the Latin verb for **standing**.

And look how much of *stāre* is in there. It isn’t one stray form: *every* French *être* form beginning *ét-* comes from the standing verb — *été*, *étant*, *étais*, *était*. A whole limb of the verb.

Grammar Lens

Three stems, then: *es-* for the present and infinitive, *fu-* for the *passé simple*, *ét-* for the participles and the imperfect. That patching is called **suppletion** — one verb’s paradigm filled in with pieces of another, exactly like English *go* / *went* (where *went* was stolen from *wend*).

Why it’s said this way

The Spanish connection. *Stāre* should look familiar. It is the verb Spanish turned into *estar*, its second “to be,” held apart from *ser*. So Spanish has *ser* ← *esse* and *estar* ← *stāre*, kept as two separate verbs; French has one verb, *être* ← *esse*, having absorbed *stāre*’s whole *ét-* limb.

Spanish kept the two verbs *apart* and made you choose between them. French kept one verb and swallowed a large piece of the other. Same two Latin sources, opposite solutions.

(*Stāre* also left French words outside *être* — *rester* ← *re-stāre*, “to stay,” and *coûter* ← *constāre*. What it did *not* do is survive as a separate “to be” the way *estar* did.)

Sounds you’ll need

Practice. Say the six: *je suis, tu es, il est, nous sommes, vous êtes, ils sont*. Say two whole sentences: *Je suis français, Je suis fatigué*. Then say the seam — *suis* ← *sum* ... *fus* ← *fuī* ... *ét-* ← *stāre*. And the English parallel: *go / went*.

16.2 *je suis allé* — the past built from “be”

The last chapter built the past with *avoir*: *j’ai parlé*. But a small, important group of verbs refuses *avoir* and takes *être* instead — and when they do, something visible happens to the participle.

Verbs of motion and change of state take être.

Aller (“to go”) is the headline case:

French	English
<i>je suis allé</i>	I went
<i>tu es allé</i>	you went
<i>il est allé</i>	he went
<i>nous sommes allés</i>	we went
<i>ils sont allés</i>	they went

Others in the family: *venir* (come), *partir* (leave), *arriver* (arrive), *entrer*, *sortir*, *monter*, *descendre*, *naître* (be born), *mourir* (die), *rester* (stay), *tomber* (fall). Read that list as a shape rather than a list: **going, coming, being born, dying** — arriving and leaving, in space or in life.

Plus one whole extra family: all pronominal verbs take *être* — *je me suis levé, elle s’est lavée*. Careful, though: they take *être* but they do *not* follow *être*’s agreement rule. See the warning at the end of this section.

Grammar Lens

Two warnings, so the rule doesn't mislead you.

Not every motion verb qualifies. *Marcher, courir, nager, danser, voyager* all take *avoir* (*j'ai couru*). The *être* verbs are about arriving, leaving, and changing state — not about moving your legs.

Some switch when they take an object. *Monter, descendre, sortir, rentrer, passer* take *être* alone (*je suis monté*, “I went up”) but *avoir* with a direct object (*j'ai monté les valises*, “I took the suitcases up”).

The participle agrees with the subject. This is the part you can see and hear:

French	English
<i>Il est allé.</i>	He went.
<i>Elle est allée.</i>	She went.
<i>Ils sont allés.</i>	They went.
<i>Elles sont allées.</i>	They (f.) went.

The participle takes the subject's gender and number — exactly like an adjective.

Grammar Lens

Why? The same fossil as the last chapter. *Elle est allée* began as a plain description: “*she is gone*” — *gone* describing *her*, the way *elle est fatiguée* describes her. It was never an action she performed on something; it was a state she was in. So the participle agreed with her, and it still does.

Compare the two halves of the system:

Auxiliary	Participle agrees with	Because it was...
<i>avoir</i>	a preceding object (<i>les lettres que j'ai écrites</i>)	“I have letters written”
<i>être</i>	the subject (<i>elle est allée</i>)	“she is gone”

One rule underneath both: **the participle was an adjective, and it agrees with whatever it described.**

Grammar Lens

The pronominal exception. Pronominal verbs take *être* — but their agreement follows the *avoir* rule, not the *être* one. They agree with a preceding direct object, which usually *is* the reflexive pronoun, and sometimes isn't.

Elle s'est lavée. — She washed *herself*; *se* is the direct object, so it agrees.

Elle s'est lavé les mains. — She washed *her hands*; the object is *les mains*, and it follows, so no agreement.

Elles se sont parlé. — They spoke *to each other*; *se* is indirect, so no agreement.

Which is, satisfyingly, the same rule as the last chapter all along. The auxiliary looks like *être*; the agreement behaves like *avoir*. Don't let the first mislead you about the second.

One group in particular escapes even that: verbs that exist *only* in pronominal form. Examples include *se souvenir* (remember), *s'enfuir* (flee), and *s'évanouir* (faint). They have no non-reflexive version for the pronoun to be an object *of*, so they simply agree with the subject: *elles se sont souvenues*.

Sounds you'll need

Practice. Say *je suis allé, il est allé, elle est allée*. Say the contrast — *j'ai parlé ... je suis allé*. Say the shape of the list: going, coming, born, dying. And say the reason out loud: "*she is gone*" — *gone* describes *her*.

You now have two verbs holding up the whole language, *avoir* and *être*; a past tense built from each; and the single old idea — the participle as an adjective — that explains both. That is a working past. The next volume turns from what has happened to what is in front of you: describing what you see.

Chapter 17

Head and Hand

Modes: ⇄ voice (1) 👁 eyes (1) ⇄ Hands-free start: none of the 2 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can name the head and the hand in French with the right article, and point out the Latin manus hiding inside English manual, manufacture and maintain.

Say la main with its nasal -ain, then run the manus family out loud — manual, manuscript, maintenir — and land on manufacture, 'made by hand', now the name for the opposite.

17.1 la tête — “the head”

The first body part, and one of the best etymologies in French. The word for *head* is not the Latin word for head.

You'll want to know: The word

la tête — the head. Feminine, so **la**.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Latin's word for “head” was *caput*. You can see it surviving all over Europe:

Portuguese	<i>cabeça</i>
Spanish	<i>cabeza</i>
Italian	<i>capo</i> (now “chief, boss”)
English	captain, capital, decapitate

French has *caput* too, and in two layers. **Inherited**, worn down by use: **chef** (“chief,” originally “head”), **chapitre**, **cap** (a headland), **achever** (“to finish” — to bring to a head). **Re-borrowed** later, straight from written Latin: **capital, capitaine, décapiter**.

What French does *not* use it for is the thing on your shoulders.

Tête comes from Latin *testa*: an **earthenware pot**, a shell, a potsherd.

Why it’s said this way

Soldiers’ slang. Roman troops called the skull a *testa* the way English speakers say someone got hit on the **noggin** — a noggin being a small mug. It was a joke, it spread, and eventually the joke *replaced the real word* in Gaul and Italy.

So a French speaker saying *j’ai mal à la tête* is, historically, saying “my pot hurts.”

Testa is still visible in English **test** — which began as the shallow pot an alchemist used to assay metals.

Sounds you’ll need

Look at the accent: **tête**. Chapter W01 taught what a circumflex records — a letter that used to be there, almost always an **s**.

testa → Old French **teste** → modern **tête**

The *s* stopped being pronounced, and the accent was put in to mark the grave. That is why English, which borrowed from Old French *before* the *s* fell, still has it in **test**.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “la tête”

- “j’ai mal à la tête” — “my head hurts”
- the joke — “*testa* = a **pot**”
- the receipt — “*teste* → *tê-te*”

Before you move on

Say “the head.” (*La tête* — feminine.) Does it come from Latin *caput*? (**No** — from *testa*, an **earthenware pot**.) Why a pot? (Roman soldiers’ **slang** for the skull, which replaced the proper word.) Where did *caput* survive in French? (**Inherited** in *chef*, *chapitre*, *cap*, *achever*; **re-borrowed** in *capital*, *capitaine*, *décapiter* — just never for the head itself.) What does the circumflex on *tête* record? (**A lost s** — *teste*, still visible in English **test**.) Next: the hand.

17.2 la main — “the hand”

Where *tête* abandoned its Latin ancestor, this one kept it — and then lent it to English several dozen times over.

You’ll want to know: The word

la main — the hand. **Feminine**, and worth flagging: it ends in a consonant and still takes *la*. French gender is not predictable from the ending, which is why this book always gives you the article.

The *-ain* is the nasal vowel from Chapter 11’s *pain* — say them together: *pain*, *main*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Main comes from Latin *manus*, “hand.” That word is inside an enormous number of English words, and once you see it you cannot unsee it:

English	literally
manual	done by hand
manufacture	made by hand (<i>manus</i> + <i>facere</i> “to make”)
manuscript	written by hand (<i>manus</i> + <i>scribere</i>)
maintain	hold in the hand (<i>manū tenēre</i>)
manage	to handle — via Italian <i>maneggiare</i> , of horses
manoeuvre	work by hand (<i>manū operārī</i>)
Manufacture is the one worth pausing on. It means “made by hand” — and it now names precisely the thing that <i>isn’t</i> .	

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Maintenir / English **maintain** is Latin *manū tenēre*, “to hold in the hand” — a hand, plus the verb *tenēre*, “to hold.”

So *maintenance* — the least romantic word in any office — is literally **keeping something in hand**.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “la main” — and hear *pain*, *main*
- “j’ai mal à la main”
- the family — “manual, manuscript, maintain — all a **hand**”
- the irony — “**manufacture** = made by hand”

Before you move on

Say “the hand.” (*La main* — **feminine**, despite the consonant ending.) What Latin word is it from? (***Manus***.) Give three English words built on it. (*Manual*, *manufacture*, *manuscript*, *maintain*, *manage*, *manoeuvre*.) What does *manufacture* literally mean? (“**Made by hand**” — now the name for the opposite.) And *maintenir*? (*Manū tenēre*, “**hold in the hand**”.) Next: the rest of

the body.

Chapter 18

Yes and No

Modes: 🗣️ voice (2) 🗣️ Hands-free start: all 2 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can answer yes or no in French, send non through my nose as a nasal vowel, and recognise the ne ... pas pair that carries negation inside a sentence.

The oui / non pair said back to back, non's -on nasal placed against bon and bonjour, and the ne ... pas frame named as the sentence-level negation to come.

18.1 oui — yes

Where Spanish kept Latin's word for yes, French built a brand-new one — and named half a country after it.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

oui = **yes**. Just two sounds, *wee*.

Its Romance cousins (Spanish *sí*, Italian *sì*) come from Latin *sīc* “thus.” **French took a different road entirely.** *oui* comes from Old French **oīl**, and *oīl* is a squeezed-down Latin phrase:

hoc ille (“this [is] it”) → *o-īl* → **oui**

You answered “yes” by saying, in effect, “*that’s the one.*”

Why it's said this way

This mattered so much it became a map. In the Middle Ages France was divided by how people said *yes*:

- the **north** said *oïl* → the **langue d'oïl** (which became modern French)
- the **south** said *oc* → the **langue d'oc** — still visible in the region name **Languedoc**, and in the language **Occitan**

One little answer-word, drawn as a border.

Grammar Lens: The other “yes,” *si*

French keeps a **second** yes — **si** — for one special job: contradicting a **negative**. When someone says something *isn't* so and you insist it *is*, you answer **si**, not *oui*:

Tu ne viens pas ? (“You’re not coming?”) — **Si !** (“Yes I am!”)

(That *si* is the Latin *sīc* the Spanish *sí* also comes from — French kept it only for this contradicting move.)

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “oui” — *wee*
- the origin — “hoc ille → oïl → oui”: *that’s the one*
- the contradiction — “Tu ne viens pas ? — Si !”

Before you move on

How do you say yes in French? (**oui**.) What Latin phrase is it worn down from? (**hoc ille**, “this is it,” via *oïl*.) What were the *langue d'oïl* and *langue d'oc* named after? (The two medieval words for **yes**.) When do you answer **si** instead of *oui*? (To **contradict a negative** — *Tu ne viens pas ? — Si !*)

18.2 non — no / not

After French’s home-grown *oui*, its **no** is the family word, shared straight with Spanish — but said the French way, through the nose.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

non = **no**. It comes from Latin **nōn**, the same source as Spanish *no* and Italian *no*:

Latin <i>nōn</i>	→
Spanish	no
Italian	no
French	non

Spanish dropped the *n* and left a clean *no*. French **kept** the *n* — but turned it into a **nasal vowel**: you don’t quite touch your tongue to say the final *n*, you send the vowel through your nose. That’s the sound written **-on** in *non*, *bon*, *bonjour* — you’ve met it before.

Grammar Lens: The seed of French negation

The word that actually carries negation inside a French sentence isn’t *non* but its **unstressed twin**, **ne** — both worn down from the same Latin *nōn*. Modern French usually reinforces *ne* with a second word, giving the pair *ne ... pas*:

Je ne parle pas français = “I do **not** speak French.”

For now, **non** on its own is your answer-word. In *ne ... pas*, the **ne** is *non*’s cousin from *nōn*; the **pas** was added later — it originally meant “a step” (Latin *passus*), as in “not walk a *step*” — and simply stuck. That fuller sentence negation is something you’ll build later.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “non” — nasal, through the nose, like the *-on* in *bon*
- the pair with yes — “oui / non”
- the family — Latin *nōn* → Spanish *no*, French *non*

Before you move on

How do you say no in French? (**non**.) What Latin word is it from, and which Spanish word is its twin? (**nōn**; Spanish **no**.) What did French do to the *n* that Spanish dropped? (Kept it as a **nasal vowel** — the *-on* sound.) What pair does full French negation usually wrap around the verb? (**ne ... pas**.)

Chapter 19

Please

Modes: 🗣️ voice (1) 🖱️ Hands-free start: all 1 lesson.

By the end of this chapter: I can say please in French and choose between *s’il vous plaît* and *s’il te plaît* depending on who I am speaking to.

Say s’il vous plaît with its silent final -t, take it apart into ‘if it pleases you’, then switch to s’il te plaît for a friend. The chapter’s only lesson, so the payoff covers everything it introduces.

19.1 s’il vous plaît — please

French doesn’t order you to do things — it asks, very politely, *if it would please you*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

s’il vous plaît = **please** — but taken apart it’s a tiny sentence:

s’ (*si*, “if”) + **il** (“it”) + **vous** (“you”) + **plaît** (“pleases”) → “if it pleases you.”

You’re not demanding; you’re checking whether the favour would please them. It’s the polite indirectness Spanish also uses in *por favor* (“for a favour”) — same courtesy, built a different way.

The verb **plaît** is from Latin **placēre**, “to please” — which English borrowed wholesale: **please**, **pleasure**, **pleasant**, and (via “calm, pleasing”) even **placid**.

Grammar Lens: Formal and familiar

French chooses the word for “you” by who you’re talking to — and *please* comes in both:

- **s’il vous plaît** — *vous*, the **formal** / **plural** you (a stranger, an elder, a room). Often written **SVP**.
- **s’il te plaît** — *te*, the **familiar** you (a friend, a child).

Two sounds to respect: the final **-t** of *plaît* is **silent** (*pleh*), and *plaît* itself carries the *ai* = *eh* you’ve met.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “s’il vous plaît” — final t silent, *see voo pleh*
- taken apart — “if it pleases you”
- familiar — “s’il te plaît” to a friend

Before you move on

How do you say please in French? (**s’il vous plaît**.) What does it literally mean? (“**If it pleases you.**”) Which Latin verb is *plaît* from, and what English words come from it? (**placēre** — *please*, *pleasure*, *placid*.) When do you say **s’il te plaît** instead? (To someone you address as **tu** — a friend or child.)

Chapter 20

Sorry

Modes: 🗣️ voice (1) 🖱️ Hands-free start: all 1 lesson.

By the end of this chapter: I can apologise in French and pick between *je suis désolé(e)*, *pardon* and *excusez-moi* for the situation I am actually in.

Say je suis désolé(e) knowing it literally means 'I am desolate', then place pardon as the quick reflex and excusez-moi as the attention-getter. The chapter's only lesson, so the payoff covers everything it introduces.

20.1 je suis désolé(e) — “I’m sorry” (literally “I am desolate”)

You already know *s’il vous plaît*, “please” — “if it pleases you.” French’s “sorry” is, secretly, a much bigger word than it sounds: *désolé* is the same word as English **desolate**.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

- *je suis* = “I am.”
- *désolé* (feminine *désolée*) = “sorry,” but literally “**made utterly alone / devastated.**” It comes from Latin *dēsōlāre*, “to make solitary” — *dē-* (“thoroughly, completely”) + *sōlus* (“alone”), the very root of English **sole**, **solo**, **solitary**, and **desolate** itself.

So *je suis désolé(e)* literally says “**I am desolate**” — French reaches

for a word of real devastation to say a plain “sorry,” the way English keeps “terribly sorry” as an option rather than a requirement.

Why it’s said this way

French keeps two more courtesy words for different jobs:

- **pardon** — a quick, all-purpose “sorry / pardon me” (bumping someone, a small slip). It comes from **pardonner**, Latin **per-** (“thoroughly”) + **dōnāre** (“to give”) — “to give completely,” i.e. to forgive. The neat part isn’t that French and Spanish coined this separately — it’s that they **didn’t have to**: **perdōnāre** was already one word in Late Latin, so French *pardonner* and Spanish *perdón/perdonar* are simply two children of the *same* inherited word, not two languages independently landing on the same idea.
- **excusez-moi** — “**excuse me**,” from **excuser** < Latin **ex-** (“out of, free from”) + **causa** (“cause, charge”) — literally “to free from a charge.” Reach for this to get someone’s **attention**, not to apologize for a real fault.

Je suis désolé(e) carries the most **regret**; **pardon** is the quick, light reflex; **excusez-moi** is for getting attention. Native speakers slide between all three by feel.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “désolé” — sorry / desolate — then “je suis désolé,” I am sorry
- the quick one — “pardon”
- the attention one — “excusez-moi”

Before you move on

What does **désolé** literally mean, and what English word is it identical to? (“**Made utterly alone**” — the same word as English **desolate**.) What is **pardon** built from, and why does **Spanish perdón** look just like it? (**Per-** “thoroughly” + **dōnāre** “to give” — both simply inherited the *same* already-formed Latin

word, **perdōnāre**.) What's **excusez-moi** for? (**Getting someone's attention**, not apologizing for a real fault.)

Chapter 21

Weather

Modes: 🗣️ voice (1) 🗣️ Hands-free start: all 1 lesson.

By the end of this chapter: I can talk about the weather in French — *quel temps fait-il, il fait chaud, il fait froid, il pleut.*

Use le temps in both its senses, build the weather with faire (il fait chaud / il fait froid), and say il pleut with the Latin pl- cluster French kept intact. The chapter’s only lesson, so the payoff covers everything it introduces.

21.1 le temps, il pleut — the same Latin word, a different fate for “rain”

You’ve seen Spanish’s *tiempo* mean both “time” and “weather” at once, from Latin *tempus*. French has the exact same word, the exact same double meaning — because this widening happened within Latin itself, before French and Spanish went their separate ways.

The two words: le temps — time and weather

le temps = both “**time**” and “**weather**” — from Latin **tempus**, same as Spanish’s *tiempo* (English kept only the “time” half: **temporal, tempo**). So **quel temps fait-il ?** (“what’s the weather like?”) is literally “**what time does it make?**” — the identical construction inside Spanish’s *¿qué tiempo hace?*

Grammar Lens: il fait chaud / il fait froid

Il fait chaud. — “It’s hot.” — literally “it **makes** hot.” **Il fait froid.** — “It’s cold.” — literally “it **makes** cold.”

Same *hacer*-style periphrasis as Spanish, just with French’s own **faire** (“to make/do”).

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Il pleut. — “It’s raining.” — from **pleuvoir** ← Latin **pluere**, “to rain” — the **same** Latin verb behind Spanish’s *llueve*. But here’s the honest difference: Spanish underwent the **pl-** → **ll-** shift (*pluere* → *llover*), while French kept the **pl-** cluster fully intact — *pleuvoir* still visibly starts with *pl-*, just like the Latin original. So the same Latin verb took two different sound-change paths in its two daughters: one eroded the cluster, one preserved it.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le temps” — time, or weather, depending on context
- “il fait chaud. il fait froid.” — it’s hot/cold
- “il pleut” — it’s raining, *pl-* kept intact from Latin

Before you move on

What two things does **le temps** mean, and where does this polysemy come from? (“**Time**” and “**weather**” — from Latin *tempus*, already double-sensed before French/Spanish split apart.) Does French’s *il pleut* show the same *pl-* → *ll-* shift as Spanish’s *llueve*? (**No** — French kept the *pl-* cluster intact; only Spanish underwent that shift.)

Chapter 22

Dog and Cat

Modes: ⇄ voice (1) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 1 lesson.

By the end of this chapter: I can name a dog and a cat in French and say why chien is the regular descendant of canis while chat is a word that travelled out of Egypt.

Say chien and check its ca- → cha- shift against champ and chanter, then say chat and place it beside Spanish gato and Italian gatto as one inherited cattus. The chapter's only lesson, so the payoff covers everything it introduces.

22.1 chien, chat — the regular one, and the well-traveled one

You've met Spanish's *perro*, a genuine unsolved mystery, and Latin's own *canis/fēlēs→cattus* history. French's two animal words tell a cleaner story: one is perfectly regular, the other is the same well- documented word you already know.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

chien (“dog”) comes straight from Latin **canis** (accusative *canem*) — and unlike Spanish, French kept it. Two separate, regular changes are stacked here: the initial **c→ch** is the same **ca- → cha-** palatalization you can check against other Latin words — **campus → champ** (“field”), **cantāre → chanter** (“to sing”); the **a→ie** in the middle is a different, later shift specific to words like *canem* (known as Bartsch’s Law — the outcome is completely regular and undisputed, even though

the precise phonetic trigger is still debated). Put together, *chien* is a fully **regular** sound change, following French’s own rules predictably — a genuinely different story from Spanish, where the expected descendant (*can*) got pushed aside by the still-unexplained *perro*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

chat (“cat”) continues **cattus**, the same Late Latin word — most likely ultimately **Afro-Asiatic** (compare Nubian *kadis*) — that spread along Roman trade routes as domestic cats themselves spread out of **Egypt**. This is the identical word behind Spanish’s *gato* and Italian’s *gatto* — French, Spanish, and Italian all independently inherited the exact same Late Latin replacement for Classical *fēlēs*.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “chien” — dog, the regular descendant of *canis*
- “champ, chanter” — the same *ca-* → *cha-* shift, in field and to sing
- “chat” — cat, the same word as Spanish’s *gato*, from Egypt via Rome

Before you move on

Is *chien* a regular or irregular descendant of Latin *canis*? (**Regular** — the same *ca-* → *cha-* shift as *champ* and *chanter*.) Does French show the same *perro*-style mystery Spanish does for “dog”? (**No** — French kept the expected Latin word.) What word does *chat* continue, and where did that word most likely originate? (**Cattus**, most likely **Afro-Asiatic**, traveling with the cat out of **Egypt**.)

Chapter 23

Green and Yellow

Modes: 🗣️ voice (1) 🗣️ Hands-free start: all 1 lesson.

By the end of this chapter: I can name green and yellow in French, and say how solid the claimed link between *jaune* and German *gelb* actually is.

*Say **vert** as the ordinary Romance inheritance from *viridis*, say **jaune** as *galbinus* ‘yellow-green’, and state the *jaune* / *gelb* cousinhood as probable rather than certain. The chapter’s only lesson, so the payoff covers everything it introduces.*

23.1 **vert, jaune — the expected inheritance, and a hidden PIE-level cousin**

French’s green word is exactly what you’d expect. Its yellow word hides something you won’t expect at all — a secret cousin sitting inside German.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

vert (“**green**”) ← Latin **viridis** — and this is genuinely the **standard** source of “green” across nearly every Romance language: Spanish *verde*, Italian *verde*, Portuguese *verde*, Catalan *verd*. No surprise here — a clean, shared inheritance.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

jaune (“yellow”) ← Latin **galbinus**, which literally meant “yellow-green” — an extended form of **galbus**, from **Proto-Indo-European** **ghel-*, “to shine” (with derivatives covering green, yellow, and gold alike — the same root gives Greek *khlōros*, “greenish-yellow”). Here’s the genuinely surprising part: this **same PIE root**, **ghel-*, is also usually cited as the source of **German’s** **gelb** and English’s **yellow** — by a completely separate, Germanic path (Proto-Germanic **gelwaz*). Honesty check, though: the *galbus*→**ghel-* link itself is **less secure** than it looks — some modern Latin scholarship treats *galbus*’s origin as unknown rather than confirming the connection. So *jaune* and *gelb* are **probably** cousins at the Proto-Indo-European level, despite one reaching French through Latin and the other reaching German directly through Germanic — just don’t treat that link as airtight.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “vert” — green, the standard Romance word
- “jaune” — yellow, literally “yellow-green”
- the probable cousin — “jaune, gelb” — likely the same ancient PIE root, two completely different paths, though the link isn’t airtight

Before you move on

Is **vert** a typical or unusual Romance word for “green”? (**Typical** — the standard source across nearly all Romance languages.) What did Latin **galbinus**, the source of *jaune*, literally mean? (“**Yellow-green.**”) What German word is usually called *jaune*’s deep PIE cousin, and how solid is that link? (**Gelb** — both usually traced to PIE **ghel-*, “to shine,” though modern Latin scholarship treats *galbus*’s origin as genuinely unknown, so the connection is probable, not certain.)

Chapter 24

Taking, Asking, Helping, Loving

Modes: ⇄ voice (4) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can say that I take, ask, help and like or love in French, break prendre's stem the way its plural requires, and know that je t'aime bien is weaker than je t'aime rather than stronger.

Run the chapter's four verbs together with je — je prends, je demande, j'aide, j'aime — then turn aimer over: one verb covers like and love, the thing named decides which, and adding bien downgrades it. Reaches back past the chapter to re-say le chien and le chat from Chapter 22, le vert from Chapter 23, and the s'il vous plaît request from Chapter 19.

24.1 prendre — “to take,” the verb your hand does

You already have **la main**, the hand. Here is the verb that hand performs — and it turns out to be hiding inside a surprising number of English words you use without thinking.

You'll want to know: the word

prendre — to take. Said *PRAHN-druh*: the *-en-* is the **nasal** vowel of *an*, sent through the nose, not a clean *en*.

>

Je prends le pain. — I take the bread.

The *-ds* of *je prends* is **silent**. You say *prahn*, and stop.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

prendre ← Latin **prehendere**, “to grasp, to seize,” which Romans themselves shortened to **prendere**. That short form is the one French inherited — and English borrowed the family repeatedly:

- **prehensile** — a tail that grasps.
- **apprehend** — to seize (*ad-* “toward” + grasp); **reprehensible**, something to be seized back on.
- **prison** ← Latin *prehensiō*, “a seizing” — a jail is, literally, a taking-hold.
- **surprise** — French *sur-* “over” + *prendre*: an **over-taking**.
- **enterprise**, something undertaken; **apprentice**, one who takes on.
- **impregnable** — from Old French *imprenable*, “**not takeable**.” Nothing to do with pregnancy.

Manus gave you a hand that **holds** — *manual*, *maintain*. *Prendere* gives you the hand that **closes**.

Grammar Lens: the stem that doubles

Prendre is irregular, and its irregularity is one clean rule: the stem **loses** its *d*, and in the *ils* form it **doubles its n**. Say the six:

- **je prends** — *prahn*
- **tu prends** — *prahn*
- **il prend** — *prahn* (all three identical to the ear)
- **nous prenons** — *pruh-NOHN*, and the nasal is **gone**
- **vous prenez** — *pruh-NAY*, nasal gone again
- **ils prennent** — *PREN*, a doubled *n* and a flat *e*

So the nasal survives in the singular and dies in the plural. That is the whole verb.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “prendre” — *PRAHN-druh*, nasal in the middle
- “je prends le pain” then “nous prenons le pain” — nasal, then no nasal
- “je prends la main” — I take the hand, the *manus* you already have
- the family — “prehensile, apprehend, prison, surprise” — all a **grasp**

Before you move on

Say “I take the bread.” (*Je prends le pain* — and the *-ds* is silent.) What happens to the nasal in *nous prenons*? (It **disappears**; the stem flattens to *pruh-*.) What did Latin *prehendere* mean, and what is a *prison* literally? (**To grasp**; a prison is “**a seizing**.”) And the hand that does the taking? (*La main*.)

24.2 demander — “to ask,” and the trap it sets in English

Prendre was taking. This one is the opposite move: putting a question out. And it is the word most likely to make you sound furious when you meant to sound polite.

You’ll want to know: the word

demandeur — to ask. Said *duh-mahn-DAY*: the *-an-* is that same nasal from *prendre*, and the *-er* ending is a clean *ay*.

>

Je demande l’heure. — I ask the time.

It is an ordinary **-er** verb, so nothing in it breaks: *je demande, tu demandes, il demande, nous demandons, vous demandez, ils demandent*. Only *nous* and *vous* are audible; the other four all sound *duh-MAHND*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

demander ← Latin **dēmandāre**, “to hand over, to entrust” — *dē-* plus **mandāre**. And *mandāre* is itself two words: *manus*, “**hand**,” plus *dare*, “**to give**.” Giving into the hand.

So the *manus* you met in *la main* is sitting inside this verb too:

- **mandate** — what was placed in someone’s hands to carry out.
- **command** — *com-* + *mandāre*: to entrust an order; and **commandment**, ten of them.
- **mandatory** — handed over as an obligation; **remand**, handed back.

One family, two very different jobs: *manual* is work done **by** the hand, *mandate* is a charge given **into** it.

Why it’s said this way

Careful. French **demander** means simply “**to ask**.” It is neutral, everyday and perfectly polite. English **demand** is forceful — a thing you insist on.

Je demande l’heure is “I’m asking the time,” not “I demand the time.” The English word drifted toward force; the French one never did. Translate *demander* as **ask**, every time, and you will never be rude by accident.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “demander” — *duh-mahn-DAY*, nasal in the middle
- “je demande l’heure” — I **ask** the time, not demand it
- “je prends, je demande” — take, then ask
- the family — “mandate, command, mandatory” — a **hand** and a **giving**

Before you move on

Say “I ask the time.” (*Je demande l’heure.*) Does *demander* carry the force of English *demand*? (**No** — it is the ordinary, polite word for asking.) What two Latin words are inside *mandāre*, and which one do you already know? (**Manus** “hand” — the source of *la main* — plus **dare**, “to give.”)

24.3 aider — “to help,” and the English word that is really the same word

You can ask for something now. This is the verb for what you hope the other person then does — and it is one of the rare cases where the English cousin is not a distant relative but the very same word, spelled shorter.

You’ll want to know: the word

aider — to help. Said *ay-DAY*: the *ai-* is a plain *ay*, the *-er* ending is another *ay*. Two of them in a row.

>

Vous m’aidez. — You are helping me.

Another ordinary **-er** verb: *j’aide, tu aides, il aide, nous aidons, vous aidez, ils aident*. The *j’* is the elision you already make in *j’ai*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

aider ← Latin **adiūtāre**, a repeated-action form of **adiuvāre** — *ad-* “toward” plus **iuvāre**, “to help.” English took the same verb through French and clipped it:

- **aid** — the noun and verb; **aide**, a person who is your help.
- **aide-de-camp** — literally a “camp helper,” an officer’s assistant.
- **adjutant**, the officer who assists; **adjuvant**, a substance in medicine that helps another one work.

Two honesty notes. English **help** is **Germanic** and has no connection

to *aider* whatsoever. And **juvenile** is *not* in this family: that is Latin *iuvenis*, “young,” a different word that merely resembles *iuvāre*.

Grammar Lens: asking for it politely

Put the verb together with the courtesy you already have:

Vous m’aidez, s’il vous plaît. — Help me, please. **Tu m’aides, s’il te plaît.** — the same request, to a friend.

The register has to match on **both** halves. *Vous* takes *s’il vous plaît*; *tu* takes *s’il te plaît*. Mixing them — *tu m’aides, s’il vous plaît* — is the mistake a beginner makes most, and a French ear catches it instantly.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “aider” — *ay-DAY*, two *ay* sounds
- “j’aide” then “vous aidez”
- “vous m’aidez, s’il vous plaît” — both halves formal
- “tu m’aides, s’il te plaît” — both halves familiar
- “je demande, vous aidez” — I ask, you help

Before you move on

Ask a stranger for help, politely. (*Vous m’aidez, s’il vous plaît.*) And a friend? (*Tu m’aides, s’il te plaît* — both halves change together.) What Latin verb is *aider* from, and which English word is the same word? (**Adiūtāre**; English **aid**.) Is English *help* related? (**No** — it is Germanic, unrelated.)

24.4 aimer — one verb for “like” and “love,” and the word that weakens it

Three verbs so far: *je prends*, *je demande*, *j’aide*. The fourth does a job English needs **two** words for — and the way you soften it is the opposite of what you would guess.

You'll want to know: the word

aimer — to like **and** to love. Said *ay-MAY*: the *ai-* is *ay*, the *-mer* is *may*.

>

J'aime le chien. — I like the dog. **J'aime le chat.** — I like the cat.

An ordinary **-er** verb: *j'aime, tu aimes, il aime, nous aimons, vous aimez, ils aiment*. French does not choose between “like” and “love” — the **thing you name** does. A dog, a colour, a food: that reads as *like*. A person: *love*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

aimer ← Latin **amāre**, “to love,” and English is full of it:

- **amateur** — one who does a thing **for love**, not for money.
- **amorous**, full of love; **enamoured**, in it; **paramour**, beside it.
- **amiable** and **amicable** — from *amīcus*, “friend”; **amity** between nations.

An honest stop, though: unlike *viridis* behind **vert**, *amāre* has **no agreed ancestor** beyond Latin. It is often guessed to be a nursery word, a baby's *amma*, but that is a guess. The trail genuinely ends at Latin.

Why it's said this way

Je t'aime. — I love you. Full strength. **Je t'aime bien.**
— I like you. **Much** weaker.

Every English speaker gets this backwards. *Bien* means “well,” so *je t'aime bien* looks like it ought to be **more**. It is **less**. Adding *bien* — or *beaucoup* — downgrades love to friendly liking, which is exactly why *je t'aime bien* is the polite way to turn someone down.

With a thing, no such danger: *j'aime bien le chat* is simply “I quite like the cat.” The trap only bites when the object is a **person**.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “j’aime le chien” then “j’aime le chat” — liking, because they are animals
- “j’aime le vert” — I like green
- “je t’aime” then “je t’aime bien” — love, then only liking
- the four verbs — “je prends, je demande, j’aide, j’aime”
- “vous m’aidez, s’il vous plaît” — the request, once more
- “aimer, amateur, amiable” — the *amāre* family, which stops at Latin

Before you move on

Which is stronger, *je t’aime* or *je t’aime bien*? (***Je t’aime*** — *bien* makes it **weaker**.) Say “I like the dog” and “I like green.” (*J’aime le chien. J’aime le vert.*) What does *amateur* literally mean, and how far back does *amāre* go? (One who does it **for love**; the trail **stops at Latin**.) Say the chapter’s four verbs with *je*. (*Je prends, je demande, j’aide, j’aime.*)

Chapter 25

Verbs of the Mind

Modes: ⇄ voice (4) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can say what I understand, think, read and write in French, and take *comprendre* apart into *com-* plus *prendre* — so understanding, in French, is grasping.

Say the chapter's four with *je* — *je comprends, je pense, je lis, j'écris* — and take *écrire* apart into *scribere* 'to scratch' plus the propped-up *é-* that also made *école* and *étoile*. Reaches back past the chapter to *la main* and *manus* from Chapter 17, which meet *écrire* inside the single word *manuscript*, and to *prendre* and *aimer* from Chapter 24.

25.1 *comprendre* — “to understand,” which is just taking, together

This is the cheapest verb you will ever learn, because you already own all of it. *Prendre* was “to take.” Put *com-* in front, and French tells you what it thinks understanding actually is.

You'll want to know: the word

comprendre — to understand. Said *kohn-PRAHN-druh*: two nasals in a row, *kohn* then *prahn*.

>

Je comprends. — I understand. **Vous comprenez ?** — Do you understand?

The *-ds* of *je comprends* is silent, exactly as in *je prends*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

comprendre is **com-** (“together, with”) + **prendre** (“to take”), and Latin had already built it: **comprehendere**, “to grasp several things at once.” Nothing has been added since. To understand, in French, is to **get your hand around the whole of it**.

English took the long Latin form and the short French one both:

- **comprehend** — the full Latin spelling, straight through.
- **comprehensive** — having taken everything in; **comprehension**.
- **comprise** — from French *compris*, “taken together”: what a thing takes in.

And you can hear the metaphor still alive in English: we say we **grasp** an idea, or that a point is **over our heads** — out of reach of the hand.

Grammar Lens: the same verb, so the same forms

Because *comprendre* is *prendre* with a prefix, it breaks in exactly the same places. Nothing new to memorise — say the six and hear the nasal die in the plural, just as before:

- **je comprends** — *kohn-PRAHN*
- **tu comprends** — *kohn-PRAHN*
- **il comprend** — *kohn-PRAHN* (three identical to the ear)
- **nous comprenons** — *kohn-pruh-NOHN*, nasal gone from the stem
- **vous comprenez** — *kohn-pruh-NAY*
- **ils comprennent** — *kohn-PREN*, the doubled *n* again

This is worth more than one verb. Every French verb built on *prendre* behaves this way, so the pattern you drilled once now pays out repeatedly.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “je prends” then “je comprends” — the second is the first, plus *com-*
- “nous prenons, nous comprenons” — both lose the nasal
- “vous comprenez ?” then answer “oui” and then “non”
- “comprendre, comprehend, comprise” — one family, two spellings

Before you move on

What two pieces is *comprendre* made of, and what does the whole literally mean? (*Com-* “together” + *prendre* “to take” — **to take together**.) Say “we understand.” (*Nous comprenons* — nasal gone, like *nous prenons*.) Someone asks *vous comprenez ?* — give both possible answers. (*Oui* or *non*.)

25.2 penser — “to think,” which began as weighing

Understanding, you saw with *comprendre*, is grasping. This verb says thinking is **weighing** — and once you know that, half a dozen English words you use in money and medicine suddenly line up behind it.

You’ll want to know: the word

penser — to think. Said *pahn-SAY*: the *-en-* is the nasal you have been making since *prendre*, and *-er* is a clean *ay*.

>

Je pense. — I think. **Vous pensez ?** — Do you think so?

A completely regular **-er** verb after the strain of *comprendre*: *je pense*, *tu penses*, *il pense*, *nous pensons*, *vous pensez*, *ils pensent*. Four of the six sound identical — *pahns* — and only *nous* and *vous* stand out.

Sounds you'll need

Two nasals sit close together in French and beginners flatten them into one. Hold them apart by saying them back to back:

- **non** — the **-on** nasal, rounded, lips pushed forward.
- **pense** — the **-en** nasal, unrounded, mouth wider and flatter.

Same trick every time: your **lips** tell the two apart, not your tongue.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

penser ← Latin **pēnsāre**, “to weigh carefully,” a repeated-action form of **pendere**, “to weigh, to hang.” Roman weighing was done by hanging things from a balance, which is why one root covers both. English inherited the whole scale:

- **pensive** — weighing something in your mind.
- **compensate** — to weigh one thing **against** another until they balance; **expense** and **expend**, money **weighed out**; **dispense**, weighed apart.
- **pension** — originally a weighing-out, a payment; **poise**, a balance held.
- **suspend** and **pendant** — the hanging half of the same root.

The prettiest cousin is a flower. French **pensée** means “**a thought**” — and English borrowed it, sound and all, as **pansy**.
One honest note: English **think** is **Germanic** and is not related to any of this. The two words mean the same thing and share no history.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “penser” — *pahn-SAY*
- “non, pense” — the round nasal, then the flat one
- “je pense” then “je comprends” — I think, I understand

- “penser, pensive, compensate, pansy” — all a **weighing**

Before you move on

Say “I think” and “do you think so.” (*Je pense. Vous pensez ?*)
 What did Latin *pēnsāre* mean, and name three English cousins. (**To weigh** — *pensive, compensate, expense, pension, poise*.) What flower is French for “a thought”? (The **pansy**, from *pensée*.) Which of *non* and *pense* has the rounded lips? (**Non** — *pense* is flat and wide.)

25.3 lire — “to read,” which used to mean “to pick up”

A short word with an enormous family behind it. Before *lire* meant reading, its Latin ancestor meant **gathering** — and that older sense is why a dozen English words that seem unrelated turn out to be relatives.

You’ll want to know: the word

lire — to read. Said *leer*, with the throaty French **r** at the end.

>

Je lis le français. — I read French.

Lire is irregular, and its stem grows an **s** in the plural. Say the six:

- **je lis** — *lee*, the *-s* silent
- **tu lis** — *lee*
- **il lit** — *lee* (three identical again)
- **nous lisons** — *lee-ZOHN*, and there is the *s*
- **vous lisez** — *lee-ZAY*
- **ils lisent** — *LEEZ*

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

lire ← Latin **legere**, whose first meaning was “**to gather, to pick out**.” Reading was a later use of it: your eye picks the letters up off the page one after another. Both senses left English words behind. The reading half:

- **legible**, able to be picked out; **lecture**, “a reading”; **lesson**, from *lectiō*, the passage read aloud.
- **legend** — literally “**things which must be read**.”

The gathering half, which is the surprise:

- **collect** — gather together; **select**, gather apart; **elect**, pick out; **neglect**, fail to pick up at all.
- **elegant** — originally “choosy,” someone who picks well; **diligent**; **intellect**, what picks between things.

One honest limit. Greek’s **legein** — the *-logy* in every science name — is a **cousin**, not a parent: it descends from the same ancient root alongside Latin *legere*, rather than from it. And French **le livre**, “book,” is not in this family at all; that is Latin *liber*, a separate word.

Your turn

- *Say it*: “lire” — *leer*, throaty *r*
- *Say it*: “je lis” then “nous lisons” — the *s* appears
- [YOU READ ALOUD, gathering the words one by one: “le chien, le chat”]
- *Say it*: “je lis le français” then “je pense”
- *Say it*: “legible, lecture, collect, elect, elegant” — all a **picking out**

Before you move on

Say “I read French” and “we read.” (*Je lis le français. Nous lisons* — the *s* only appears in the plural.) What did Latin *legere* mean first? (**To gather, to pick out** — reading came second.) Which of

collect, elegant and *book* is **not** in this family? (**Book** — French *livre* is from *liber*, a different word.) Now read these two aloud. (*Le chien, le chat.*)

25.4 écrire — “to write,” born from a scratch

You can think, understand and read. The last of the four is the one that puts something back out — and its French spelling still carries a repair job the language did more than a thousand years ago.

You’ll want to know: the word

écrire — to write. Said *ay-KREER*: the *é* is a sharp *ay*, then the throaty *r* at the end, as in *lire*.

>

J’écris le français. — I write French.

Irregular, and the stem grows a *v* in the plural:

- **j’écris** — *ay-KREE*
- **tu écris** — *ay-KREE*
- **il écrit** — *ay-KREE*
- **nous écrivons** — *ay-kree-VOHN*, and there is the *v*
- **vous écrivez** — *ay-kree-VAY*
- **ils écrivent** — *ay-KREEV*

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

écrire ← Latin **scribere**, “to scratch, to incise.” A Roman wrote by scratching a stylus across wax, and the verb never forgot it. English took the Latin form whole:

- **scribe, script, scripture, scribble.**

- **describe** — scratch it down; **prescribe**, **subscribe**, **inscribe**.

Now the *é*. Latin *scribere* began with **sc-**, and a French-speaking mouth could not start a word that way, so it propped one up with a vowel in front: *scribere* → *escrire* → **écrire**. The same repair ran through the whole language — *schola* became *école*, *spatha* became *épée*, *stella* became *étoile*. That accent is not decoration: it is standing where an *s* used to be.

And the best cousin belongs to both halves of this chapter.

Manuscript is *manus* + *scribere* — “**scratched by hand**.” **La main** and *écrire* meet inside one English word.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “écrire” — *ay-KREER*
- “j’écris” then “nous écrivons” — the *v* appears in the plural
- the four of this chapter — “je comprends, je pense, je lis, j’écris”
- “j’écris à la main” — I write by hand; that is *manuscript*, taken apart
- “j’aime lire” then “j’aime écrire” — I like reading, I like writing
- “je prends le pain, et j’écris” — the taking verb, still there
- “lire, écrire” — gathering off the page, scratching onto it

Before you move on

Say “I write” and “we write.” (*J’écris. Nous écrivons* — the *v* arrives in the plural.) What did *scribere* literally mean, and why does *écrire* start with an *é*? (**To scratch**; French propped a vowel in front of Latin’s *sc-*, the same repair that made *école* and *étoile*.) Pull *manuscript* apart. (*Manus* “**hand**” — your *la main* — plus *scribere*, “scratched”: **written by hand**.) Now say the four verbs of this chapter with *je*. (*Je comprends, je pense, je lis, j’écris*.)

Chapter 26

Hearing, Sleeping, Walking, Running

Modes: ⇄ voice (4) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can say that I hear, sleep, walk and run in French, use ça marche for “that works,” and say why entendre carries English’s intend inside it while the Latin verb for hearing ended up in English instead.

Run the chapter’s four verbs together with je — j’entends, je dors, je marche, je cours — then use courir’s spelling to settle why canis became chien while currere stayed hard at the front: the ca- shift only ever struck c before a. Reaches back past the chapter to le chien and its palatalization from Chapter 22, le chat from the same chapter, il fait chaud and il pleut from Chapter 21, and the ne ... pas negation from Chapter 18.

26.1 entendre — “to hear,” and the stretching inside it

You can think and understand. Now the ear — and French’s word for it is English’s *intend*.

You’ll want to know: the word

entendre — to hear. Two nasal *an* sounds in a row, then the *-dre* of *prendre*: say it *ahn-TAHN-druh*.

>

J'entends le chien. — I hear the dog.

The *-ds* of *j'entends* is silent, as in *je prends*.

Grammar Lens: the nasal that stays put

Prendre's nasal dies in the plural. *Entendre* looks like its twin and does the opposite — the stem never moves:

- **j'entends** — *jahn-TAHN*
- **tu entends** — *ahn-TAHN*
- **il entend** — *ahn-TAHN* (three identical to the ear)
- **nous entendons** — *ahn-tahn-DOHN*, nasal still there
- **vous entendez** — *ahn-tahn-DAY*
- **ils entendent** — *ahn-TAHND*

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

entendre ← Latin **intendere** — **in-** “toward” plus **tendere**, “to stretch.” To *intendere* was to stretch a thing out and aim it: a bowstring, a journey, your attention. English kept the family — **intend**, plainest of them, plus **intent**, **intense**, **tension**, a **tent** (a stretched skin), **extend** and **pretend**.

Set your three mind-verbs together: French pictures each as a different thing the body does.

- **comprendre** — to **grasp together**, built on *prendre*.
- **penser** — to **weigh**, from *pēnsāre*.
- **entendre** — to **stretch toward**.

Why it's said this way

From its oldest French records *entendre* already covers a span at once: to hear, to attend, to understand, to intend. Nothing arrived late. What happened since is that the other senses fell away and hearing took the word outright — because Latin's verb for hearing, **audīre**, wore down in French to *ouïr* and stopped being usable. English kept

that family instead: **audio, audience, audible, audition.**

The abandoned senses survive in phrases French never rebuilt:

- **entendu** — “understood,” “agreed.”
- **s’entendre** — to hear one another, and so to **get along**.
- **l’entente** — an understanding between parties, borrowed into English whole in *Entente Cordiale*.

So the two languages split one Latin pair: French hears with the verb English uses for intending, and English hears with the verb French let go.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “entendre” — *ahn-TAHN-druh*, two nasals
- “j’entends le chien”
- “nous prenons” then “nous entendons” — one flattens, one holds
- “j’écris, je comprends, j’entends”
- the three pictures — stretching, grasping, weighing
- “intend, tension, tent” — all a stretching

Before you move on

Say “I hear the dog” and “we hear.” (*J’entends le chien. Nous entendons* — and unlike *nous prenons*, nothing flattens.) What did *intendere* mean, and which English verb is its plainest survival? (**To stretch toward; intend.**) Why did French hand hearing to this verb? (Latin’s *audire* wore down to *ouïr* and fell out of use — English kept the *audire* words instead.) What does *s’entendre* mean? (**To get along.**)

26.2 dormir — “to sleep,” and the room named after it

After a verb that changed jobs, here is one that never changed. *Dormir* is Latin’s word for sleeping, handed on almost untouched — and it hides one trap.

You’ll want to know: the word

dormir — to sleep. Said *dor-MEER*, with the throaty French **r** in the middle and at the end.

>

Le chat dort. — The cat is sleeping.

French has no separate “is sleeping” form. *Il dort* covers both “he sleeps” and “he is sleeping”; the plain present does all the work.

Grammar Lens: the m that goes missing

The stem is *dorm-*, and in the singular French throws the **m** away. Listen for where it comes back:

- **je dors** — *dor*
- **tu dors** — *dor*
- **il dort** — *dor* (three identical, the *m* gone)
- **nous dormons** — *dor-MOHN*, and there it is
- **vous dormez** — *dor-MAY*
- **ils dorment** — *DORM*

One rule, and you have the whole verb: singular loses the last stem consonant, plural gets it back. A small family of *-ir* verbs shares the shape, so learning it once is worth more than one verb.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

dormir ← Latin **dormīre**, “to sleep.” Spanish kept *dormir*, Italian *dormire*, Portuguese *dormir* — the verb crossed into its daughter languages untouched, which is rarer than it sounds. English has no inherited descendant; it borrowed the family later, through French:

- **dormitory** ← *dormitōrium*, a sleeping place; French wore the identical word down to **dortoir**.
- **dormant** — Old French *dormant*, “sleeping”; a dormant volcano is asleep.
- **dormer** — a roof window, from Old French *dormeor*, because the room behind it was where you slept.

And an honest stop. The **dormouse** looks like the best cousin of the lot and is not one. The story needs an Anglo-Norman word for “sleeper” that nobody has found in a text, and *dormouse*’s real origin is unknown. A guess in circulation, not an etymology.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “dormir” — *dor-MEER*, throaty *r*
- “je dors” then “nous dormons” — the *m* vanishes, then returns
- “le chat dort” — the cat, the travelling word out of Egypt
- “j’entends le chat” then “le chat dort”
- “dormir, dormitory, dormant” — one Latin verb, borrowed back
- “je comprends” then “je dors”

Before you move on

Say “the cat is sleeping” and “we sleep.” (*Le chat dort. Nous dormons* — the *m* is silent in the singular and audible in the plural.) Where does *dormitory* come from? (Latin *dormitōrium*, “a **sleeping place**” — and French wore the same word down to *dortoir*.) Is the

dormouse in this family? (**No** — that is folk etymology; the word's real origin is unknown.) And *chat* — an inherited Latin word, or a traveller? (**A traveller**, from *cattus*, moving with the cat itself out of Egypt.)

26.3 **marcher** — “to walk,” and the step hiding inside French negation

You can hear and you can sleep. Now move. This verb does a second job too, used dozens of times a day.

You'll want to know: the word

marcher — to walk. Said *mar-SHAY*: the *-er* is a clean *ay*, and the *ch* is *sh*, never *k*.

>

Je marche. — I walk.

After *dormir*'s vanishing *m*, this one asks nothing: an ordinary **-er** verb. *Je marche, tu marches, il marche, nous marchons, vous marchez, ils marchent* — four of the six sound identical, just *marsh*.

Why it's said this way

Marcher is also the everyday verb for a thing **working**. A machine, a plan, an arrangement: if it functions, it walks.

Ça marche. — “That works.” Also “Fine,” “Deal,” “Sounds good.” **Ça ne marche pas.** — “That doesn't work.”

There is your *ne ... pas* from the answer-word *non*, round a real verb at last. And *ça marche* alone is an agreement, two words long. *Entendre* once held several jobs and shed all but hearing. *Marcher* holds two right now.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Here the honest answer is that nobody is certain. Old French *marchier* first meant “**to trample, to tread on,**” and two accounts compete:

- Frankish **markōn**, “to mark, to press a step in” — preferred by most reference works.
- Late Latin *marcāre*, from **marcus**, “**a hammer**” — a blow and a tread being one motion.

Three consequences, in falling order of certainty:

- English **march**, the verb, is borrowed straight **from** *marcher*. Secure whichever origin is right.
- English **mark** is Germanic, from Old English *mearc*. A relative **only if** the Frankish account holds — conditional, not a fact.
- French **la marche**, a borderland, with **marquis** and German **margrave**, comes from the Germanic **noun** *marka*, “boundary” — a separate arrival.

And one cousin you own already. The **pas** in *ne ... pas* began as Latin *passus*, “**a step.**” *Je ne marche pas* is, underneath, “I do not walk a step.”

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “marcher” — *mar-SHAY*, *sh* not *k*
- “je marche” then “nous marchons”
- “ça marche” — that works, that’s fine
- “non”, then “je ne marche pas” — and *pas* is a **step**
- “j’entends, je dors, je marche”
- “nous dormons, nous marchons” — one stem shifts, one never does

Before you move on

Say “I walk” and “that works.” (*Je marche. Ça marche.*) What are the two competing origins? (Frankish **markōn**, “*to press a step in,*” or Latin **marcus**, “*a hammer.*” *Genuinely unsettled.*) Which English word is certainly related, and which only might be? (*March, borrowed straight from marcher; mark only if the Frankish account is right.*) What did *pas* mean before it meant “not”? (*A step.*)

26.4 **courir** — “to run,” and why it is not *chourir*

Hearing, sleeping, walking — and now the fastest of the four. Its Latin root is one of the busiest in English, and its spelling settles a question the dog raised.

You’ll want to know: the word

courir — to run. Said *koo-REER*, throaty at both *rs*.

>

Le chien court. — The dog runs.

Grammar Lens: the same endings, a different stem

Courir takes *dormir*’s singular endings — **-s, -s, -t**, all silent:

- **je cours** — *koor*
- **tu cours** — *koor*
- **il court** — *koor*
- **nous courons** — *koo-ROHN*
- **vous courez** — *koo-RAY*
- **ils courent** — *KOOR*

But the resemblance stops there. *Dormir* **sheds** a consonant in the singular: *dorm-* becomes *dor-*. *Courir* sheds nothing — its stem *cour-* has nothing spare to lose.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Marcher left a choice between a Frankish verb and a Latin hammer. This one leaves none. **courir** ← Latin **currere**, “to run,” which English mined harder than almost any other verb:

- **current** and **currency** both run; a **cursor** runs across a screen; a **course** is a run, a **corridor** a running-place.
- **courier**, one who runs; **curriculum**, literally “a running.”
- **concur**, run together; **occur**, run up against; **excursion**.

Now the spelling question. *Chien* came from *canis*, and its **c** turned into **ch** — the shift that made *champ* and *chanter*. So why is this verb not *chourir*? Because that shift only struck **c** before **a**. *Currere* had **c** before **u**, untouched, so the *k* survived. One rule, two regular outcomes. One honest limit. Latin **carrus**, “wagon,” gave English **car** and **cargo**, and descends from the same very old root. But Latin borrowed *carrus* from Gaulish: a cousin by another road, not a word built out of *currere*.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- the chapter’s four with *je* — “j’entends, je dors, je marche, je cours”
- “le chien court” then “le chat dort”
- “il fait chaud, je cours”
- “il pleut, je ne cours pas”
- “je dors, nous dormons” then “je cours, nous courons” — one sheds
- “chien” then “courir” — *ch* before *a*, *k* before *u*
- “current, course, courier, curriculum” — every one a running
- “ça marche” — the agreement, two words

Before you move on

Say the chapter's four verbs with *je*. (*J'entends, je dors, je marche, je cours.*) What does **curriculum** literally mean? (**A running** — from *currere*.) Why did *canis* become *chien* while *currere* stayed hard? (The shift only hit **c** before **a**.) Which of the four began as a **stretching**? (**Entendre** — *intendere*, to stretch toward.) Now: “the dog runs” and “it is hot.” (*Le chien court. Il fait chaud.*)

Chapter 27

Sitting, Standing, Opening, Closing

Modes: ⇄ voice (4) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can sit down, get up, open and close in French, hold both accepted paradigms of s’asseoir apart, say why French needs two pieces — se lever and debout — where English has one verb “to stand,” and know that ouvrir takes marcher’s endings despite its -ir spelling.

Say the chapter’s four with je — je m’assieds, je me lève, j’ouvre, je ferme — drill ouvrir and fermer as one pair now that both carry the same endings, and take fermer apart into firmāre, ‘to make firm’, the verb that gave Italian fermare ‘to stop’ and Spanish firmar ‘to sign’.

Reaches back past the chapter to open and close la main from Chapter 17, to close because il pleut from Chapter 21, and to ask in both registers and then apologise, from Chapters 19 and 20.

27.1 s’asseoir — “to sit down,” a verb you do to yourself

You have walked and you have run. Now stop. French does not say “I sit” — it says “**I seat myself**,” and that extra word is one you own.

You’ll want to know: the word

s’asseoir — to sit down. Said *sah-SWAHR*.

>

Je m’assieds. — I sit down. Said *juh mah-SYAY*.

The **m’** is the *me* inside *je m’appelle*: French treats sitting as something you do **to yourself**, so the pronoun is not optional.

Keep two ideas apart. *S’asseoir* is the **movement**, lowering yourself into a chair. **Je suis assis** is the **state** after it, “I am seated.” English lets *sit* cover both; French makes you choose.

Grammar Lens: one verb, two accepted sets

The only verb in this book with **two** correct answers, both in dictionaries. Learn this series whole:

- **je m’assieds** — *mah-SYAY*
- **tu t’assieds** — *tah-SYAY*
- **il s’assied** — *sah-SYAY* (three identical to the ear)
- **nous nous asseyons** — *noo-zah-say-YOHN*
- **vous vous asseyez** — *voo-zah-say-YAY*
- **ils s’asseyent** — *sah-SAY*

Then recognise the rival singulars **je m’assois**, **tu t’assois**, **il s’assoit** — ordinary spoken French. Their plurals (*assoyons*, *asseyez*) are much rarer in France, so the series above is the safer one to own. Since 1990 the infinitive may also be spelled **s’asseoir**. Nothing here is wrong; the language never chose.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

s’asseoir ← Vulgar Latin **adsedēre**, a remaking of Classical **adsidēre** — **ad-** “at” plus **sedēre**, “**to sit**.” Latin had built the compound; French only wore it down. And *sedēre* is everywhere in English:

- **sedentary**, sitting work; a **session**, “a sitting”; **sediment**, what sits at the bottom.
- **reside**, sit back; **preside** and **president**, sitting in front; **assiduous**, sitting at a task.

- **siege** — an army sitting down before a city; **possess**, **obsess**, **subsidy**.
- A bishop's **see** is his *sedēs*, his **seat**.

Dormir English only borrowed. This root it owns from birth too: **sit**, **seat** and **settle** come down the Germanic road from the same source.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “s’asseoir” — *sah-SWAHR*
- “je m’assieds” then “nous nous asseyons”
- “je m’appelle” then “je m’assieds” — the same little *m’*
- “je m’assieds” then “je suis assis” — movement, then state
- “je marche, je cours, je m’assieds, je dors”
- “j’entends” — the ear needs no chair
- “sedentary, session, siege” — every one a sitting

Before you move on

Say “I sit down” and “we sit down.” (*Je m’assieds. Nous nous asseyons.*) Why is the pronoun there? (French sits you **yourself** down — the same *m’* as in *je m’appelle*.) What is a **siege**, literally? (**A sitting** — an army sitting down before a city.) Which English words are cousins of *sedēre* by birth rather than borrowing? (**Sit**, **seat**, **settle**.) Now the pair: “je cours” and “je dors.”

27.2 se lever, debout — standing, which French says in two pieces

You sat down. Getting up is harder, because French has **no single verb** for “to stand.” It splits the idea in two.

You'll want to know: the movement

se lever — to get up, to rise. Said *suh luh-VAY*.

>

Je me lève. — I get up. Said *juh muh LEV*.

Reflexive, as *s'asseoir* is: you raise **yourself**. After that verb's two paradigms this is a relief — an ordinary **-er** verb with one habit. Silent ending, and the *e* takes a **grave accent**; spoken ending, and it flattens:

- **je me lève** — *LEV*
- **tu te lèves** — *LEV*
- **il se lève** — *LEV*
- **nous nous levons** — *luh-VOHN*, flat
- **vous vous levez** — *luh-VAY*, flat
- **ils se lèvent** — *LEV*

You'll want to know: the state

debout — standing, upright. Said *duh-BOO*.

>

Je suis debout. — I am standing.

Se lever is the **movement**, *debout* the **state** — the split between sitting down and being seated. *Debout* is no verb: attach it to *être*.

And it is transparent once opened: **de + bout**, “**on end**.” A *bout* is a tip or end, so standing is being set on your end. French did once have a plain verb for standing, *ester*; it survives only in a courtroom phrase, which is why the language builds this from pieces.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

lever ← Latin **levāre**, “to raise” — built on **levis**, “**light in weight**.” To raise a thing is to lighten it. Hence **elevate**, **elevator**, **levitate**, **levity**; a **lever**, which lightens a load; **alleviate**, **relieve**, **relief**;

leaven.

So two of this book's verbs come from one corner of Roman thought. *Penser* is *pēnsāre*, “**to weigh**”; *lever* is *levāre*, “to make **light**.” Thinking weighs, rising un-weighs, and *sedēre* just sits there. One correction. **Bout** comes from *bouter*, “to strike,” taken from Frankish — and its English relative by **descent** is **beat**. *Butt* looks closer but is a later **borrowing** back out of French.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “se lever” — *suh luh-VAY*
- “je me lève” then “nous nous levons” — sharp, then flat
- “je m’assieds” then “je me lève” — down, then up
- “je suis debout” — the state, on *être*
- “je me lève et je cours”
- “je pense” then “je me lève” — weighing, then lightening
- “elevate, lever, relief” — all a raising

Before you move on

Say “I get up” and “we get up.” (*Je me lève. Nous nous levons* — the accent appears only when the ending is silent.) How does French say “I am standing”? (***Je suis debout*** — a state pinned to *être*, not a verb, and *debout* is *de* + *bout*, “**on end**.”) *Penser* came from weighing; what does *lever* come from? (***Levis***, “**light in weight**.”) And the opposite movement? (*Je m’assieds*.)

27.3 ouvrir — “to open,” an -ir verb wearing -er endings

You can sit and rise. Now the hand from Chapter 17. This verb is French conjugation's small trap: spelled like one family, behaving like another.

You'll want to know: the word

ouvrir — to open. Said *oo-VREER*.

>

J'ouvre la main. — I open my hand.

French says *la main* where English says “my hand”; with your own body the article does the work. And listen to that nasal — *pain, main* — the same *-ain* you have been making since the bread.

Grammar Lens: the endings it should not have

Ouvrir ends in **-ir**, so you would expect it to run like *dormir*. It does not. It takes the endings of **marcher**, an *-er* verb, exactly:

- **j'ouvre** — *JOOVR*
- **tu ouvres** — *OOVR*
- **il ouvre** — *OOVR*
- **nous ouvrons** — *oo-VROHN*
- **vous ouvrez** — *oo-VRAY*
- **ils ouvrent** — *OOVR*

Four identical to the ear, *nous* and *vous* audible: the shape of *je marche, nous marchons*. A small group of *-ir* verbs does this, and *ouvrir* is the one you meet most. The spelling promises one thing; listen to what the verb does.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Latin's verb for opening was **aperīre**, which *ouvrir* does not look much like — because the word was remodelled on the way into popular Latin **operīre**. The likeliest cause is the pull of its own opposite, *cooperīre*, “to cover,” which became French **couvrir**. Opening and covering ended up rhyming and have stayed matched since. The meaning stayed *aperīre*'s; only the shape moved.

English collected both ends:

- from *aperīre* — an **aperture**; an **aperitif**, the drink that **opens**

a meal.

- from Old French *ovrir* — **overt**, its past participle “opened,” and **overture**, *ouverture*.
- from the covering half — **curfew**, Old French *cuevrefeu*, “**cover-fire**,” the bell that said to bank the hearth.

Set that beside the hand. *Maintenir* is *manū tenēre*, “**to hold in the hand**” — and *ouvrir la main* releases that grip.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “ouvrir” — *oo-VREER*
- “j’ouvre la main” — and hear *pain*, *main*
- “je marche, nous marchons” then “j’ouvre, nous ouvrons” — one shape
- “je m’assieds, je me lève, j’ouvre la main”
- “je suis debout et j’ouvre la main”
- “maintenir” then “ouvrir” — holding in the hand, then letting go
- “aperture, apéritif, overt, overture” — every one an opening

Before you move on

Say “I open my hand” and “we open.” (*J’ouvre la main. Nous ouvrons.*) Which endings does *ouvrir* borrow, despite its spelling? (The **-er** set — *marcher*’s.) What is an **apéritif**, literally? (**The opener** — the drink that opens a meal.) Why does *ouvrir* not look like Latin *aperīre*? (It was **reshaped** to match its own opposite, the verb for covering.)

27.4 fermer — “to close,” which in French means “to make firm”

The last of the four, and the opposite of the one before it. French chose an unexpected picture: to close a thing is to make it **firm**.

You’ll want to know: the word

fermer — to close. Said *fer-MAY*.

>

Je ferme la main. — I close my hand. **Il pleut. Je ferme.**
— It’s raining. I’m closing up.

A regular **-er** verb: *je ferme, tu fermes, il ferme, nous fermons, vous fermez, ils ferment*.

Grammar Lens: two opposites, one set of endings

Ouvrir borrowed the *-er* endings against its own spelling. *Fermer* owns them outright. So the two opposites conjugate in step, and drill as one pair:

- **j’ouvre / je ferme**
- **nous ouvrons / nous fermons**
- **ils ouvrent / ils ferment**

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

fermer ← Latin **firmāre**, “to make firm,” from **firmus**, “**firm**.” A Roman door was not closed, it was **secured**. English took the adjective and left the verb: **firm**, **affirm**, **confirm**, **infirm** and the **infirm**ary, the **firmament** — the sky as a solid vault. Probably also **farm**. Old French *ferme* meant a **fixed rent**, from Medieval Latin *firma*, “a fixed payment,” so a farm began as a lease and not a field. Etymologists call this history a confused one, because Old English *feorm*, “food-rent,” sat nearby and may have pulled on it. Likely, not clean. The best part is the split. One Latin verb, three languages, three jobs:

- French **fermer** — to **close**.
- Italian **fermare** — to **stop**.
- Spanish **firmar** — to **sign**, because a signature makes a paper firm.

And Spanish and Portuguese do not close with this verb at all. Their words come from Latin's **bolt**. So French shuts a door by making it solid while its neighbours slide a bar across.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “fermer” — *fer-MAY*
- “j’ouvre la main” then “je ferme la main”
- the chapter’s four — “je m’assieds, je me lève, j’ouvre, je ferme”
- “je suis debout et je ferme”
- “il pleut, je ferme”
- “vous fermez, s’il vous plaît” then “tu fermes, s’il te plaît” — formal, then familiar
- “je suis désolé, je ferme” — the apology before the refusal
- “fermer, firm, affirm, confirm” — all a making-firm

Before you move on

Say the chapter’s four with *je*. (*Je m’assieds, je me lève, j’ouvre, je ferme*.) What did *firmāre* mean, and what is a French door doing when it closes? (**Making firm** — being **secured**, not barred.) One Latin verb, three languages: Italian and Spanish? (*Fermare*, “to **stop**”; *firmar*, “to **sign**”). Now close politely in both registers, then apologise. (*Vous fermez, s’il vous plaît. Tu fermes, s’il te plaît. Je suis désolé.*) And the hand? (*J’ouvre la main, je ferme la main.*)

Chapter 28

Coffee, Tea, Milk, Sugar

Modes: 🗣️ voice (4) 🖱️ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can ask for coffee, tea, milk or sugar in French, and trace each word to the road it travelled to get there — one unbroken, one forked, one never borrowed, one from Sanskrit.

Ask for sugar, trace sucre to Sanskrit śárkarā through Arabic sukkar, and set the chapter's four masculine drink-words beside l'eau's lone feminine exception. Reaches back past the chapter to Chapter 18's si, the answer that contradicts a negative, and to the langue d'oïl / langue d'oc split behind oui itself.

28.1 le café — coffee, one word the whole road agrees on

You already know how to ask nicely — **s'il vous plaît**. Now something worth asking for: the first of four everyday words for what's on the table.

You'll want to know: the word

le café — coffee. Masculine.

Un café, s'il vous plaît. — “A coffee, please.”

Café also names the **place** you drink it, exactly the way English *cafe* does — one word, two jobs, in both languages at once.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

café comes from Ottoman Turkish **kahve**, which comes from Arabic **qahwa**. Arabic lexicographers record *qahwa* as an older word for **wine** — it only attached to the coffee bean once the drink spread out of Yemen, in the fifteenth century.

From Ottoman *kahve*, the word crossed into Europe through Italian **caffè** — and stopped there. French **café**, English **coffee**, German **Kaffee**, Italian **caffè** itself: every one of these is the *same* borrowing, taken at a different stop on a *single* road out of the Ottoman Empire. Nobody translated it; everybody just repeated it.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le café” — masculine
- “un café, s’il vous plaît”
- the road — “qahwa, kahve, caffè, café” — one word, four stops
- the surprise — “qahwa once meant **wine**”

Before you move on

Say “coffee, please.” (*Un café, s’il vous plaît.* — masculine.) What Arabic word is *café* from, and what did it mean before coffee existed? (*Qahwa* — “**wine**.”) Name the road it travelled. (**Arabic qahwa** → **Ottoman kahve** → **Italian caffè** → **French café**, with English *coffee* and German *Kaffee* the same borrowing at other stops.) Is *s’il vous plaît* the right register here? (**Yes** — spoken, to someone you don’t know well.)

28.2 le thé — tea, the word that took the other road

You just saw *café* travel Europe as one word, unchanged at every stop. Tea took the opposite kind of trip — it **split**.

You'll want to know: the word

le thé — tea. **Masculine.**

Un thé, s'il vous plaît. — “A tea, please.”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

China writes “tea” with one character everywhere, but doesn’t say it the same way everywhere. In Mandarin it’s **chá**. In the **Hokkien** of the south-eastern coast — the Amoy dialect — it’s **tê**.

Traders who bought the leaf overland or through Mandarin-speaking ports carried home **chá**: it travelled into Persian, into Arabic, into Hindi. Dutch traders bought their tea specifically at **Amoy**, in Hokkien territory, and carried home **tê** instead — which became Dutch **thee**, then French **thé**, English **tea**, German **Tee**.

So *café* and *thé* make a matched pair with opposite stories: *café* is one word repeated unchanged at every stop; *thé* is the *same original word*, worn into two different shapes depending which Chinese port a trader happened to deal with.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le thé” — masculine
- “un café, un thé” — both masculine, both borrowed
- the fork — “chá overland, tê by Dutch ship”
- the pair — “café: one road. thé: two.”

Before you move on

Say “tea, please.” (*Un thé, s'il vous plaît.* — masculine.) What Chinese dialect gave French *thé* its shape, and by what route? (**Hokkien** **tê**, carried by **Dutch** ships from the port of **Amoy**.) What’s the overland word that *chá*-family languages use instead? (**Chá**, into **Persian**, **Arabic**, **Hindi**.) How is *thé*’s story different from *café*’s? (*Café* stayed **one word** everywhere; *thé* **split in two** depending on the port.)

28.3 le lait — milk, the word French never had to borrow

Café and *thé* both crossed an ocean to reach French. This word never left home.

You'll want to know: the word

le lait — milk. Masculine, like *café* and *thé*.

Du lait, s'il vous plaît. — “Some milk, please.”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

lait comes from Latin *lac* (stem *lact-*) — a word Latin-speakers in Gaul simply kept saying, generation after generation, until it wore down into *lait*. No port, no trade route: this one was **inherited**, not borrowed, unlike *café*'s single road or *thé*'s forked one. English shows the same split *tête* showed for “head”: the **inherited**, everyday English word for this drink is **milk** — and it has **nothing to do with** *lac*. *Milk* descends from a completely different Proto-Indo-European root, one meaning “to milk a cow.” English only meets *lac*'s stem *lact-* in **learned** words borrowed straight from written Latin much later: **lactic**, **lactose**, **lactate**. So French *lait* and English *lactic* are close cousins; French *lait* and English *milk* are not related at all.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le lait” — masculine
- “un café, un thé, du lait” — three drinks, one gender
- the cousins — “lait, lactic, lactose”
- the non-cousins — “lait and milk share no root at all”

Before you move on

Say “milk, please.” (*Du lait, s’il vous plaît.* — masculine.) Is *lait* borrowed, like *café* and *thé*, or inherited straight from Latin? (**Inherited** — from *lac*, stem *lact-*.) Which English words are close cousins of *lait*? (**Lactic, lactose, lactate** — learned borrowings of the same stem.) Is English *milk* one of those cousins? (**No** — a completely different, unrelated root.)

28.4 le sucre — sugar, the longest road of the four

Coffee took one road, tea forked into two, milk never left home. Sugar’s road is the longest of all — and it ends the chapter with a whole table’s worth of masculine drink-words.

You’ll want to know: the word

le sucre — sugar. Masculine.

Du sucre, s’il vous plaît. — “Some sugar, please.”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

sucre ← Old French **çucrer** ← Arabic **sukkar** ← Persian **shakar** ← Sanskrit **śárkarā**, which first meant “**grit, gravel**” — crystallized sugar looked like gravel to whoever named it first. *Sucre* passed through Arabic just like *café* did, but through a **different** Arabic word (*sukkar*, not *qahwa*): a shared **language of transmission**, not a shared root. Where *lait* is inherited straight from Latin, *sucre* is borrowed — from **further back** than *café* or *thé*, all the way to Sanskrit.

Grammar Lens: a lean, and its one loud exception

Four drink-words, four **masculine** articles: *le café*, *le thé*, *le lait*, *le sucre*. Not a rule to trust — a lean: French tends to make plain substances masculine. This lean has a loud exception: **l’eau**, “water,” is **feminine**. You still learn each word with its article, the promise this book has kept since *la main*.

Why it's said this way

Chapter 18's **si** — the “yes” for contradicting a negative — fits this table exactly:

Vous ne voulez pas de sucre ? — Si, un peu. (“You don’t want sugar? — Yes, a little.”)

Plain **oui** here would agree you *don’t* want it; *si* is what pushes back. That same *oui* once mattered enough to **split a country** — *langue d’oïl* in the north, *langue d’oc* in the south.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le sucre” — masculine
- all four — “le café, le thé, le lait, le sucre”
- the exception — “l’eau” — feminine, against the lean
- the contradiction — “Vous ne voulez pas de sucre ? — Si !”

Before you move on

Say “sugar, please.” (*Du sucre, s’il vous plaît.* — masculine.) Trace *sucre* back to Sanskrit. (**Sukkar** ← **shakar** ← **śárkarā**, “**grit, gravel.**”) Do *café* and *sucre* share a root? (**No** — a language of transmission, Arabic, not a root; *qahwa* and *sukkar* are different words.) What is the lean about French drink-words, and what breaks it? (**Masculine by default** — broken by *l’eau*, feminine.) When do you answer **si** instead of **oui**? (**Contradicting a negative** — the same word-pair that once **split France** into *langue d’oïl* and *langue d’oc*.)

Chapter 29

The People You Introduce

Modes: 🗣️ voice (4) 🗣️ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can introduce a friend, name my family, name a child and name any person, using French’s four different relationships between grammatical gender and the person meant, and elide *le* or *la* to *l’* before a vowel.

Say la personne, always feminine even naming a man, then line the chapter’s four words up by how each one handles gender: l’ami changes, la famille is fixed, l’enfant is one spelling with two articles, la personne is fixed regardless of sex. Reaches back to Chapter 18’s non for a sound contrast (personne’s double -nn- blocks the nasal non has) and to its ne ... pas negation, which personne itself joins as “nobody.”

29.1 l’ami, l’amie — the friend, and why the article gives way

Chapter 28 handed you *le lait* and *le sucre*, and three more things to ask for. Now the people you’d ask them with — starting with the one whose name teaches French’s most useful spelling rule.

You’ll want to know: the word

un ami — a (male) friend. **une amie** — a (female) friend. Same sound, *ah-MEE*; the feminine just adds a silent **-e**. A regular swap: the article and ending follow **who the friend is**.

Grammar Lens: why it's l'ami, not le ami

Say **le ami** out loud: two vowels collide, *eu*h then *ah*, and French won't stand for it. So **le** and **la** both drop their vowel before a word that starts with one, and glue on with an apostrophe: **l'ami**, **l'amie** — one form for both genders once the article elides. This is the *exact* same move as *l'eau* — French never tolerates *le* or *la* sitting next to another vowel sound. It also happens to a pronoun you already use daily: *je ai* became **j'ai** by the identical rule.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

ami ← Latin **amicus**, “**friend**” — built on the verb **amāre**, “to love.” English kept the adjective whole in **amicable**, **amiable**, and **amity** (“friendship” between nations). A French *ami* is, at the root, someone you **love**.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “un ami, une amie” — the regular swap
- “l'ami, l'amie” — never *le ami*
- the family — “l'eau, j'ai, l'ami” — one rule, three words
- “amicable, amiable, amity” — all built on **amāre**, to love

Before you move on

Give “a friend” for a man and for a woman. (**un ami, une amie**.) Why do you say *l'ami* instead of *le ami*? (**Two vowels can't sit together** — the article **elides**, the same rule behind *l'eau* and *j'ai*.) What Latin verb is *ami* built on, and what does it mean? (**Amāre**, “to love.”)

29.2 la famille — the family, feminine no matter who's in it

L'ami changes shape with who it names. This word never does — whoever is in the family, the word itself stays exactly as it

is. (And before you had *l'ami*, you already had *le sucre* — every one of this book's nouns keeps its article.)

You'll want to know: the word

la famille — the family. **Feminine**, fixed — no elision here, since *famille* starts with a consonant: **la famille**, never *l'famille*.

The double **-ll-** after **i** is not said like an English L: **famille** is *fah-MEE-yuh*, the *-ille* landing as a **y**-sound, the *l* itself silent. You'll meet this **-ille** spelling again.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

famille ← Latin **familia**, “the household” — built on **famulus**, “servant, slave.” Roman *familia* named **everyone under one roof**: parents, children, and the servants who worked there, all together. It broadened to mean “blood relatives” only because relatives usually *were* the people sharing that roof. Where *ami* is built on **loving** someone, *famille* is built on **living with** them.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “la famille” — feminine, no elision
- the sound — “fa-MI-yuh,” not “fa-MILL”
- the contrast — “un ami: loving. la famille: living together.”

Before you move on

Say “the family.” (**La famille** — feminine.) Why doesn't it elide to *l'famille*? (**It starts with a consonant** — elision only happens before a vowel.) What did Latin *familia* originally include besides relatives? (**The household's servants**, from *famulus*.)

29.3 l'enfant — the child, one word for both

La famille stays fixed no matter who's in it. This member of it does something different again: **one spelling**, for a boy or a girl alike.

You'll want to know: the word

l'enfant — the child. Starts with a vowel, so the article **elides** again, exactly like *l'ami*: **un enfant** (a boy), **une enfant** (a girl) — but the *word itself* never changes. Only **un/une** tells you which.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

enfant ← Latin *īnfāns*, “**not speaking**” — **in-** “not” + **fāns**, “speaking” (from *fārī*, “to speak”). Literally, a baby too young to talk. But Romans already stretched *īnfāns* to cover children well past babyhood long before French existed, and French *enfant* simply inherited that wider sense — it didn't narrow English **infant** into something broader. The two words split apart in a different way: English kept the narrow, original “not-yet-speaking” sense for its borrowing, while French's everyday word carried the older, already-widened Latin meaning forward.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “un enfant, une enfant” — one spelling, two articles
- the elision — “l'enfant,” never *le enfant*
- “in- + fari” — not speaking
- the family so far — “l'ami, la famille, l'enfant”

Before you move on

How do you tell a boy child from a girl child in French, if the word itself never changes? (**The article** — *un enfant* / *une enfant*.) What does *enfant* literally mean, and where does that meaning come from? (“**Not speaking**” — *in-* + *fārī*, “to speak.”) Does French narrow Latin's meaning or keep it wide? (**Keeps it wide** — Latin had already stretched *īnfans* past babyhood.)

29.4 la personne — the person, and the mask behind the word

L'ami changes with its friend; *l'enfant* doesn't, but its article does. This last one is the strangest of the four: it never changes at all — **not even for a man**.

You'll want to know: the word

la personne — the person. **Always feminine** — grammatically, whether you mean a man, a woman, or anyone at all:

Cet homme est une bonne personne. — “That man is a good person.”

Homme is masculine; *personne* describing him stays **feminine** regardless. Grammatical gender here has come loose from the person's actual sex entirely — further even than *ami*, which at least tracks who's meant.

Sounds you'll need

Personne looks like it should rhyme with **non**'s nasal *-on* — it doesn't. Double **-nn-** blocks the nasal: **non** is nasal, said through the nose, but **personne** ends oral, *pehr-SUN*, the vowel staying in the mouth. One consonant, doubled, is the difference between a nasal ending and a plain one.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

personne ← Latin **persona**, a **theatrical mask** — from Etruscan **phersu**, most likely from Greek **prósōpon**, “face.” A tidy but doubted story derives it from *per-* + *sonāre*, “sound through” (the mask an actor's voice rang through); linguists reject it on the vowel length, so treat it as folk etymology, not fact.

Pair *personne* with **ne** and it flips to “**nobody**” — *je ne vois personne* = “I see **nobody**.” Behind an empty mask, no one at all.

Grammar Lens: four people, four kinds of gender

The chapter's four words, side by side:

- *l'ami* / *l'amie* — **changes** with who's meant; elides either way.

- **la famille** — **fixed** feminine, whoever’s in it; no elision.
- **l’enfant** — **one** spelling; only **un/une** shows which; elides.
- **la personne** — **fixed** feminine, even naming a man.

Four different relationships between gender and the person named — none of them the “normal” case. Each is its own rule, learned with the word.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “la personne” — always feminine
- “cet homme est une bonne personne”
- the contrast — “non” nasal, “personne” not
- the flip — “je ne vois personne” — nobody

Before you move on

Is *personne* ever masculine, even describing a man? (**No** — **always feminine**, grammatically.) Why doesn’t *personne* nasalize like *non*? (**Double -nn-** blocks it.) What does *ne ... personne* mean, and what does that use share with *ne ... pas*? (“**Nobody**” — the same negation frame Chapter 18 built around *ne*.) Is *persona* really built on “sounding through”? (**Probably not** — a folk etymology; the real root is likely Etruscan *phersu*, “**mask**.”)

Chapter 30

Cheese, Butter, Salt, Egg

Modes: ⇄ voice (4) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can ask for cheese, butter, salt or an egg in French, and say why *un œuf* keeps its final *f* while *les œufs* drops it.

*Ask for an egg, hold *un œuf*'s pronounced *f* against *les œufs*' silent one, and place *œuf* beside English egg as genuine cousins rather than a borrowing. Reaches back past the chapter to *le sel*, *le beurre* and *le fromage*, and to Chapter 29's elision rule, which *l'œuf* needs exactly as *l'ami* did.*

30.1 le fromage — cheese, named for its mould

You can name *la personne* and *l'enfant* now. Chapter 28 asked politely for a drink; this chapter asks for what goes with it — starting with a word every other Romance language names completely differently.

You'll want to know: the word

le fromage — cheese. Masculine.

Du fromage, s'il vous plaît. — “Some cheese, please.”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

fromage ← Medieval Latin **formāticum**, “a thing made in a mould” — built on **forma**, “shape, mould.” Cheesemakers press curds into a mould to set their shape, and French named the finished cheese for **that step**.

Classical Latin’s actual word for cheese was **caseus** — and that word is what survives in Spanish **queso** and Portuguese **queijo**, as well as English **casein** and Old English **cyse**, the ancestor of **cheese** itself. So French *fromage* and English *cheese* are **not** cousins: French walked away from *caseus* entirely and named the cheese for its mould instead, while Spanish, Portuguese and English all kept the old word for the curd.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le fromage” — masculine
- “du fromage, s’il vous plaît”
- the mould — “forma → fromage”
- the split — “fromage and cheese are not cousins; queso, queijo and cheese all come from caseus”

Before you move on

Say “cheese, please.” (*Du fromage, s’il vous plaît.* — masculine.) What Latin word is *fromage* built on, and what did it mean? (**Forma**, “**shape, mould.**”) Which Romance languages kept the older word for cheese instead, and what is it? (**Spanish queso**, **Portuguese queijo** — from Latin **caseus**, also behind English **casein** and **cheese**.)

30.2 le beurre — butter, one loanword twice

Fromage took a French road all its own. This word, French and English took **together** — the exact same borrowing, not two.

You'll want to know: the word

le beurre — butter. Masculine.

Du beurre, s'il vous plaît. — “Some butter, please.”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

beurre ← Latin **būtyrum** ← Greek **boútūron**, usually broken down as **boûs** “cow” + **tyrós** “cheese” — “cow-cheese.” But butter wasn’t a Greek or Roman product; both cultures were oil cultures, and most likely imported both the substance and the word from further east, possibly from Scythian traders. Treat “cow-cheese” as a **folk reshaping** of a foreign word into familiar Greek pieces, not a certain compound.

Either way, English **butter** borrows the *identical* Latin word French **beurre** does. This isn’t two languages separately naming the same thing — it’s **one loanword, arriving twice**.

Why it’s said this way

Chapter 20’s courtesy words fit right here:

Désolé, il n’y a plus de beurre. — “Sorry, there’s no more butter.”

Désolé — real regret, for running out. If you’d only bumped the butter dish, **pardon** would do instead; to get someone’s attention before asking for it at all, **excusez-moi**.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le beurre” — masculine
- “du beurre, s’il vous plaît”
- “beurre, butter” — one word, borrowed twice
- “désolé, il n’y a plus de beurre”

Before you move on

Say “butter, please.” (*Du beurre, s’il vous plaît.* — masculine.) Is “cow-cheese” a safe etymology for *boûturon*? (**Not certain** — likely a Greek reshaping of a foreign word, since butter wasn’t native to Greece or Rome.) Is French *beurre* related to English *butter* by common descent or by borrowing? (**Borrowing** — the same Latin word, taken by both languages.) When would you reach for *pardon* instead of *désolé*? (**A small, quick slip** — not real regret.)

30.3 le sel — salt, a real cousin and a fake legend

Beurre was one word borrowed twice. This one is different again — a genuine family relative of its English counterpart, plus a famous story about it that isn’t actually true.

You’ll want to know: the word

le sel — salt. Masculine.

Du sel, s’il vous plaît. — “Some salt, please.”

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

sel ← Latin **sal**, stem **sal-** — **inherited**, like *lait*, not borrowed like *café* or *sucre*. English **salt** is a genuine **cousin**: both words descend from the same Proto-Indo-European root, ***sal-**, inherited separately down the Latin and Germanic branches. Unlike *lait* and *milk*, which share no root at all, *sel* and *salt* really are family.

Latin **salārium** — English **salary** — is built on this same *sal*. You may have heard that Roman soldiers were literally paid in salt, which is where “salary” supposedly comes from. That claim appears in **no ancient source**; no Roman writer says it. *Salārium* genuinely is built on *sal* — that part is real — but the vivid soldiers-and-salt story attached to it later, and belongs with folk etymology, not fact.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le sel” — masculine

- “du sel, s’il vous plaît”
- the real cousins — “sel, salt — one PIE root, two branches”
- “beurre, fromage, sel” — three foods, all masculine

Before you move on

Say “salt, please.” (*Du sel, s’il vous plaît.* — masculine.) Is *sel* related to English *salt* by common descent or by borrowing? (Common descent — both from PIE **sal-*, a genuine cousin pair.) Is the “soldiers paid in salt” story behind *salary* true? (No — it appears in no ancient source; *salārium* really is built on *sal*, but the legend is later.)

30.4 l’œuf — the egg, that loses its consonant only in the plural

Fromage, beurre, sel — three foods, three masculine articles. The fourth starts with a vowel, so this chapter closes the way it began: with the elision rule from *l’ami*.

You’ll want to know: the word

l’œuf — the egg. **Masculine**, and it elides — never *le œuf*.

Un œuf, s’il vous plaît. — “An egg, please.” Said with a clear final **f**: *un-EUF*.

Now the plural: **les œufs**. Spelled with the same *-fs*, but the **f** **disappears entirely** — *lay-ZEU*, not *lay-ZEUFs*. One noun, and its final consonant survives in the singular only to vanish in the plural.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

œuf ← Latin **ovum**, from a Proto-Indo-European word for “egg,” ***h₂ōwyóm**. English **egg** descends from the *same* root, by the Germanic road (Old Norse *egg*, from Proto-Germanic **ajja-*) — a real cousin pair, exactly like *sel* and *salt*, not a borrowing in either direction. The Latin-only learned family — **oval**, **ovary**, **ovum** itself — are the ones English took straight from written Latin, sitting beside

its own native *egg*.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “l’œuf” — masculine, elided
- “un œuf” — f pronounced
- “les œufs” — f silent
- the cousins — “œuf, egg — same PIE root, two branches”

Before you move on

Say “an egg, please,” then “the eggs.” (*Un œuf, s’il vous plaît* — f pronounced; *les œufs* — f silent.) Why does *l’œuf* elide? (**Vowel-initial** — same rule as *l’ami*.) Is *œuf* borrowed from Latin *ovum*, or a genuine cousin of it? (**A cousin** — both from PIE **h₂ōwyóm*, like English *egg*.) Name the chapter’s four foods with their articles. (*Le fromage, le beurre, le sel, l’œuf* — all masculine.)

Chapter 31

Eyes, Nose, Mouth, Stomach

Modes: ⇄ voice (4) ⇄ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can name the eye and its irregular-looking plural *yeux*, the nose, the mouth and the stomach in French, extending Chapter 17's head and hand.

Say j'ai mal au ventre, take ventriloquist apart as "belly-speaker," and close the chapter's own four words (l'œil/les yeux, le nez, la bouche, le ventre) beside Chapter 17's head and hand. Reaches back past the chapter to la main's nasal -ain, contrasted with ventre's own different nasal vowel, and further back to le café, l'ami and l'œuf, one word from each of this book's four newest chapters.

31.1 l'œil, les yeux — the eye, and a plural that only looks broken

Chapter 17 gave you the head and the hand. This chapter fills in the rest of the body it left for later — starting above the mouth.

You'll want to know: the word

l'œil — the eye. **Masculine**, and it elides — never *le œil*. Its plural is completely different in **shape**: **les yeux**.

Tête, remember, is feminine even though it never looks like a body part should tell you its gender; *œil* is masculine, on the same body, right above it.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

œil ← Vulgar Latin **oclus** (from **oculus**, “eye”) — a heavily worn singular. **Yeux** ← Latin’s plural **oculōs**, and *that* development is completely **regular** sound change, the ordinary path *oculōs* was always going to take.

So *les yeux* doesn’t break the rules — *œil* does. The singular eroded further and faster than the plural did, and the two paths simply arrived looking unrelated. French has a small family of nouns built this way — *le ciel* / *les cieux* (“sky/skies”), *le travail* / *les travaux* (“work/works”) — an odd-looking plural is often the **regular** one, standing next to a singular that took the shortcut.

Why it’s said this way

You may remember *tête* itself came from **testa**, a soldier’s joke for “pot” that replaced the real Latin word for head. *Œil* never had that kind of accident — it’s simply the ordinary, expected descendant of *oculus*, sitting on the very pot the joke was about.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “l’œil” — one eye, masculine
- “les yeux” — both eyes, different shape
- “la tête, l’œil” — feminine pot, masculine eye
- the family — “le ciel/les cieux, œil/yeux” — same pattern

Before you move on

Say “the eye” and “the eyes.” (**L’œil, les yeux.**) Which form is the *regular* sound outcome of Latin — *œil* or *yeux*? (**Yeux** — from *oculōs*; *œil* is the one that eroded further.) What other French noun changes shape the same way between singular and plural? (**Le ciel / les cieux**, or **le travail / les travaux.**) What was *tête* originally a soldier’s joke for? (**A pot.**)

31.2 le nez — the nose, another real cousin

Below the eye, the nose — and a third pair of true cousins, joining *sel/salt* and *æuf/egg*.

You'll want to know: the word

le nez — the nose. **Masculine**, final **z** **silent**: *NAY*.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

nez ← Latin **nāsus**, from PIE ***nas-**. English **nose** descends from the *same* root, down the Germanic branch — a genuine cousin, exactly the pattern *sel/salt* and *æuf/egg* already showed you.

English **nasal** is a *different* kind of relative: a **learned** borrowing of the Latin word itself, sitting beside native *nose* the same way *lactic* sits beside native *milk*. One root, French *nez* and English *nose* both inherited; one root, English separately borrowed as *nasal*.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le nez” — silent z
- “l’œil, le nez” — eye, nose
- the cousins — “nez, nose — same PIE root”
- the borrowing — “nasal,” taken later, straight from Latin

Before you move on

Say “the nose.” (**Le nez** — masculine, silent z.) Is *nez* related to English *nose* by inheritance or by borrowing? (**Inheritance** — both from PIE **nas-*, a **genuine cousin pair**.) **Where does English *nasal* fit?** (**A learned borrowing of the Latin word, alongside native *nose* — the same relationship as *lactic* beside *milk*.**)

31.3 la bouche — the mouth, which used to mean “cheek”

Tête wasn’t Latin’s word for head. This one wasn’t Latin’s word for mouth, either.

You’ll want to know: the word

la bouche — the mouth. **Feminine.**

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

Classical Latin’s real word for “mouth” was **ōs**. But Latin’s vowel lengths eventually stopped being pronounced, and short **os** “**bone**” and long **ōs** “**mouth**” **collapsed into the same sound**. Faced with that collision, speakers reached for a slangy stand-in instead: **bucca**, which had meant “**cheek**” — much the way an English speaker might call a mouth a “cheek” in passing. The slang stuck, and **bucca** became French’s ordinary word for mouth: **bouche**.

English kept *bucca*’s **original** sense in one narrow technical word, **buccal** (“of the cheek,” used mostly by dentists) — never demoted to “mouth” the way French’s everyday word was.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “la bouche” — feminine
- “le nez, la bouche” — nose, mouth
- the collision — “os ’bone’, ōs ’mouth’ — same sound”
- “bucca” — cheek, the slang that took over

Before you move on

Say “the mouth.” (**La bouche** — feminine.) What did Latin *bucca* originally mean? (“**Cheek.**”) Why did *bucca* replace the real Latin word for mouth, *ōs*? (**It collided in sound with os, “bone,”** once vowel length stopped being pronounced.) Which English word still keeps *bucca*’s original “cheek” sense? (**Buccal.**)

31.4 le ventre — the stomach, closing four chapters of everyday words

Eye, nose, mouth — three words down. One more, and this book’s body vocabulary reaches all the way from Chapter 17’s head and hand to here.

You’ll want to know: the word

le ventre — the stomach, the belly. **Masculine.**

J’ai mal au ventre. — “My stomach hurts.”

Say the nasal: **ven-**. It’s a different vowel from *la main*’s *-ain*, even though both endings are written with a nasal consonant after the vowel — French has several distinct nasal vowels, and *main* and *ventre* use two of them.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

ventre ← Latin **venter**, stem **ventr-**, “belly.” English kept two learned words on this stem: **ventral** (“of the belly,” the opposite of *dorsal*), and **ventriloquist** — *venter* + *loquī*, “to speak” — literally a “**belly-speaker**,” someone whose voice seems to come from the stomach rather than the mouth.

Grammar Lens: five chapters, tied off

Before you close the book on this run, three threads from earlier chapters, tied off here:

- **la tête** is **feminine** (Chapter 17), was Roman soldiers’ slang for a **pot**, and wears a circumflex that marks a **lost s**.
- **oui** once **split a country** into *langue d’oïl* and *langue d’oc* (Chapter 18); its cousin **si** is the one you use to contradict a negative.
- and among this run’s own new words — **le sel**, **la personne** — every one still carries the article that names its gender, exactly the promise this book made back at *la main*.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- “le ventre” — masculine
- “j’ai mal au ventre”
- “main, ventre” — two different nasal vowels
- “ventriloquist” — the belly-speaker
- the whole run — “le café, l’ami, l’œuf, le ventre” — four chapters, one thread

Before you move on

Say “my stomach hurts.” (*J’ai mal au ventre.*) What English word literally means “belly-speaker”? (**Ventriloquist** — *venter* + *loquē*.) Is *ventre*’s nasal the same vowel as *la main*’s? (**No** — a different nasal vowel, despite both being spelled with a nasal consonant.) Name the four body words this chapter added to Chapter 17’s head and hand. (*L’œil* (les yeux), *le nez*, *la bouche*, *le ventre*.)

Chapter 32

Asking a Question — Three Ways, and Which One to Use

Modes: 🗣️ voice (9) 🗣️ Hands-free start: all 9 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can ask a question in French three ways — by raising my voice, with *est-ce que*, and by inversion — choose between them by how formal the moment is, and ask where, when, how, how much and why.

The one question word that agrees with its noun, closing a chapter that began with the question costing no new words at all.

32.1 une question — the question you make with your voice alone

You can say a great deal in French and cannot yet ask anything. This chapter fixes that, and the first way costs you no new words at all.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

French has three ways to ask a question. This is the first, the cheapest, and by far the commonest in speech — and it costs you **nothing new at all**.

Tu parles français. — You speak French. **Tu parles français ?** — You speak French?

The words are identical. The order is identical. The only

difference is that the second one rises at the end, and in writing, a question mark.

That is a real question, correct and unremarkable, and it is what a French speaker uses with friends, family, in a shop, all day. Note the space before the question mark — French puts a thin space before ?, !, : and ;, which English does not.

Why start here. Textbooks usually open with the formal inversion, which is the rarest of the three and the hardest to build. You can ask about anything you can already say, right now, by lifting your voice. Everything after this lesson is about *register* and *precision*, not about being understood.

Your turn

- *Say it: une question*
- *Ask:* the same question all three ways you know so far

Before you move on

How do you turn a French statement into a question with no new words? (**Raise your voice** at the end.) Is that correct French, or a shortcut? (**Correct**, and the commonest form in speech.) And what does French put before a question mark? (A **space**.)

32.2 *est-ce que* — the phrase that announces a question before it starts

Recall the previous piece before adding another.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

The second way. Put **est-ce que** in front of a statement and it becomes a question:

Est-ce que tu parles français ?

Nothing else moves. The statement stays exactly as it was; the phrase sits in front of it like a flag.

It is worth taking apart, because it looks like three words and behaves like one. Literally it is *est-ce que* = “is it that...” — French built a

question marker out of a tiny sentence, then wore it down until nobody hears the parts any more. A speaker says it as one word, roughly *ESS-kuh*.

When you would choose it. It is more neutral than the voice-only question and less formal than the inversion coming next — the safe middle. In writing, where your voice cannot rise, it is the ordinary way to ask.

English has no equivalent and does not need one, because English inverts instead: *do you speak...* That English **do** is doing the same job — a meaningless word inserted to mark a question — so the device is familiar even though the word is not.

Your turn

- *Say it: est-ce que*
- *Ask:* the same question all three ways you know so far

Before you move on

What does **est-ce que** do to a statement? (Turns it into a **question**, with nothing else moving.) What is it literally? (*Is it that...*) And which English word does the same job? (**Do**, as in *do you speak*.)

32.3 où — where

Recall the previous piece before adding another.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

où — where

Où est la gare ? — Where is the station? **Tu vas où ?**
— Where are you going?

Both are correct. The question word can open the sentence or sit at the end where the answer would go, and the second is what you will hear far more in speech.

Now the accent, which is not decoration. French has two words spelled *o-u*:

- **ou** — *or*
- **où** — *where*

The grave accent is the **only** difference in writing, and in speech there is no difference at all: both are *oo*. This is the one place in French where an accent does nothing to the sound and everything to the meaning, which is why it is never optional.

You now hold the first question word, and with it a question you can actually use on the first day in a French city.

Your turn

- *Say it:* *où*
- *Ask:* the same question all three ways you know so far

Before you move on

What does **où** mean? (**Where.**) What is the same word without the accent? (**Or.**) And do they sound different? (**No** — the accent is meaning only.)

32.4 quand — when

Recall the previous piece before adding another.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

quand — when

Quand est-ce que tu arrives ? — When do you arrive?

The **d** is silent. *Quand* is *kahn*, nasal, with nothing on the end — until the next word begins with a vowel, and then it comes back **as a t**:

Quand est-ce que... — *kahn-TESS-kuh*

That is **liaison**, and it is one of the things that makes fast French hard to cut into words: the consonants at the ends of words are silent alone and audible in company. Nobody writes it down; every speaker does it.

Latin **quando** is the ancestor, and it is worth spending: Spanish *cuándo*, Italian *quando*, Portuguese *quando* — and the *qu-* on all of them is the same Latin question-word opening you see in English **query**, **question** and **quest**.

Your turn

- *Say it: quand*
- *Ask: the same question all three ways you know so far*

Before you move on

What does **quand** mean? (**When.**) Is the *d* pronounced? (**Not alone** — but it returns as a *t* before a vowel.) What is that called? (**Liaison.**)

32.5 comment — how

Recall the previous piece before adding another.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

comment — how

You already say it. **Comment allez-vous ?** is *how are you*, and you learned it before you knew it contained a question word.

Comment tu dis ça ? — How do you say that?

Comment ? — on its own: *Sorry?* / *Pardon?*

That last one is worth having. Used alone it is how a French speaker asks you to repeat — politer than *quoi ?*, which is the blunt *what?* The origin is Latin **quomodo**, “in what manner”, and English took the same idea by a different road: **mode**, **modal** and **manner** are all from *modus*, the “how” half of it.

Your turn

- *Say it: comment*

- *Ask:* the same question all three ways you know so far

Before you move on

What does **comment** mean? (**How**.) Which phrase you already knew contains it? (*Comment allez-vous* — how are you.) And what does **Comment ?** alone mean? (**Sorry?** / **Pardon?**)

32.6 combien — how much and how many

Recall the previous piece before adding another.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

combien — how much, how many

C'est combien ? — How much is it? **Combien de personnes ?** — How many people?

English splits this and French does not. *Much* for things you measure, *many* for things you count — French uses **combien** for both and lets the noun sort it out. One word fewer to choose between, and one of the rare places French is simpler than English.

Note **combien de** before a noun. The *de* is not optional and does not change for number: *combien de personnes*, *combien d'argent*.

C'est combien ? is the single most useful question in this chapter for a traveller, and it is three words long.

Your turn

- *Say it:* *combien*
- *Ask:* the same question all three ways you know so far

Before you move on

What does **combien** cover that English splits in two? (**How much** and **how many**.) What must follow it before a noun? (**de**.) And how do you ask a price? (*C'est combien ?*)

32.7 pourquoi — why

Recall the previous piece before adding another.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

pourquoi — why

Take it apart: **pour** (“for”) + **quoi** (“what”). *For what?* French built its *why* out of two words you can already see, and English does the same thing in *what for?*

And the answer is built to match:

Pourquoi ? — Why? **Parce que...** — Because...

Par ce que is “by that which”. So the question is *for what* and the answer is *by that which* — a matched pair, and the reason this book teaches them together rather than one now and one later.

That gives you the last of the five question words, and with *parce que* you can now join two clauses into one sentence, which is more than a question: it is the beginning of connected speech.

Your turn

- *Say it: pourquoi*
- *Ask:* the same question all three ways you know so far

Before you move on

What is **pourquoi** made of? (**pour** + **quoi** — *for what*.) What answers it? (**Parce que...** — *because*.) And what is *parce que* literally? (*By that which*.)

32.8 parlez-vous — the third way to ask

Recall the previous piece before adding another.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

The third and last way. Swap the verb and the subject, and join them with a hyphen:

Tu parles français. → Parles-tu français ? Vous parlez français. → Parlez-vous français ?

This is **inversion**, and it is the form English used to have — *speak you French?* — and lost, keeping it only in *are you, have you, can you*.

Where the three ways differ is register, not meaning:

- **Tu parles français ?** — friends, family, shops. Commonest by far.
- **Est-ce que tu parles français ?** — neutral, and the default in writing.
- **Parlez-vous français ?** — formal, written, or deliberately polite.

A beginner is often taught inversion first and then sounds like a textbook in every conversation. It is the one you need to **recognise** immediately and can afford to **produce** last.

One sound rule: if the verb ends in a vowel and the subject begins with one, French inserts a **-t-** to keep them apart — *parle-t-il, a-t-elle*. It exists purely so two vowels do not collide.

Your turn

- *Say it: parlez-vous*
- *Ask: the same question all three ways you know so far*

Before you move on

What are the three ways to ask a question? (**Voice, est-ce que, inversion.**) Which is commonest in speech? (**Voice.**) Which should you learn to recognise first and produce last? (**Inversion.**) And why the *-t-* in *parle-t-il*? (To keep **two vowels apart.**)

32.9 quel, quelle — which

Recall the previous piece before adding another.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

quel — which, what

Every question word so far has been invariable. This one is not: **quel** is an **adjective**, and like every French adjective it agrees with the noun it asks about.

Quel jour ? — Which day? (*masculine*) **Quelle heure ?**
— What time? (*feminine*) **Quels livres ?** — Which
books? (*masculine plural*) **Quelles questions ?** — Which
questions? (*feminine plural*)

All four sound identical. *Kell*, every time. The agreement is entirely written — which makes it a spelling problem rather than a speaking one, and it is one of the commonest places a French exam takes marks off.

You already use one of these without thinking: **Quelle heure est-il ?** — what time is it. *Heure* is feminine, so *quelle* takes two *ls* and an *e*. That is the fifth and last way this chapter teaches you to ask. Three structures, five question words, and one adjective that agrees.

Your turn

- *Say it: quel, quelle*
- *Ask: the same question all three ways you know so far*

Before you move on

Why does **quel** change and *où* does not? (**Quel** is an **adjective** and agrees with its noun.) Do the four forms sound different? (**No** — all *kell*.) So what kind of problem is it? (A **spelling** one.)

Chapter 33

Want, Can, Must

Modes: 🗣️ voice (4) 🗣️ Hands-free start: all 4 lessons.

By the end of this chapter: I can say what I want, what I can do and what I must do, put any verb I already know behind vouloir, pouvoir or devoir without changing it, and choose je voudrais over je veux when I am asking rather than stating.

Three verbs that between them open a sentence for every verb the reader already owns – and the point at which correct French used at the wrong moment is named as a harder mistake to hear than a grammatical one.

33.1 vouloir — to want

Put **est-ce que** in front of a statement and it becomes a question.
Hold that; you will need it in a moment.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

vouloir — to want. Here are the singular forms, which is what you need first:

Say it as a chant, three beats:

je veux — tu veux — il veut

I want, you want, he wants. And notice what your ear reports: **all three sound identical.** *veux, veux, veut* — the spelling distinguishes them and the mouth does not. That is why French keeps the subject pronoun in front: without *je* or *tu*, nothing tells a listener who wants what.

Then a *want* needs something wanted, and it follows directly:

- **Je veux un café.** — I want a coffee.
- **Tu veux le pain ?** — Do you want the bread?

Why it's said this way

Now the part a phrasebook will not tell you, and the reason this word needs a warning where *parler* did not.

Je veux is blunt in a request. Said to a waiter or a shopkeeper it lands close to English *I want*, which is to say it lands badly. It is perfectly ordinary elsewhere — *je veux dire* is “I mean”, and *je veux bien* is a cheerful “gladly” — so the problem is not the word, it is the counter. French has a softened form built for exactly this, and it is the one you should reach for by default:

je voudrais — *I would like*

Same verb, different shape. **Je voudrais un café** is what a French speaker actually says across a counter, and it is no harder to say than *je veux*.

So learn both, and learn when each belongs. *Je veux* is for a want you are simply stating — to a friend, to a child, about yourself. **Je voudrais is for asking anyone for anything.** If you are unsure which you are doing, you are asking, and you want *voudrais*.

Your turn

- *Say it: je veux, tu veux, il veut* — and hear that all three are the same sound
- *Say it: je voudrais un café*, as though to a stranger behind a counter
- *Ask: est-ce que tu veux un café ?*

Before you move on

Give the three singular forms. (**Veux, veux, veut** — all said the same.) You are ordering coffee from someone you have never met: which form do you use? (**Je voudrais**, never *je veux*.)

33.2 pouvoir — can

Say *je voudrais un café*. That was a want, softened.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

pouvoir — **to be able**, and in practice **can**. The singular:
Same chant, three beats:

je peux — tu peux — il peut

I can, you can, he can. The same pattern you just met: **all three sound alike**, and the pronoun carries the person.

That final *t* is silent — until you invert. **Peut-il ?** wakes it, and needs no added *-t-* the way *parle-t-il* did, because this verb already has one. *Peux, peux, peut* — and note it rhymes with nothing in *vouloir*, but behaves identically.

What follows *pouvoir* is a **plain, unchanged verb**:

- **Je peux parler français.** — I can speak French.
- **Tu peux aider ?** — Can you help?

Nothing happens to *parler* or *aider*. They arrive in the dictionary form and stay there, which makes this one of the cheapest structures in French: every **plain** verb you know can be put behind *peux* with no change at all.

One group does change, and you already own two of them. A verb that carries *se* keeps it, and the *se* matches the person: **je peux m'asseoir, tu peux te lever**. The verb itself is still untouched; only its little pronoun follows you.

Why it's said this way

The reason *pouvoir* matters early has little to do with ability. Asking someone to do something by telling them to do it is abrupt in French, as it is in English. What French reaches for instead is a **question about ability** — the same move English makes with *can you*:

Tu peux fermer la porte ? — Can you close the door?

Nobody is really asking whether the other person is capable. The question is the politeness, and it is why *pouvoir* buys you more than a translation would suggest.

For a stranger, soften it the same way *vouloir* softened into *voudrais* — the identical shift, on this verb:

Pourriez-vous fermer la porte ?

Your turn

- Say it: *je peux, tu peux, il peut* — again, one sound between them
- Say it: *je peux parler français*
- Ask: *tu peux aider ?*

Before you move on

What happens to the verb that follows *peux*? (**Nothing** — it stays in its dictionary form.) Why does a beginner need *pouvoir* early? (Because **asking whether someone can** is how French makes a polite request.)

33.3 devoir — must

Say *je peux parler français*. The second verb did not change.

The word, taken apart — and its English cousins

devoir — to have to, must. The singular, and by now you can predict the shape of the problem:

je dois — tu dois — il doit

I must, you must, he must. **All three sound alike again.** Three verbs in a row have done this, which is the point worth carrying away: in the French present singular, the three persons are routinely one sound, and the pronoun is what tells them apart. This is not a quirk of these three words.

The exceptions are the three verbs you learned earliest, and they are exceptions because they are used constantly: *suis / es / est, ai / as /*

a, vais / vas / va. Everywhere else, expect one sound.

A plain verb follows, exactly as after *peux*:

- **Je dois partir.** — I must leave.
- **Tu dois entendre.** — You must hear.

Why it's said this way

devoir comes from Latin *dēbēre*, **to owe** — and it never stopped meaning that. The same French verb still does both jobs:

- **Je dois partir.** — I must leave.
- **Je te dois dix euros.** — I owe you ten euros.

One word, two obligations — and the order matters. The owing came first: the Latin verb meant *to owe*, and the sense of *must* grew out of it, exactly as English *ought* grew out of *owed*.

That Latin *dēbēre* is also where English gets **debt**, **debit** and **due** — so a word you have never seen has been sitting in your own vocabulary all along, spelled differently and meaning the half of *devoir* that involves money.

Your turn

Say these aloud:

- *je dois, tu dois, il doit*
- *je dois partir*
- *je te dois dix euros* — the same verb, the other meaning

Before you move on

What two things does *devoir* mean? (**Must**, and **to owe**.) Which English words share its Latin root? (**Debt**, **debit**, **due**.)

33.4 Practice — want, can, must

Say *je dois partir*.

What you've built

Three verbs, one shape between them. Say each chant in turn:

je veux — tu veux — il veut

>

je peux — tu peux — il peut

>

je dois — tu dois — il doit

Every chant is three forms that sound identical, and between the three chants you have wanting, being able, and having to.

And all three do the same structural thing: **a plain verb follows, unchanged.**

- **Je veux partir.** — I want to leave.
- **Je peux partir.** — I can leave.
- **Je dois partir.** — I must leave.

That is the payoff, and it is larger than three words. Every verb you have learned in this book — *parler, aider, fermer, ouvrir, écrire, lire, dormir* — can be dropped in behind any of these three with **no change of any kind**. You have not learned three expressions. You have learned three openings, and you already own everything that goes after them.

Why it's said this way

One caution carried forward, because it is the difference between sounding capable and sounding rude.

- Stating a want to a friend: **je veux.**
- Asking anyone for anything: **je voudrais.**
- Asking someone else to act: **tu peux...?** or **vous pouvez...?**

The blunt form is not wrong French. It is correct French used at the wrong moment, which is a harder mistake to hear and an easier one to make.

Your turn

- *Say it: je veux partir, je peux partir, je dois partir*
- *Say it: the same three with parler français instead of partir*
- *Ask: vous pouvez fermer la porte ?*

Before you move on

What happens to a verb placed after *veux*, *peux* or *dois*? (**Nothing** — it stays in its dictionary form.) You want to ask a stranger to close a window: which of the three do you start with? (***Vous pouvez...***)

Pronunciation — a reference, not a chapter

Not to be read before starting. Each lesson names the sounds its word needs and points here for more. French spelling hides more sound than Spanish — silent letters, nasal vowels, liaison — so this page is worth dipping into, but it is never a wall to climb first.

Three habits to unlearn

- **Silent final consonants.** Most are silent: *salut* = *sa-LU* (no *t*); *les* = *lay* (no *s*). Usually kept: final *c*, *r*, *f*, *l*.
- **Nasal vowels.** *on*, *an*, *in* send the vowel through the nose and silence the *n*: *bon* = *bõ*, *bien* = *byẽ*.
- **Liaison.** A silent final consonant can reconnect onto a following vowel (*vous avez* = *vou-zavez*). Later.

Vowels

- **ou** = *oo* (*jour* = *zhoor*).
- **u** = a front-rounded *ee* with pursed lips (*salut*, *tu*) — no English equivalent, not *oo*.
- **oi** = *wa* (*soir* = *swahr*).
- **é** = crisp *ay*; **è/ê** = open *eh*.

Nasal vowels

- **on/om** = nasal *õ* (*bon*, *bonjour*).
- **in/ain/ien** = nasal *ẽ* (*bien*, *bientôt*).
- **an/en** = nasal *ã* (*comment*, *enchanté*).
- A doubled *nn/mm* cancels the nasal: *bon* (*bõ*) vs. *bonne* (*bun*).

Consonants that differ

- **j** (and soft **g**) = the *zh* of *measure* (*jour*).
- **r** = a soft guttural at the back of the throat — not the Spanish tap nor the English *r*.
- **h** = always silent. **ch** = English *sh* (*enchanté*). **gn** = *ny* (= Spanish *ñ*).

Accents

French accents mark *vowel quality*, not stress (unlike Spanish): *é* (closed), *è/ê* (open), *ç* (soft *s*). French stresses the last syllable of a group, lightly and evenly.

Glossary

This glossary collects every word and phrase taught in the book. Pronunciation appears when it differs from the written form; chapter numbers show where each entry is introduced.

(s')appeler

to call / to call oneself

Introduced in Chapter 2.

à bientôt

see you soon (literally “to well-soon”)

Introduced in Chapter 4.

à demain

see you tomorrow (literally “to tomorrow”)

Introduced in Chapter 4.

à plus tard

see you later (literally “to more late”)

Introduced in Chapter 4.

aider

to help — English aid arriving by the Latin road, while English help came by the Germanic one; the two words are unrelated

Introduced in Chapter 24.

aimer

to like AND to love — one French verb where English keeps two, so the strength comes from what follows it, and adding bien makes it WEAKER

Introduced in Chapter 24.

aller

to go (and, oddly, “to be” in “how are you?”)

Introduced in Chapter 3.

au revoir

goodbye (literally “until the seeing-again”)

Introduced in Chapter 4.

avoir

to have — the most worn-down verb in French, and a root you already met

Introduced in Chapter 14.

bien

well / good / fine

Introduced in Chapter 1.

bon / bonne

good (adjective)

Introduced in Chapter 1.

bonjour

hello / good day

Introduced in Chapter 1.

bonne nuit

good night (going to bed)

Introduced in Chapter 1.

bonsoir

good evening

Introduced in Chapter 1.

chien, chat

dog and cat — chien is the REGULAR, expected descendant of canis (unlike Spanish's mysterious perro); chat continues cattus, the same Egypt-to-Rome story as Spanish's gato

Introduced in Chapter 22.

combien

how much and how many — one word where English needs two

Introduced in Chapter 32.

comme ci, comme ça

so-so (literally “like this, like that”)

Introduced in Chapter 3.

comment

how

Introduced in Chapter 2.

comment

how — a word you have been using since your first lesson

Introduced in Chapter 32.

comment ça va ?

how are you? — the neutral everyday question

Introduced in Chapter 3.

comment vous appelez-vous?

what's your name? (literally “how do you call yourself?”)

Introduced in Chapter 2.

comprendre

to understand — literally com- + prendre, “to take together,” so in French understanding IS grasping, and the verb conjugates exactly like the one it is built from

Introduced in Chapter 25.

courir

to run — Latin currere, the root under current, course, courier and curriculum, and the verb that shows why chien palatalized its c and courir did not
Introduced in Chapter 26.

de rien

you're welcome (literally "of nothing")
Introduced in Chapter 3.

demander

to ask — an ordinary, polite, everyday word, and one of the sharpest false friends French holds for an English speaker
Introduced in Chapter 24.

devoir

must — the third of the set, and the one with a debt inside it
Introduced in Chapter 33.

dix-sept — vingt

17–20 — the seam where French gives up fusing and just says "ten-seven"
Introduced in Chapter 12.

dormir

to sleep — Latin dormīre, unchanged in French, and the source of dormitory and dormant, though not of the dormouse
Introduced in Chapter 26.

écrire

to write — Latin scribere, "to scratch," with a propped-up é- that French added in front of every borrowed sc-, sp- and st- word
Introduced in Chapter 25.

enchanté(e)

pleased to meet you (literally "enchanted")
Introduced in Chapter 2.

entendre

to hear — from a Latin verb meaning "to stretch toward," so English's intend is its closest surviving cousin, and French still keeps the older sense in entendu and s'entendre
Introduced in Chapter 26.

être

to be — the six present forms
Introduced in Chapter 16.

fermer

to close — from Latin firmāre, "to make firm," so a French door is not shut but made fast; the same verb gave Italian "to stop" and Spanish "to sign"
Introduced in Chapter 27.

habiter

to live / to dwell (a second -er verb — same pattern)
Introduced in Chapter 5.

heure

hour / o'clock — telling the time

Introduced in Chapter 8.

il parla

the passé simple — the tense the passé composé drove out of speech, alive only in books

Introduced in Chapter 15.

j'ai parlé

the passé composé — a past tense built out of “have”, and a possessive that hardened

Introduced in Chapter 15.

j'ai vingt ans

age — French HAS its years, it doesn't BE them

Introduced in Chapter 14.

je

I

Introduced in Chapter 2.

je m'appelle...

my name is... (literally “I call myself...”)

Introduced in Chapter 2.

Je parle français

“I speak French” — your first full sentence (français = French)

Introduced in Chapter 5.

je suis allé(e)

the compound past with être and subject agreement

Introduced in Chapter 16.

je suis désolé(e)

I'm sorry (literally “I am desolate”)

Introduced in Chapter 20.

jour

day (le jour — masculine)

Introduced in Chapter 1.

l'ami, l'amie

friend — masculine or feminine by a regular swap, and the reason le/la elides to l' before a vowel

Introduced in Chapter 29.

l'eau, le vin

water and wine — eau, the most eroded Latin word of all

Introduced in Chapter 11.

l'enfant

child — one spelling for both genders, the article alone showing which; literally “not yet speaking”

Introduced in Chapter 29.

l'œil, les yeux

eye — masculine, with a plural that looks irregular but is the REGULAR outcome of Latin oculos; œil's own singular is the piece that changed
Introduced in Chapter 31.

l'œuf, les œufs

egg — masculine, a genuine cousin of English egg, and the one French noun whose final consonant vanishes only in the plural
Introduced in Chapter 30.

la bouche

mouth — feminine, and originally the Latin word for cheek, not mouth at all
Introduced in Chapter 31.

la famille

family — feminine and fixed, whoever is in it, and once meant the household's servants
Introduced in Chapter 29.

la main

the hand — feminine despite ending in a consonant, and the root of half the words you know
Introduced in Chapter 17.

la personne

person — feminine no matter who is meant, even a man, and secretly “nobody” when it stands next to ne
Introduced in Chapter 29.

la tête

the head — from Latin for a clay pot
Introduced in Chapter 17.

le / la / les

the (masculine / feminine / plural)
Introduced in Chapter 1.

le beurre

butter — masculine, and the same borrowed word as English butter, not two separate coinages
Introduced in Chapter 30.

le café

coffee — masculine, and the one drink-word nearly all of Europe borrowed along the same single road
Introduced in Chapter 28.

le frère, la sœur

brother and sister — frater and soror, behind fraternal and sorority
Introduced in Chapter 10.

le fromage

cheese — masculine, and named for its MOULD rather than for the milk it's made from
Introduced in Chapter 30.

le lait

milk — masculine, and the one drink in this chapter French did not have to borrow
Introduced in Chapter 28.

le nez

nose — masculine, a silent final z, and another genuine cousin of its English counterpart
Introduced in Chapter 31.

le pain

bread — and the “companion” who shares it
Introduced in Chapter 11.

le père, la mère

father and mother — the PIE root behind paternal and maternal
Introduced in Chapter 10.

le sel

salt — masculine, cousin of English salt by common descent, and the source of a salary story no ancient writer actually tells
Introduced in Chapter 30.

le sucre

sugar — masculine, closing a chapter where every drink-word is; the fourth and longest road of the four
Introduced in Chapter 28.

le temps, il pleut

weather — le temps means BOTH “time” and “weather,” the SAME Latin tempus polysemy as Spanish’s tiempo; il pleut keeps Latin’s pl- UNCHANGED, unlike Spanish’s llueve
Introduced in Chapter 21.

le thé

tea — masculine, and the drink whose name split in two depending which Chinese port a trader dealt with
Introduced in Chapter 28.

le ventre

stomach — masculine, nasal like la main but through a different vowel, and the word that closes four chapters of everyday nouns
Introduced in Chapter 31.

les mois

the months — a parade of Roman gods and emperors
Introduced in Chapter 9.

les saisons

the seasons — spring, summer, autumn, winter
Introduced in Chapter 9.

lire

to read — from a Latin verb that first meant “to gather,” which is why reading, electing, collecting and being elegant all turn out to be the same act
Introduced in Chapter 25.

lundi, mardi, mercredi, jeudi, vendredi

the weekdays (Monday–Friday) — named for the planets
Introduced in Chapter 7.

marcher

to walk — and also to work, so ça marche is the most useful two words in the chapter; its own origin is genuinely unsettled between a Frankish verb and a Latin hammer
Introduced in Chapter 26.

me

me / myself (reflexive & object pronoun)
Introduced in Chapter 2.

merci

thank you
Introduced in Chapter 3.

midi, minuit

noon and midnight — the “mid-day” and “mid-night” hours
Introduced in Chapter 8.

noir, blanc

black and white — one word inherited from Latin, one borrowed from the Germanic neighbours
Introduced in Chapter 13.

non

no / not
Introduced in Chapter 18.

nuit

night (la nuit — feminine)
Introduced in Chapter 1.

onze — seize

11–16, the six fused numbers French inherited whole from Latin
Introduced in Chapter 12.

où

where — and the accent that separates it from a completely different word
Introduced in Chapter 32.

oui

yes
Introduced in Chapter 18.

ouvrir

to open — an -ir verb that takes -er endings, from a Latin verb reshaped to look like its own opposite, and the source of English overt and overture
Introduced in Chapter 27.

parler

to speak / to talk (your first regular -er verb)

Introduced in Chapter 5.

penser

to think — from a Latin verb meaning “to weigh,” which is why English pensive, ponder, compensate, expense and even the flower pansy all sit in one family

Introduced in Chapter 25.

pourquoi

why — and the answer word that is built to match it

Introduced in Chapter 32.

pouvoir

can — the verb that turns a demand into a request

Introduced in Chapter 33.

prendre

to take — the grasping verb English borrowed a dozen times over, from prehensile to prison to surprise

Introduced in Chapter 24.

quand

when — and a silent d that comes back to life

Introduced in Chapter 32.

rouge, bleu

red and blue — one ancient inherited root, and a second Germanic loan

Introduced in Chapter 13.

s’asseoir

to sit down — a verb you do to yourself, from Latin sedēre, and the one French verb that ships with two accepted sets of forms

Introduced in Chapter 27.

s’il vous plaît

please (literally “if it pleases you”)

Introduced in Chapter 19.

salut

hi / bye (informal)

Introduced in Chapter 1.

samedi, dimanche

the weekend (Saturday, Sunday) — where the planets give way to religion

Introduced in Chapter 7.

se lever, debout

to stand — French has no single verb for it, so the movement is se lever (“to lighten yourself”) and the state is être debout, literally “on end”

Introduced in Chapter 27.

six, sept, huit, neuf, dix

the numbers 6–10 (and the months hidden in them)

Introduced in Chapter 6.

soir

evening (le soir — masculine)

Introduced in Chapter 1.

travailler

to work (a third -er verb — and the origin of “travel”)

Introduced in Chapter 5.

tu / vous

you (familiar / formal)

Introduced in Chapter 2.

un, deux, trois, quatre, cinq

the numbers 1–5

Introduced in Chapter 6.

vert, jaune

green and yellow — vert is the standard, expected Latin viridis descendant shared by nearly every Romance language; jaune comes from a Latin word that literally meant “yellow-GREEN,” and is usually said to share its ultimate PIE root with

German’s gelb, though that particular link is less secure than it first appears

Introduced in Chapter 23.

vouloir

to want — and why je voudrais is the form you will actually use

Introduced in Chapter 33.

Review Questions

Try these without looking ahead. Every prompt comes from the same canonical lesson data as its chapter. Answers begin in the next section.

Chapter 1

1.1 salut — *let your eye and hand meet one known word*

Which written letter stays silent at the end of salut?

1.2 salut — *one supported copy*

Copy the visible word salut once, then report how many letters you wrote.

1.3 salut — *look, hide, write, compare*

After hiding the model for five seconds, write the casual greeting and then compare it.

1.4 *One heard greeting — write what you know*

From the heard cue sa-LU alone, write the known casual greeting.

Chapter 18

18.1 *oui — yes*

French has two words for yes. Which one contradicts a negative?

Answer Key

The first response is the canonical display answer. When a question accepts other authored forms, they appear underneath.

Chapter 1

1.1 salut — *let your eye and hand meet one known word*

Answer: t

Also accepted: the final t; final t

1.2 salut — *one supported copy*

Answer: salut — five letters

Also accepted: salut; 5; five

1.3 salut — *look, hide, write, compare*

Answer: salut

1.4 *One heard greeting — write what you know*

Answer: salut

Chapter 18

18.1 *oui — yes*

Answer: si

Also accepted: si!

Index

Look up an English meaning, a dedicated language topic, or a chapter topic. Each linked reference opens the chapter where the material is introduced; the focus labels name only explicitly typed lesson sections.

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11–16, the six fused numbers French inherited whole from

Latin *onze* — *seize*

Chapter 12, p. 53

17–20 — the seam where French gives up fusing and just says

“ten-seven” *dix-sept* — *vingt*

Chapter 12, p. 53

A

age — French HAS its years, it doesn’t BE them *j’ai vingt ans*

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Asking a Question — Three Ways, and Which One to Use

chapter topic; Chapter 32, p. 155

B

black and white — one word inherited from Latin, one borrowed

from the Germanic neighbours *noir*, *blanc*

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bread — and the “companion” who shares it *le pain*

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Bread, Water, Wine

chapter topic; Chapter 11, p. 51

brother and sister — frater and soror, behind fraternal and sorority *le frère, la sœur*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 10, p. 47

butter — masculine, and the same borrowed word as English

butter, not two separate coinages *le beurre*

explicit focus: etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 30, p. 143

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can — the verb that turns a demand into a request *pouvoir*

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child — one spelling for both genders, the article alone showing which; literally “not yet speaking” *l'enfant*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 29, p. 137

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day (le jour — masculine) *jour*

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dog and cat — chien is the REGULAR, expected descendant of canis (unlike Spanish's mysterious perro); chat continues cattus, the same Egypt-to-Rome story as Spanish's gato *chien, chat*

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eye — masculine, with a plural that looks irregular but is the
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Eyes, Nose, Mouth, Stomach

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Family

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family — feminine and fixed, whoever is in it, and once meant
the household's servants *la famille*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 29, p. 137

Farewells

chapter topic; Chapter 4, p. 21

father and mother — the PIE root behind paternal and
maternal *le père, la mère*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 10, p. 47

friend — masculine or feminine by a regular swap, and the
reason le/la elides to l' before a vowel *l'ami, l'amie*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 29, p. 137

G

good (adjective) *bon / bonne*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 1, p. 1

good evening *bonsoir*

explicit focus: etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 1, p. 1

good night (going to bed) *bonne nuit*

explicit focus: etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 1, p. 1

goodbye (literally “until the seeing-again”) *au revoir*

explicit focus: pronunciation, etymology; Chapter 4, p. 21

Green and Yellow

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green and yellow — vert is the standard, expected Latin *viridis* descendant shared by nearly every Romance language; *jaune* comes from a Latin word that literally meant “yellow-GREEN,” and is usually said to share its ultimate PIE root with German’s *gelb*, though that particular link is less secure than it first

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M

me / myself (reflexive & object pronoun) *me*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 2, p. 9

milk — masculine, and the one drink in this chapter French did

not have to borrow *le lait*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 28, p. 131

Months and Seasons

chapter topic; Chapter 9, p. 43

mouth — feminine, and originally the Latin word for cheek, not

mouth at all *la bouche*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 31, p. 149

must — the third of the set, and the one with a debt inside

it *devoir*

explicit focus: etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 33, p. 165

my name is... (literally “I call myself...”) *je m’appelle...*

explicit focus: usage and culture; Chapter 2, p. 9

N

night (la nuit — feminine) *nuit*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 1, p. 1

no / not *non*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 18, p. 79

noon and midnight — the “mid-day” and “mid-night”

hours *midi, minuit*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 8, p. 41

nose — masculine, a silent final *z*, and another genuine cousin of its English counterpart *le nez*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 31, p. 149

Numbers Eleven to Twenty

chapter topic; Chapter 12, p. 53

Numbers One to Ten

chapter topic; Chapter 6, p. 33

O

One heard greeting — write what you know

script and writing topic; explicit focus: writing; Chapter 1, p. 1

P

parlez-vous — the third way to ask

grammar topic; explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 32, p. 155

person — feminine no matter who is meant, even a man, and

secretly “nobody” when it stands next to *ne la personne*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 29, p. 137

Please

chapter topic; Chapter 19, p. 83

please (literally “if it pleases you”) *s’il vous plaît*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 19, p. 83

pleased to meet you (literally “enchanted”) *enchanté(e)*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 2, p. 9

Q

quel, quelle — which

grammar topic; explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 32, p. 155

R

red and blue — one ancient inherited root, and a second

Germanic loan *rouge, bleu*

Chapter 13, p. 55

S

salt — masculine, cousin of English salt by common descent, and the source of a salary story no ancient writer actually tells *le sel*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 30, p. 143

salut — let your eye and hand meet one known word

script and writing topic; explicit focus: writing; Chapter 1, p. 1

salut — look, hide, write, compare

script and writing topic; explicit focus: writing; Chapter 1, p. 1

salut — one supported copy

script and writing topic; explicit focus: writing; Chapter 1, p. 1

see you later (literally “to more late”) *à plus tard*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 4, p. 21

see you soon (literally “to well-soon”) *à bientôt*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 4, p. 21

see you tomorrow (literally “to tomorrow”) *à demain*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 4, p. 21

Sitting, Standing, Opening, Closing

chapter topic; Chapter 27, p. 121

so-so (literally “like this, like that”) *comme ci, comme ça*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 3, p. 15

Sorry

chapter topic; Chapter 20, p. 85

stomach — masculine, nasal like *la main* but through a different vowel, and the word that closes four chapters of everyday

nouns *le ventre*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 31, p. 149

sugar — masculine, closing a chapter where every drink-word is;

the fourth and longest road of the four *le sucre*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 28, p. 131

suis / fus / étais — three stems

etymology topic; Chapter 16, p. 67

T

Taking, Asking, Helping, Loving

chapter topic; Chapter 24, p. 95

tea — masculine, and the drink whose name split in two depending which Chinese port a trader dealt with *le thé*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 28, p. 131

Telling the Time

chapter topic; Chapter 8, p. 41

thank you *merci*

explicit focus: pronunciation, etymology; Chapter 3, p. 15

The Compound Past

chapter topic; Chapter 15, p. 63

the compound past with être and subject agreement *je suis allé(e)*

Chapter 16, p. 67

The Days of the Week

chapter topic; Chapter 7, p. 37

The First Verbs

chapter topic; Chapter 5, p. 27

the hand — feminine despite ending in a consonant, and the root of half the words you know *la main*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 17, p. 73

the head — from Latin for a clay pot *la tête*

explicit focus: pronunciation, etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 17, p. 73

the (masculine / feminine / plural) *le / la / les*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 1, p. 1

the months — a parade of Roman gods and emperors *les mois*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 9, p. 43

the numbers 1–5 *un, deux, trois, quatre, cinq*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 6, p. 33

the numbers 6–10 (and the months hidden in them) *six, sept, huit, neuf, dix*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 6, p. 33

the passé composé — a past tense built out of “have”, and a possessive that hardened *j’ai parlé*

Chapter 15, p. 63

the passé simple — the tense the passé composé drove out of speech, alive only in books *il parla*

Chapter 15, p. 63

The People You Introduce

chapter topic; Chapter 29, p. 137

the seasons — spring, summer, autumn, winter *les saisons*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 9, p. 43

the weekdays (Monday–Friday) — named for the planets *lundi, mardi, mercredi, jeudi, vendredi*

explicit focus: pronunciation; Chapter 7, p. 37

the weekend (Saturday, Sunday) — where the planets give way to religion *samedi, dimanche*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 7, p. 37

to ask — an ordinary, polite, everyday word, and one of the sharpest false friends French holds for an English

speaker *demander*

explicit focus: etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 24, p. 95

To Be, and the Past That Takes It

chapter topic; Chapter 16, p. 67

to be — the six present forms *être*

Chapter 16, p. 67

to call / to call oneself *(s')appeler*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 2, p. 9

to close — from Latin firmāre, “to make firm,” so a French door is not shut but made fast; the same verb gave Italian “to stop”**and Spanish “to sign”** *fermer*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 27, p. 121

to go (and, oddly, “to be” in “how are you?”) *aller*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 3, p. 15

To Have, and How Old You Are

chapter topic; Chapter 14, p. 59

to have — the most worn-down verb in French, and a root you already met *avoir*

Chapter 14, p. 59

to hear — from a Latin verb meaning “to stretch toward,” so English’s intend is its closest surviving cousin, and French still**keeps the older sense in** *entendu* **and** *s’entendre* *entendre*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 26, p. 111

to help — English aid arriving by the Latin road, while English help came by the Germanic one; the two words are**unrelated** *aider*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 24, p. 95

to like AND to love — one French verb where English keeps two, so the strength comes from what follows it, and adding bien**makes it WEAKER** *aimer*

explicit focus: etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 24, p. 95

to live / to dwell (a second -er verb — same pattern) *habiter*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 5, p. 27

to open — an -ir verb that takes -er endings, from a Latin verb reshaped to look like its own opposite, and the source of English**overt and overture** *ouvrir*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 27, p. 121

to read — from a Latin verb that first meant “to gather,” which is why reading, electing, collecting and being elegant all turn out**to be the same act** *lire*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 25, p. 103

to run — Latin currere, the root under current, course, courier and curriculum, and the verb that shows why chien palatalized**its c and courir did not** *courir*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 26, p. 111

to sit down — a verb you do to yourself, from Latin *sedēre*, and the one French verb that ships with two accepted sets of forms *s’asseoir*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 27, p. 121

to sleep — Latin *dormīre*, unchanged in French, and the source of dormitory and dormant, though not of the dormouse *dormir*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 26, p. 111

to speak / to talk (your first regular -er verb) *parler*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 5, p. 27

to stand — French has no single verb for it, so the movement is *se lever* (“to lighten yourself”) and the state is *être debout*, literally “on end” *se lever, debout*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 27, p. 121

to take — the grasping verb English borrowed a dozen times over, from prehensile to prison to surprise *prendre*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 24, p. 95

to think — from a Latin verb meaning “to weigh,” which is why English *pensive*, *ponder*, *compensate*, *expense* and even the flower *pansy* all sit in one family *penser*

explicit focus: pronunciation, etymology; Chapter 25, p. 103

to understand — literally *com-* + *prendre*, “to take together,” so in French understanding IS grasping, and the verb conjugates exactly like the one it is built from *comprendre*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 25, p. 103

to walk — and also to work, so *ça marche* is the most useful two words in the chapter; its own origin is genuinely unsettled between a Frankish verb and a Latin hammer *marcher*

explicit focus: etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 26, p. 111

to want — and why *je voudrais* is the form you will actually use *vouloir*

explicit focus: etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 33, p. 165

to work (a third -er verb — and the origin of “travel”) *travailler*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 5, p. 27

to write — Latin *scribere*, “to scratch,” with a propped-up *é-* that French added in front of every borrowed *sc-*, *sp-* and *st-* word *écrire*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 25, p. 103

U

une question — the question you make with your voice alone

grammar topic; explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 32, p. 155

V

Verbs of the Mind

chapter topic; Chapter 25, p. 103

W

Want, Can, Must

chapter topic; Chapter 33, p. 165

water and wine — eau, the most eroded Latin word of all *l'eau, le vin*

Chapter 11, p. 51

Weather

chapter topic; Chapter 21, p. 89

weather — le temps means BOTH “time” and “weather,” the SAME Latin tempus polysemy as Spanish’s tiempo; il pleut keeps Latin’s pl- UNCHANGED, unlike Spanish’s llueve *le temps, il pleut*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology; Chapter 21, p. 89

well / good / fine *bien*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 1, p. 1

what’s your name? (literally “how do you call yourself?”) *comment vous appelez-vous?*

explicit focus: grammar; Chapter 2, p. 9

when — and a silent d that comes back to life *quand*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 32, p. 155

where — and the accent that separates it from a completely different word *où*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 32, p. 155

why — and the answer word that is built to match it *pourquoi*

explicit focus: etymology; Chapter 32, p. 155

Y

yes *oui*

explicit focus: grammar, etymology, usage and culture; Chapter 18, p. 79

Yes and No

chapter topic; Chapter 18, p. 79

you (familiar / formal) *tu / vous*

explicit focus: pronunciation, grammar, etymology; Chapter 2, p. 9

you’re welcome (literally “of nothing”) *de rien*

explicit focus: pronunciation, etymology; Chapter 3, p. 15